

MASCO101

Tools for Success — Your Human Edge in an AI World

EU Business School · Masters Level 7 · Term I · 5 ECTS · AY 2026/27

Framework Sheet Library

Master Index · 16 Slibraries · 80 Reference Sheets · aligned with the Unit 1–8 slide decks

8

Course Units

Know Yourself, Think Better, Present,
Communicate, Deliver, Negotiate,
Work Smarter with AI

16

Slibraries

thematic clusters, two per unit,
colour-coded

80

Framework Sheets

nine sections each, print-ready A4

1

Unifying thread

Your Human Edge in an AI World

Design philosophy

Each sheet follows the same layout: professional definition, who developed it, why it was developed, an illustrative figure drawn from the framework's own structure, how, when and by whom it is used, the innovation relative to the predecessor tool, the Human Edge angle, related frameworks in this course, and Harvard-referenced sources. The sixteen Slibraries are exactly those opened in the unit slide decks, two per unit and five frameworks each, so the library can be read as a mental Slibrary in the sense of Meier (2025): a catalogue of shapes reviewed before you need them, not while you need them.

Every core message in this library was distilled with Bostelaar's clarify-then-craft discipline before the unit was built. Read the core message first; the frameworks are the tools for acting on it.

Unit 1

Introduction to Tools for Success & Digital/AI Literacy
Guided Discovery · 2 Slibraries · 10 framework sheets

CORE MESSAGE

AI collapses the cost of execution; it raises the price of judgment.

Guiding question What makes you irreplaceable when the machine can already do the task?
Learning focus Foundations & digital fluency · **ILO 1**
ILO 1 — Systematically select key concepts and principles of operations and technology management that need to be implemented to support value creation.

SLIBRARY 1 · The Human Edge Foundation		5 sheets · pp. 11–15
What remains distinctly human when execution becomes cheap.		
1	The Human Edge Triangle Judgment · Relationship · Responsibility — the three capabilities AI cannot hold	p. 11
2	WEF Skills Outlook 2030 Analytical thinking, resilience and AI literacy top the fastest-growing skills	p. 12
3	Mollick's Four Rules of Co-Intelligence Invite AI to the table · Be the human in the loop · Give it a persona · Assume it improves	p. 13
4	Automation–Augmentation Spectrum Task-level continuum from AI replacing work to AI enhancing it	p. 14
5	Bloom's Revised Taxonomy — AI Waterline Where generative AI is strong, and where cognition must stay yours	p. 15

SLIBRARY 2 · Digital & AI Literacy		5 sheets · pp. 16–20
Judging sources, models and claims in a generative environment.		
1	DigComp 2.2 — Five Competence Areas The European reference model for digital competence	p. 16
2	The CRAAP Test Currency · Relevance · Authority · Accuracy · Purpose	p. 17
3	SIFT — Four Moves Stop · Investigate the source · Find better coverage · Trace to the original	p. 18
4	The Hallucination Risk Ladder Risk rises as verifiability falls — from summary to citation to specific number	p. 19
5	The AI Disclosure Ladder Five levels of declared AI use, from none to substantially generated	p. 20

Unit 2

Know Yourself: Self-Assessment as a Strategic Tool

Diagnostic Studio · 2 Slibraries · 10 framework sheets

CORE MESSAGE

A self-assessment you cannot act on is a horoscope.

Guiding question What can a profile of you never capture — and can you name it out loud?

Learning focus Self-assessment & personal positioning · **ILO 1**

ILO 1 — Systematically select key concepts and principles of operations and technology management that need to be implemented to support value creation.

SLIBRARY 3 · Self-Diagnosis Instruments

5 sheets · pp. 21–25

Structured ways of seeing yourself that other people can also see.

1	Personal SWOT / TOWS Internal strengths and weaknesses against external opportunities and threats	p. 21
2	The Johari Window Open · Blind · Hidden · Unknown — the four panes of self-knowledge	p. 22
3	DISC Behavioural Model Dominance · Influence · Steadiness · Conscientiousness	p. 23
4	MBTI Dichotomies Four preference pairs producing sixteen type patterns	p. 24
5	The Big Five (OCEAN) Openness · Conscientiousness · Extraversion · Agreeableness · Neuroticism	p. 25

SLIBRARY 4 · Direction & Development

5 sheets · pp. 26–30

Turning a diagnosis into a roadmap with dates on it.

1	Ikigai Love · Skill · Need · Payment — the overlap that sustains a career	p. 26
2	The GROW Model Goal · Reality · Options · Will — the four-stage coaching conversation	p. 27
3	SMART Goals Specific · Measurable · Achievable · Relevant · Time-bound	p. 28
4	Dreyfus Skill Acquisition Model Novice → Advanced Beginner → Competent → Proficient → Expert	p. 29
5	Growth vs Fixed Mindset Ability as trainable capacity or as a fixed quantity	p. 30

Unit 3

Think Better: Critical Thinking & Analytical Reasoning

Case Study Duel · 2 Slibraries · 10 framework sheets

CORE MESSAGE

AI answers the question you asked. Judgment is knowing it was the wrong question.

Guiding question Where does your reasoning end and the model's autocomplete begin?

Learning focus Critical thinking & structured problem-solving · **ILO 1**

ILO 1 — Systematically select key concepts and principles of operations and technology management that need to be implemented to support value creation.

SLIBRARY 5 · Structured Problem-Solving

5 sheets · pp. 31–35

Frameworks that force a problem into a shape you can argue about.

1	SCQA Situation · Complication · Question · Answer	p. 31
2	First Principles Thinking Decompose to what is certainly true, then rebuild	p. 32
3	The IDEAL Model Identify · Define · Explore · Act · Look back	p. 33
4	5 Whys Root Cause Analysis Ask why five times to move from symptom to cause	p. 34
5	The Double Diamond Discover · Define · Develop · Deliver — two cycles of divergence and convergence	p. 35

SLIBRARY 6 · Judgment, Bias & Sense-Making

5 sheets · pp. 36–40

The predictable ways good reasoners go wrong — and the corrections.

1	System 1 / System 2 Fast automatic judgment against slow effortful reasoning	p. 36
2	The Cognitive Bias Quartet Anchoring · Confirmation · Availability · Overconfidence	p. 37
3	The Cynefin Framework Clear · Complicated · Complex · Chaotic — matching response to domain	p. 38
4	The Ladder of Inference From observable data to action, one unexamined rung at a time	p. 39
5	The Automation Bias Curve Trust in an automated aid rises faster than its reliability warrants	p. 40

Unit 4

Present & Position Yourself: Personal Branding & Presentation Skills

Pitch Arena · 2 Slibraries · 10 framework sheets

CORE MESSAGE

A brand is not what you claim. It is what survives after you leave the room.

Guiding question If a model can write your pitch, what is left that only you can say?

Learning focus Personal branding & persuasive delivery · **ILO 5**

ILO 5 — Critically review the communication process, stakeholder communication and communication in diverse work groups.

SLIBRARY 7 · Message, Brand & Narrative

5 sheets · pp. 41–45

Bostelaar's clarify-then-craft discipline applied to your own positioning.

- | | | |
|---|--|-------|
| 1 | The Message Strategy Spectrum
Convince ← → Clarify: motivational or informational, and the blend between | p. 41 |
| 2 | Distil · Decompose · Prioritise
Bostelaar's four-step compression from paragraph to one sentence | p. 42 |
| 3 | The Golden Circle
Why → How → What: start from purpose, not from product | p. 43 |
| 4 | StoryBrand SB7
The customer is the hero; you are the guide | p. 44 |
| 5 | The Personal Brand Pyramid
Attributes → Benefits → Values → Personality → Essence | p. 45 |

SLIBRARY 8 · Presentation Craft

5 sheets · pp. 46–50

Structure, slide design and delivery under time pressure.

- | | | |
|---|---|-------|
| 1 | The Pyramid Principle
Answer first, then grouped and summarised supporting arguments | p. 46 |
| 2 | Talk Like TED — Nine Secrets
Emotion · Novelty · Memorability across three dimensions | p. 47 |
| 3 | Assertion–Evidence Slide Design
A sentence headline making a claim, supported by a visual — not bullets | p. 48 |
| 4 | Data-Ink Ratio
Maximise the ink that carries information; erase the rest | p. 49 |
| 5 | The Yerkes–Dodson Nerve Curve
Performance peaks at moderate arousal, then collapses | p. 50 |

Unit 5

Communicate with Impact: Executive Presence & Business Communication

Boardroom Role Play · 2 Slibraries · 10 framework sheets

CORE MESSAGE

Executive presence is the ability to stay clear while the pressure rises.

Guiding question Can you hold a room that does not agree with you?

Learning focus Business communication & executive presence · **ILO 5**

ILO 5 — Critically review the communication process, stakeholder communication and communication in diverse work groups.

SLIBRARY 9 · Business Communication Architecture

5 sheets · pp. 51–55

How a professional message is built before it is delivered.

1	Shannon–Weaver Model Source · Encoder · Channel · Noise · Decoder · Destination	p. 51
2	The 7 Cs of Communication Clear · Concise · Concrete · Correct · Coherent · Complete · Courteous	p. 52
3	BLUF — Bottom Line Up Front Decision first, then context, then detail	p. 53
4	The Storyline Canvas Plot and character mapped across setup, conflict and conclusion	p. 54
5	Story Structure Arc Inciting incident → point of no return → crisis → climax	p. 55

SLIBRARY 10 · Audience, Culture & Presence

5 sheets · pp. 56–60

Adapting register, channel and pace across cultures and hierarchies.

1	Hofstede's Cultural Dimensions Six dimensions of national cultural variation in the workplace	p. 56
2	The Culture Map — Eight Scales Communicating, evaluating, leading, deciding, trusting, disagreeing, scheduling, persuading	p. 57
3	High-Context / Low-Context How much meaning sits in the words versus in the situation	p. 58
4	Executive Presence Gravitas · Communication · Appearance	p. 59
5	Mehrabian 7-38-55 — and Its Misuse Words, tone and face — within the narrow conditions Mehrabian actually tested	p. 60

Unit 6

Deliver Results: Project Management Fundamentals

Business Simulation · 2 Libraries · 10 framework sheets

CORE MESSAGE

A plan is a hypothesis. A risk register is the honesty test.

Guiding question Who carries the risk your plan does not mention?

Learning focus Project planning, scheduling & risk · **ILO 2 & 3**

ILO 2 — Critically assess the roles and responsibilities of a project manager as part of an organisation's strategy.

ILO 3 — Investigate how to select, develop, plan, schedule and measure project outcomes and risks.

SLIBRARY 11 · Project Architecture

5 sheets · pp. 61–65

Scope, method and schedule: the load-bearing structure of delivery.

1	The Iron Triangle Scope · Time · Cost, constrained by quality	p. 61
2	Project Lifecycle Phases Initiate · Plan · Execute · Monitor & Control · Close	p. 62
3	Waterfall · Agile · Hybrid Matching method to requirement stability and feedback speed	p. 63
4	Work Breakdown Structure Deliverable-oriented decomposition to the work-package level	p. 64
5	The Gantt Chart Activities against a timeline, with dependencies and float	p. 65

SLIBRARY 12 · Stakeholders, Risk & Responsibility

5 sheets · pp. 66–70

Who carries what, what could go wrong, and who is accountable.

1	The Power–Interest Grid Manage closely · Keep satisfied · Keep informed · Monitor	p. 66
2	The RACI Matrix Responsible · Accountable · Consulted · Informed	p. 67
3	Probability–Impact Matrix Scoring risks to decide what gets attention and what gets accepted	p. 68
4	ISO 31000 Risk Process Establish context → identify → analyse → evaluate → treat → monitor	p. 69
5	The GPM P5 Standard People · Planet · Prosperity · Process · Products	p. 70

Unit 7

Negotiate & Influence: Getting What You Need Without Formal Authority

Negotiation Role Play · 2 Slibraries · 10 framework sheets

CORE MESSAGE

Power in a negotiation is not what you hold. It is what you can walk to.

Guiding question What do you have that they want, when you have no title at all?

Learning focus Negotiation, influence & ethical boundaries · **ILO 4**

ILO 4 — Evaluate the keys to successful negotiation and differentiate negotiation styles, strategies, and tactics.

SLIBRARY 13 · Negotiation Architecture

5 sheets · pp. 71–75

The structural facts of a negotiation, established before you speak.

1	BATNA Best Alternative To a Negotiated Agreement — your real source of power	p. 71
2	ZOPA The Zone Of Possible Agreement between two reservation points	p. 72
3	Principled Negotiation — Four Rules People · Interests · Options · Criteria	p. 73
4	The Dual Concern Model Competing · Collaborating · Compromising · Avoiding · Accommodating	p. 74
5	The Negotiation Canvas (5W1H) Who · What · Why · Where · When · How — one page of preparation	p. 75

SLIBRARY 14 · Influence, Power & Ethics

5 sheets · pp. 76–80

Moving people without authority — and the line you do not cross.

1	Cialdini's Principles of Influence Reciprocity · Commitment · Social proof · Authority · Liking · Scarcity	p. 76
2	French & Raven's Bases of Power Legitimate · Reward · Coercive · Expert · Referent · Informational	p. 77
3	Distributive vs Integrative Bargaining Claiming value from a fixed pie against creating value first	p. 78
4	The Five Core Concerns Appreciation · Affiliation · Autonomy · Status · Role	p. 79
5	The Ethical Line Where competitive tactics end and deception begins	p. 80

Unit 8

Work Smarter with AI: Productivity, Tools and Professional Judgment

Hackathon · 2 Slibraries · 10 framework sheets

CORE MESSAGE

Delegate the task. Never delegate the accountability.

Guiding question What will you delegate, what will you verify, and what will you never hand over?

Learning focus Productivity systems & AI workflow judgment · **ILO 1 & 3**

ILO 1 — Systematically select key concepts and principles of operations and technology management that need to be implemented to support value creation.

ILO 3 — Investigate how to select, develop, plan, schedule and measure project outcomes and risks.

SLIBRARY 15 · Energy, Time & Priority

5 sheets · pp. 81–85

Systems that survive a bad week, not just a good intention.

1	The Eisenhower Matrix Urgent × Important — do, schedule, delegate, delete	p. 81
2	OKRs at Personal Level One qualitative objective, three measurable key results	p. 82
3	The Four Energy Dimensions Physical · Emotional · Mental · Spiritual	p. 83
4	The Twenty-Minute Sprint A short, bounded, single-task block with a hard stop	p. 84
5	Monday Vision · Daily Wins · Friday Reflection A weekly rhythm of three outcomes, three wins, three lessons	p. 85

SLIBRARY 16 · AI Workflow & Professional Judgment

5 sheets · pp. 86–90

Prompting, delegating, verifying and owning machine-assisted work.

1	Prompt Anatomy Role · Task · Context · Format · Constraints	p. 86
2	The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop Hand over the task, check the output, keep the accountability	p. 87
3	The Task Delegation Matrix Stakes × verifiability — what to hand over and what to keep	p. 88
4	The Attribution & Integrity Ladder From tool use to co-authorship — declaring the boundary honestly	p. 89
5	Thumbnail Thinking & Slibraries A curated mental catalogue of visuals you can flip through under pressure	p. 90

How to Use This Library

Three ways in, one fixed page for every framework

FOR STUDENTS

Each Slibrary is a thematic cluster of five frameworks, designed to be held in mind as a set rather than memorised individually — a Slibrary in the sense of Meier's Thumbnail Thinking (2025). The same sixteen Slibraries are opened in class in the unit decks and in the Framework Gallery on the course website. Use a single sheet to look up one framework, a whole Slibrary for a revision pass, and the related-framework pills at the foot of each sheet to move between connected ideas across units.

FOR PRACTISING MANAGERS

The library works as a decision-support reference. Facing a negotiation, a project plan or a difficult message, open the relevant Slibrary rather than a single sheet: the frameworks in a cluster are chosen to be complementary, and the useful move is usually to apply two of them against each other rather than to follow one.

THE HUMAN EDGE LINE

Every sheet closes with one sentence on what AI can and cannot do with the framework. It is the course's unifying question applied to a single tool: which part of this is judgment, relationship or responsibility that stays with you?

FINDING A SHEET BY HAND

Sheets run in Slibrary order, five to a Slibrary: **page = 10 + 5 × (Slibrary – 1) + sheet**. Cover p. 1 · Master Index pp. 2–9 · this page p. 10 · sheets pp. 11–90.

p. 11	Unit 1 — Introduction to Tools for Success & Digital/AI Literacy	Guided Discovery
p. 21	Unit 2 — Know Yourself: Self-Assessment as a Strategic Tool	Diagnostic Studio
p. 31	Unit 3 — Think Better: Critical Thinking & Analytical Reasoning	Case Study Duel
p. 41	Unit 4 — Present & Position Yourself: Personal Branding & Presentation Skills	Pitch Arena
p. 51	Unit 5 — Communicate with Impact: Executive Presence & Business Communication	Boardroom Role Play
p. 61	Unit 6 — Deliver Results: Project Management Fundamentals	Business Simulation
p. 71	Unit 7 — Negotiate & Influence: Getting What You Need Without Formal Authority	Negotiation Role Play
p. 81	Unit 8 — Work Smarter with AI: Productivity, Tools and Professional Judgment	Hackathon

CITING A FRAMEWORK

Every sheet carries the original sources in Harvard style. Cite those, never this library: the sheets are a teaching synthesis, not the scholarship itself. Where a framework is contested, over-generalised or supported by weaker evidence than its popularity suggests, the innovation section says so. Frameworks developed or adapted for MASCO101 are labelled as such.

A NOTE ON THE FIGURES

Each figure is generated from the structure of the framework it illustrates, so the number of levels, stages or quadrants drawn matches the number described. The figures are schematic memory hooks, not data visualisations.

The Human Edge Triangle

SLIBRARY 01
SHEET 1 / 5

Judgment · Relationship · Responsibility — the three capabilities AI cannot hold

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Human Edge Triangle names three capabilities that keep their value when execution becomes cheap. Judgment is deciding which question matters and which answer is good enough to act on. Relationship is the trust, empathy and influence that other people grant, and that cannot be computed on their behalf. Responsibility is standing behind a decision and its consequences. The three corners are interdependent: judgment without trust is not adopted, and trust without accountability does not last (Colvin, 2015).

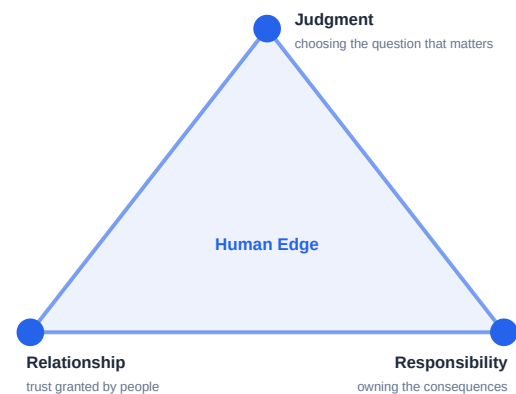
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The triangle was developed for MASCO101 by Dr. Hildegard Haas (2026), adapting Geoff Colvin's argument in *Humans Are Underrated* (2015). Colvin, a senior editor at *Fortune*, contended that as machines take over analytical and routine tasks, economic value shifts to deeply human abilities such as empathy, collaboration and storytelling. The course adaptation compresses that argument into three named corners and adds accountability as an explicit third point.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Students entering management in the generative-AI era face a practical question: which of their capabilities will still be paid for once drafting, summarising and analysis are cheap? Labour-market evidence shows returns rising for social and non-routine skills (Deming, 2017). The triangle gives that evidence a memorable shape, so that each unit of the course can be read as training one corner, and so that students can locate their own weakest point.

FIGURE 1 · THREE CAPABILITIES AI CANNOT HOLD



Execution is cheap; the three corners are where value now sits

Figure 1. Three interdependent corners of the human edge. Each MASCO101 unit develops at least one of them (Colvin, 2015; adapted by Haas, 2026).

HOW IT IS USED

Rate yourself on each corner with one piece of evidence, identify the weakest, and state which unit and activity will strengthen it. Revisit the rating in the Human Edge Portfolio.

WHEN IT IS USED

At the start of the course, when choosing a development goal, and whenever a task is handed to AI and you need to name what you still contribute.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students building their Human Edge Portfolio, managers redesigning roles and teams around AI, career coaches, and professionals who need to articulate to clients or employers what they contribute beyond what a model can produce.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor is the generic list of 'soft skills', which names dozens of attributes without explaining why they matter now. Colvin's thesis supplied the economic reason; the triangle reduces it to three corners that can be assessed and practised. Its limits are real: it is a teaching model rather than an empirically validated construct, the corners overlap, and AI already supports parts of judgment, so the boundary must be re-examined as capability changes.

Human Edge · AI can inform judgment and simulate warmth, but it cannot be trusted by people in its own right or held accountable for an outcome.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · **Slibrary 16**

Personal SWOT / TOWS · **Slibrary 3**

The Ethical Line · **Slibrary 14**

System 1 / System 2 · **Slibrary 6**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Colvin, G. (2015) *Humans Are Underrated: What High Achievers Know That Brilliant Machines Never Will*. New York: Portfolio/Penguin. Adapted for MASCO101 by Haas, H. (2026).

Deming, D.J. (2017) 'The growing importance of social skills in the labor market', *Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 132(4), pp. 1593–1640.

Autor, D.H. (2015) 'Why are there still so many jobs? The history and future of workplace automation', *Journal of Economic Perspectives*, 29(3), pp. 3–30.

WEF Skills Outlook 2030

SLIBRARY 01
SHEET 2 / 5

Analytical thinking, resilience and AI literacy top the fastest-growing skills

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The WEF Skills Outlook 2030 is the skills forecast published in the Future of Jobs Report 2025. It ranks the skills employers consider core today and those expected to grow in importance by 2030. Analytical thinking is the most widely cited core skill. The fastest-growing are technological (AI and big data, networks and cybersecurity, technological literacy), followed by creative thinking, resilience, flexibility and agility, and curiosity and lifelong learning. Employers expect a substantial share of workers' skills to change by 2030 (World Economic Forum, 2025).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The report is produced by the World Economic Forum's Centre for the New Economy and Society in Geneva, which has published a Future of Jobs survey roughly every two years since 2016. The 2025 edition aggregates the views of more than 1,000 large employers, representing over 14 million workers across 22 industry clusters and 55 economies, and combines them with labour-market data from partners such as LinkedIn and Coursera (World Economic Forum, 2025).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Governments, employers and universities need a common, regularly updated view of how technology, demographics, the green transition and economic uncertainty will reshape work. The survey was designed to give that view from the demand side, asking employers directly which roles and skills they expect to grow or decline. For a Masters student it offers an evidence base for choosing what to develop, rather than relying on anecdote about AI and jobs.

FIGURE 1 · CORE SKILLS AND FASTEST RISERS



Technical and human skills are expected to grow together

Figure 1. Skills employers rate as core today against those expected to grow fastest by 2030. Human and technical capabilities rise in parallel (World Economic Forum, 2025).

HOW IT IS USED

Map your current skills against both columns, select one technical and one human skill to develop this term, and link each to evidence in your Personal SWOT.

WHEN IT IS USED

When setting a term goal, choosing electives, projects or a dissertation topic, preparing for job applications and interviews, and when an organisation plans reskilling or workforce strategy for the next five years.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students planning their development, HR and learning leaders designing reskilling programmes, strategists anticipating talent gaps, educators revising curricula, and policymakers comparing national skill needs across economies.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier skills forecasts were often expert opinion or occupation-level projections that said little about specific capabilities. The Future of Jobs survey asks employers directly and repeats the question over time, so shifts can be tracked. Its limits should be stated: respondents are mainly large firms, the figures are expectations rather than measurements, and skill labels are broad. It is best read as a directional signal alongside labour-market data (Autor, 2015).

Human Edge · AI can scan the rankings and match courses to them, but choosing which skills fit your career and values remains a human judgment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Personal SWOT / TOWS · **Slibrary 3**

Dreyfus Skill Acquisition Model · **Slibrary 4**

SMART Goals · **Slibrary 4**

DigComp 2.2 — Five Competence Areas · **Slibrary 2**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

World Economic Forum (2025) The Future of Jobs Report 2025. Geneva: World Economic Forum.

World Economic Forum (2023) The Future of Jobs Report 2023. Geneva: World Economic Forum.

Autor, D.H. (2015) 'Why are there still so many jobs? The history and future of workplace automation', Journal of Economic Perspectives, 29(3), pp. 3–30.

Mollick's Four Rules of Co-Intelligence

SLIBRARY 01
SHEET 3 / 5

Invite AI to the table · Be the human in the loop · Give it a persona · Assume it improves

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Mollick's four rules are operating principles for working with general-purpose AI. First, invite AI to every task, since capability cannot be predicted in advance and must be discovered by trial. Second, remain the human in the loop, retaining judgment and accountability for what the system produces. Third, give the model a specific persona and context, because unspecified output defaults to generic. Fourth, treat the current model as the weakest you will ever use, and design accordingly (Mollick, 2024).

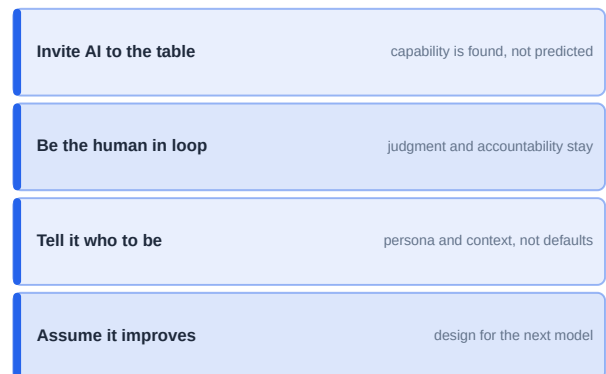
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Ethan Mollick, associate professor of management at the Wharton School, University of Pennsylvania, and co-director of its Generative AI Labs, set out the rules in Co-Intelligence (2024). They draw on his teaching and field experiments with organisations, including the study of more than 700 Boston Consulting Group consultants working with and without GPT-4 that produced the jagged-frontier finding (Dell'Acqua et al., 2023).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Organisations were oscillating between banning AI outright and adopting it uncritically, because neither position required understanding where the tools actually work. Mollick's rules replace policy with practice: capability is uneven and unmapped, so the only reliable method is systematic trial with a human retaining judgment. The fourth rule addresses planning, since workflows designed around today's limitations tend to age badly.

FIGURE 1 · THE FOUR WORKING RULES



Rule two is the condition that makes rule one safe

Figure 1. Four operating rules applied together. Broad experimentation is safe only while a human retains judgment over the output (Mollick, 2024).

HOW IT IS USED

Add AI to a task you already know how to do, so you can judge the output. Specify the role and context, verify before use, and re-test tasks that previously failed.

WHEN IT IS USED

When deciding whether a task is worth delegating, when onboarding a team to new tools, and when periodically re-testing tasks a model could not previously handle.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Professionals building a personal AI workflow, managers setting team norms and pilot projects, consultants testing new use cases, and students establishing practice that will stand up to academic-integrity scrutiny.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Prior guidance was either prohibition, which forfeits the capability, or vendor enthusiasm, which ignores the failure modes. Mollick's contribution is a middle position grounded in field experiment rather than assertion: capability is uneven, the boundary is invisible from outside, so trial under human judgment is the reliable method. The rules are heuristics, not validated instruments, and the persona rule's effect varies between models and tasks.

Human Edge · AI can follow a persona and improve with each release, but deciding when to trust its output and owning the result stays with you.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · **Slibrary 16**

Prompt Anatomy · **Slibrary 16**

The Automation Bias Curve · **Slibrary 6**

The Task Delegation Matrix · **Slibrary 16**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Mollick, E. (2024) Co-Intelligence: Living and Working with AI. New York: Portfolio/Penguin.

Dell'Acqua, F. et al. (2023) 'Navigating the jagged technological frontier: field experimental evidence of the effects of AI on knowledge worker productivity and quality', Harvard Business School Working Paper 24-013.

Noy, S. and Zhang, W. (2023) 'Experimental evidence on the productive effects of generative artificial intelligence', Science, 381(6654), pp. 187–192.

Automation–Augmentation Spectrum

SLIBRARY 01
SHEET 4 / 5

Task-level continuum from AI replacing work to AI enhancing it

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The spectrum distinguishes automation, in which a system performs a task previously done by a person, from augmentation, in which a system extends what a person can do while the person retains the judgment. Most deployments sit between the two, and the position is chosen rather than determined by the technology. Automation optimises cost on defined tasks; augmentation optimises capability on ill-defined ones, and the two are interdependent over time (Raisch and Krakowski, 2021).

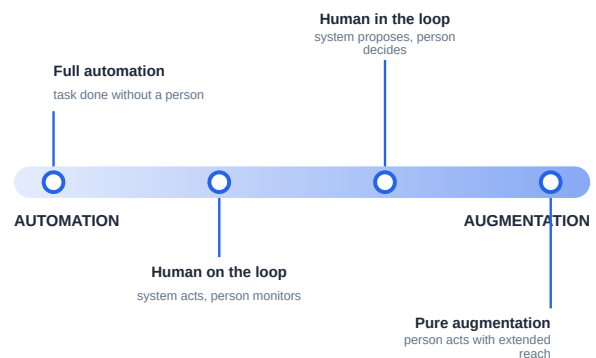
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The distinction descends from Douglas Engelbart's 1962 framework for augmenting human intellect, set out in contrast to the automation-oriented computing research of the period. Sebastian Raisch of the University of Geneva and his co-author Sebastian Krakowski restated it as a management paradox in the Academy of Management Review (2021), arguing that automation and augmentation are interdependent rather than alternatives, and that organisations focusing on either one alone create harmful cycles for performance and expertise.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Organisations adopting AI often ask whether a role will be automated, which is not a question the technology answers: the same capability can remove a task or extend a practitioner. Raisch and Krakowski argue that treating the choice as inevitable removes it from management, and that pure automation erodes the human expertise the system will later depend on. Brynjolfsson (2022) makes a parallel economic case against over-automation.

FIGURE 1 · FROM REPLACING TO AMPLIFYING



The position is a design decision, not a technical inevitability

Figure 1. Four positions on one continuum. The deployment decision, not the technology, selects the position for each task (Raisch and Krakowski, 2021).

HOW IT IS USED

List the tasks in a role, place each on the spectrum deliberately and record why. Where judgment matters and volume is low, augmentation is usually the better trade.

WHEN IT IS USED

When designing an AI-supported workflow, when a role is redefined around new tools, and when deciding which tasks to keep doing manually to retain the skill.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Managers designing workflows and job roles, operations and HR leaders planning AI adoption, professionals deciding where to apply tools in their own work, and students choosing capabilities to develop rather than delegate.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Public debate frames AI adoption as a binary of replacement or resistance, which obscures intermediate designs and hides the choice. Naming the spectrum makes the position explicit and reversible, and moves the unit of analysis from jobs to tasks (Autor, 2015). The framework identifies the trade-off clearly but gives little guidance on where a given task should sit; that remains a judgment about consequence, volume and skill retention.

Human Edge · AI can perform tasks at either end of the spectrum, but deciding where each task should sit, and why, is a management judgment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Task Delegation Matrix · **Slibrary 16**

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · **Slibrary 16**

The Automation Bias Curve · **Slibrary 6**

Dreyfus Skill Acquisition Model · **Slibrary 4**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Raisch, S. and Krakowski, S. (2021) 'Artificial intelligence and management: The automation–augmentation paradox', Academy of Management Review, 46(1), pp. 192–210.
Engelbart, D.C. (1962) Augmenting Human Intellect: A Conceptual Framework. Menlo Park, CA: Stanford Research Institute.
Brynjolfsson, E. (2022) 'The Turing trap: the promise and peril of human-like artificial intelligence', Daedalus, 151(2), pp. 272–287.

Bloom's Revised Taxonomy — AI Waterline

SLIBRARY 01
SHEET 5 / 5

Where generative AI is strong, and where cognition must stay yours

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The revised Bloom's Taxonomy classifies cognitive tasks into six ascending levels: remember, understand, apply, analyse, evaluate and create. The MASCO101 adaptation draws an AI waterline beneath Evaluate. Below it, generative AI now produces fluent recall, explanation, application and first-pass analysis. Above it, judging against criteria and producing original, accountable work must remain the student's own cognition, with AI used only as a critic. Masters-level assessment is pitched above the line (Anderson and Krathwohl, 2001).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The original taxonomy was produced in 1956 by a committee of American college examiners chaired by Benjamin Bloom at the University of Chicago. Lorin Anderson and David Krathwohl led the 2001 revision, which restated the levels as verbs and placed Create above Evaluate. The AI waterline was added for MASCO101 by Dr. Hildegard Haas (2026) to show where generative tools change the picture.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The taxonomy was built to give examiners a shared vocabulary for what a task demands. Generative AI makes that vocabulary urgent again: tasks at the lower levels can now be completed fluently by a model, so work pitched there no longer demonstrates learning. The waterline makes visible which levels a student can delegate with verification and which they must perform themselves if the work is to count as theirs.

FIGURE 1 · SIX LEVELS AND THE AI WATERLINE



Masters work is assessed above the waterline

Figure 1. The revised taxonomy with a waterline beneath Evaluate. Lower levels are where generative AI is strong (Anderson and Krathwohl, 2001; adapted by Haas, 2026).

HOW IT IS USED

Read the verb in the brief, locate it on the six levels, and decide which parts you may delegate with verification and which you must think through yourself.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before starting any assignment, when deciding how to use AI on a task, when writing learning outcomes, and when accurate work is marked lower than expected.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students calibrating assignments and their AI use, educators writing learning outcomes and AI-resilient assessment, and trainers and managers designing development that must move beyond recall.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Before 1956 examiners had no shared language for difficulty, so 'hard' meant more content rather than deeper thinking; the 2001 revision made the levels usable as verbs (Krathwohl, 2002). The waterline adds an AI dimension the taxonomy never had. Its limits: the strict hierarchy is contested, the levels overlap, and the line is a moving teaching heuristic, since models increasingly produce plausible evaluation.

Human Edge · AI can generate plausible output at every level, but it cannot own the evaluative criteria or the originality that Level 7 work must demonstrate.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Dreyfus Skill Acquisition Model · **Slibrary 4**

First Principles Thinking · **Slibrary 5**

System 1 / System 2 · **Slibrary 6**

The Attribution & Integrity Ladder · **Slibrary 16**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Anderson, L.W. and Krathwohl, D.R. (eds.) (2001) A Taxonomy for Learning, Teaching, and Assessing: A Revision of Bloom's Taxonomy of Educational Objectives. New York: Longman. Adapted for MASCO101 by Haas, H. (2026).

Bloom, B.S., Engelhart, M.D., Furst, E.J., Hill, W.H. and Krathwohl, D.R. (1956) Taxonomy of Educational Objectives: The Classification of Educational Goals, Handbook I. New York: David McKay.

Krathwohl, D.R. (2002) 'A revision of Bloom's taxonomy: an overview', Theory Into Practice, 41(4), pp. 212–218.

DigComp 2.2 — Five Competence Areas

SLIBRARY 02
SHEET 1 / 5

The European reference model for digital competence

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

DigComp is the European Commission's reference framework for citizens' digital competence. It organises capability into five areas: information and data literacy, communication and collaboration, digital content creation, safety, and problem solving. These subdivide into twenty-one competences, each described at eight proficiency levels from foundation to highly specialised. Version 2.2 added over 250 new examples of knowledge, skills and attitudes, including many on interacting with AI systems (Vuorikari, Kluzer and Punie, 2022).

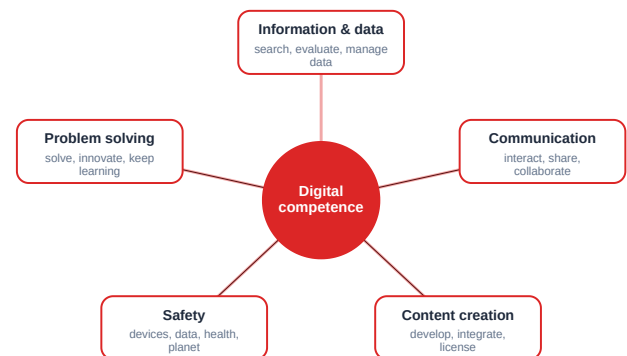
WHO DEVELOPED IT

DigComp is maintained by the European Commission's Joint Research Centre. Version 1.0 appeared in 2013 under Anusca Ferrari, after wide consultation with experts and stakeholders; version 2.2 was published in 2022 by Riina Vuorikari, Stefano Kluzer and Yves Punie. It underpins Europass, national digital-skills strategies and the Digital Education Action Plan, giving it policy as well as pedagogical weight (European Commission, 2021).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Employers and educators lacked a shared vocabulary for digital capability, so job adverts asked for 'IT skills' and CVs answered with software names. DigComp separates competence from tools, which matters because tools change far faster than the underlying capability. The 2.2 update responded to AI and datafication, treating critical engagement with AI-produced content as a citizen-level competence rather than a specialist one.

FIGURE 1 · THE FIVE COMPETENCE AREAS



Tool-agnostic competence, graded across eight proficiency levels

Figure 1. The five areas of DigComp 2.2. Each subdivides into competences described at eight proficiency levels (Vuorikari, Kluzer and Punie, 2022).

HOW IT IS USED

Self-assess against each of the five areas, identify the weakest, and set a development goal against the proficiency descriptors rather than against a software product or tool name.

WHEN IT IS USED

At the start of a programme or role, when writing a CV or development plan, and when an organisation audits capability rather than tool licences.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students auditing their own capability, employers and HR teams writing role specifications, educators aligning curricula with European standards, and public bodies measuring national digital skills.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier digital-skills frameworks, such as the European Computer Driving Licence, were built around named applications, so they aged with the software and encouraged training in menus rather than judgment. DigComp is tool-agnostic and proficiency-graded, so one framework describes a first-year student and a specialist. Its limitation is breadth: as a citizen-level framework it does not reach the depth a specialist AI role requires (Ferrari, 2013).

Human Edge · AI can score a self-assessment against DigComp descriptors, but judging your real proficiency and choosing what to develop needs your own evidence.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The CRAAP Test · **Slibrary 2**

Personal SWOT / TOWS · **Slibrary 3**

Prompt Anatomy · **Slibrary 16**

WEF Skills Outlook 2030 · **Slibrary 1**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Vuorikari, R., Kluzer, S. and Punie, Y. (2022) DigComp 2.2: The Digital Competence Framework for Citizens. Luxembourg: Publications Office of the European Union.
 Ferrari, A. (2013) DIGCOMP: A Framework for Developing and Understanding Digital Competence in Europe. Luxembourg: Publications Office of the European Union.
 European Commission (2021) Digital Education Action Plan 2021–2027. Brussels: European Commission.

The CRAAP Test

SLIBRARY 02
SHEET 2 / 5

Currency · Relevance · Authority · Accuracy · Purpose

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The CRAAP test is a five-criterion screen applied to any source before it is admitted into an argument. Currency asks when the information was produced and whether it still holds; relevance asks whether it addresses the actual question; authority asks who produced it and on what standing; accuracy asks what evidence supports it and whether it can be verified; and purpose asks why it was produced and who benefits if the reader believes it (Blakeslee, 2004).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Sarah Blakeslee and colleagues at the Meriam Library, California State University, Chico, devised the test in 2004 as a teaching device for undergraduate information literacy, giving librarians a memorable acronym for questions they already asked in instruction sessions. It has since been adopted very widely in higher education, and equally widely criticised as a checklist that can be completed without genuine evaluation (Caulfield, 2019).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Blakeslee's students could find sources easily and evaluate them badly, treating retrievability as a proxy for reliability. The test makes evaluation explicit and memorable. Generative AI sharpens the problem rather than changing it: model output has no author, no publication date and no evidence trail, so it fails authority and accuracy by construction, whatever its fluency suggests. The screen gives students a routine to apply before trust is granted.

FIGURE 1 · THE FIVE-CRITERION SOURCE SCREEN

Currency	when was it produced?
Relevance	does it answer this question?
Authority	who says it, on what standing?
Accuracy	what evidence, is it verifiable?
Purpose	who benefits if I believe it?

Five questions, asked before the source enters your notes

Figure 1. Five successive questions for any source. Generative output fails authority and accuracy by construction, carrying neither author nor evidence (Blakeslee, 2004).

HOW IT IS USED

Apply the five questions to each source before it enters your notes, not after it has entered your draft. Record the answer to purpose, the question most often skipped.

WHEN IT IS USED

During any literature search, when a striking statistic appears in a report or presentation, and whenever a claim arrives without a traceable origin, including output from a generative AI tool.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students building a reference list, researchers screening literature, librarians teaching information literacy, and professionals verifying a claim before repeating it to a client or colleague.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier information-literacy teaching relied on source hierarchies, peer-reviewed above trade press above web, which broke down as publishing formats blurred. CRAAP evaluates the individual item rather than its container. Its limit is that it reads the page vertically: Wineburg and McGrew (2019) found that professional fact-checkers read laterally instead, which is why SIFT — Four Moves is taught alongside it.

Human Edge · AI can run the five questions mechanically, but judging purpose and authority, and noticing when a fluent answer has no source, needs human scepticism.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

SIFT — Four Moves · **Slibrary 2**The Automation Bias Curve · **Slibrary 6**The Cognitive Bias Quartet · **Slibrary 6**The Ladder of Inference · **Slibrary 6**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Blakeslee, S. (2004) 'The CRAAP test', LOEX Quarterly, 31(3), pp. 6–7.

Caulfield, M. (2019) SIFT (The Four Moves). Available at: <https://hapgood.us/2019/06/19/sift-the-four-moves/>.

Wineburg, S. and McGrew, S. (2019) 'Lateral reading and the nature of expertise: reading less and learning more when evaluating digital information', Teachers College Record, 121(11), pp. 1–40.

SIFT — Four Moves

SLIBRARY 02
SHEET 3 / 5

Stop · Investigate the source · Find better coverage · Trace to the original

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

SIFT is a lateral-reading routine for evaluating claims in a digital environment. Stop checks your reaction and whether you know the source. Investigate the source means leaving the page to learn who is behind it. Find better coverage means looking for trusted reporting or analysis of the same claim rather than judging one item. Trace claims, quotes and media to the original shows whether context was stripped or distorted. Each move takes seconds to minutes, not an hour (Caulfield, 2019).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Mike Caulfield, a digital-literacy researcher then at Washington State University Vancouver and later at the University of Washington's Center for an Informed Public, published SIFT in 2019. It builds on his earlier open textbook for student fact-checkers and on the Stanford History Education Group's research into how professional fact-checkers read, and was later expanded in Verified with Sam Wineburg (Wineburg and Caulfield, 2023).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Checklist methods asked readers to study a page closely, yet studies showed that fact-checkers reached better judgments faster by leaving the page to see what others said about the source (Wineburg and McGrew, 2019). Well-designed misinformation passes a close reading. SIFT turns the fact-checkers' habit into four quick moves that fit the pace of online reading and, now, the volume of AI-generated text.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR MOVES OF LATERAL READING



Leave the page to judge the page

Figure 1. Four quick moves that replace close reading of one page with lateral reading across several (Caulfield, 2019).

HOW IT IS USED

When a claim matters, stop, open new tabs on the source and the claim, compare trusted coverage, and follow citations or images back to the original before relying on it.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before sharing or citing a claim, when a statistic seems too convenient, and whenever AI output names a source, quote or figure you have not seen.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students verifying sources for assignments, journalists and analysts checking claims, communications teams monitoring stories, and busy professionals screening information before it reaches a client or manager.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

SIFT's predecessor is the checklist approach typified by The CRAAP Test, which evaluates a page from the inside. SIFT's innovation is lateral reading: judging a source by what independent sources say about it. It is faster and supported by expert-reader studies. Its limits: it depends on search results that may themselves be polluted, it suits discrete claims better than complex arguments, and evidence for its gains comes largely from school and undergraduate samples.

Human Edge · AI can fetch coverage and trace citations quickly, but noticing your own reaction and deciding which sources deserve trust are human moves.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The CRAAP Test · **Slibrary 2**

The Cognitive Bias Quartet · **Slibrary 6**

The Ladder of Inference · **Slibrary 6**

The Automation Bias Curve · **Slibrary 6**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Caulfield, M. (2019) SIFT (The Four Moves). Available at: <https://hapgood.us/2019/06/19/sift-the-four-moves/>.

Wineburg, S. and McGrew, S. (2019) 'Lateral reading and the nature of expertise: reading less and learning more when evaluating digital information', Teachers College Record, 121(11), pp. 1–40.

Wineburg, S. and Caulfield, M. (2023) Verified: How to Think Straight, Get Duped Less, and Make Better Decisions about What to Believe Online. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

The Hallucination Risk Ladder

SLIBRARY 02
SHEET 4 / 5

Risk rises as verifiability falls — from summary to citation to specific number

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Hallucination Risk Ladder sorts generative-AI output into four bands by likelihood and cost of fabrication. Band D, restructuring text you supplied, is low risk because the facts are yours. Band C, general explanation, should be verified against a source. Band B, named facts and figures, must always be checked. Band A, citations, quotations and case law, is assumed fabricated until verified, because models produce well-formed but non-existent references. Risk rises as verifiability falls (Ji et al., 2023).

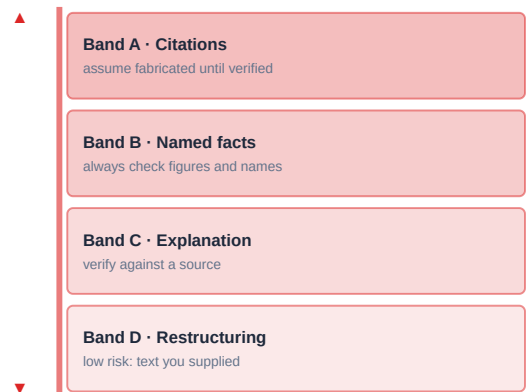
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The ladder was developed for MASCO101 to turn research on hallucination into a working rule. Its foundation is the survey by Ziwei Ji and colleagues at the Hong Kong University of Science and Technology (2023), which defined hallucination as generated content that is nonsensical or unfaithful to the provided source, distinguished intrinsic from extrinsic forms, and reviewed causes, metrics and mitigations across language-generation tasks.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Fabricated references have already reached published and professional work: studies of chatbot-generated bibliographies found that a large share of citations were invented or contained serious errors (Walters and Wilder, 2023). Blanket rules to 'check everything' are ignored because they destroy the speed advantage. The ladder calibrates effort, concentrating verification where fabrication is both likely and costly, as in the Lumen Analytics case.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR BANDS OF HALLUCINATION RISK



Risk rises as verifiability falls: check effort follows the band

Figure 1. Four bands from low-risk restructuring to high-risk citations. Verification effort is set by the band (after Ji et al., 2023).

HOW IT IS USED

Before using any AI output, assign each element to a band and apply the matching check. Band A items are verified at the original source, never by asking the model.

WHEN IT IS USED

Whenever AI output will leave your hands: in assignments, client reports, board papers, legal or financial documents, and any text that cites evidence or names people, figures or cases.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students using AI for research, consultants and analysts delivering client work, editors and reviewers, and managers setting proportionate verification rules for a whole project team.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor is the generic warning that 'AI can make mistakes', which gives no guidance on where to look. The ladder converts research on hallucination into proportionate, task-level verification rules. Its limits: the bands are a teaching heuristic rather than measured error rates, rates vary by model and retrieval setup, and even Band D can fail when a model silently alters meaning while restructuring.

Human Edge · AI can flag uncertainty and supply links, but it cannot vouch for its own citations; verifying at the original source remains your responsibility.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · [Slibrary 16](#)

The Automation Bias Curve · [Slibrary 6](#)

Probability–Impact Matrix · [Slibrary 12](#)

SIFT — Four Moves · [Slibrary 2](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Ji, Z. et al. (2023) 'Survey of hallucination in natural language generation', ACM Computing Surveys, 55(12), pp. 1–38.

Walters, W.H. and Wilder, E.I. (2023) 'Fabrication and errors in the bibliographic citations generated by ChatGPT', Scientific Reports, 13, 14045.

Mollick, E. (2024) Co-Intelligence: Living and Working with AI. New York: Portfolio/Penguin.

The AI Disclosure Ladder

SLIBRARY 02
SHEET 5 / 5

Five levels of declared AI use, from none to substantially generated

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The AI Disclosure Ladder is a five-level scale for declaring how AI contributed to a piece of work. Level 0 is no AI use; Level 1, AI for search, translation or spell-check; Level 2, AI as critic on text the author wrote; Level 3, AI-assisted drafting; Level 4, AI-generated sections, cited. The declaration describes the workflow rather than seeking permission, and its accuracy, not the level, is what integrity rests on (Russell Group, 2023).

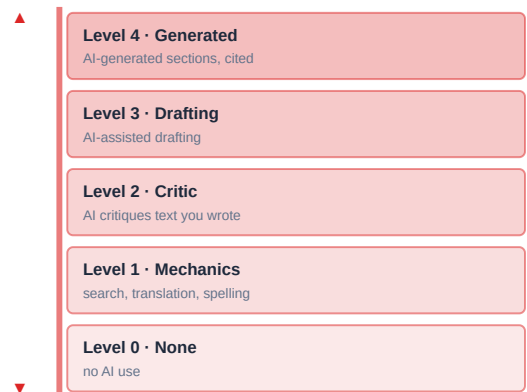
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The ladder was adapted for MASCO101 by Dr. Hildegard Haas (2026) from the Russell Group's 2023 principles on generative AI, in which twenty-four UK research-intensive universities committed to AI literacy and to transparent, appropriate use in teaching and assessment. The graded levels also reflect wider sector practice, notably the AI Assessment Scale developed by Mike Perkins and colleagues (Perkins et al., 2024).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Institutions first tried to police AI through detection, which proved unreliable and biased against non-native English writers (Liang et al., 2023). Binary rules either banned tools that students used anyway or permitted them with no accountability. A graded, declared scale asks a different question: not whether AI was used, but whether its use was described honestly and the judgment retained by the author.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE LEVELS OF DECLARED AI USE



An accurate Level 3 is never penalised; a false Level 0 is

Figure 1. Five levels of declared AI involvement. Accuracy of the declaration, not the level, is the integrity test (Russell Group, 2023; adapted by Haas, 2026).

HOW IT IS USED

Add a disclosure line to every submitted artefact stating the highest level reached, keep prompts and drafts as evidence, and check each assessment brief for its permitted level.

WHEN IT IS USED

On every MASCO101 submission from Unit 1 onwards, in professional work where provenance matters to clients or regulators, and whenever you are unsure whether a use needs declaring.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students under academic-integrity regulations, educators designing assessment briefs, editors and publishers, and professionals whose clients, employers or regulators now ask how their work was produced.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor is the binary permitted-or-prohibited rule, which could not describe real use and pushed it out of sight. A graded ladder lets an institution set a permitted level per task and makes honest declaration the norm. Its limits: it relies on self-report, the boundary between Levels 2 and 3 can blur, and it establishes an audit trail rather than an enforcement mechanism (Perkins et al., 2024).

Human Edge · AI cannot declare on your behalf how it shaped your work; an honest disclosure is an act of personal responsibility.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Attribution & Integrity Ladder · **Slibrary 16**

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · **Slibrary 16**

The Ethical Line · **Slibrary 14**

The Human Edge Triangle · **Slibrary 1**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Russell Group (2023) Principles on the Use of Generative AI Tools in Education. London: Russell Group. Adapted for MASCO101 by Haas, H. (2026).
Perkins, M., Furze, L., Roe, J. and MacVaugh, J. (2024) 'The Artificial Intelligence Assessment Scale (AIAS): a framework for ethical integration of generative AI in educational assessment', *Journal of University Teaching and Learning Practice*, 21(6).
Liang, W., Yuksekgonul, M., Mao, Y., Wu, E. and Zou, J. (2023) 'GPT detectors are biased against non-native English writers', *Patterns*, 4(7), 100779.

Personal SWOT / TOWS

SLIBRARY 03
SHEET 1 / 5

Internal strengths and weaknesses against external opportunities and threats

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Personal SWOT applies the strategic-planning grid to an individual rather than a firm. Strengths and weaknesses are internal and largely within the person's control: capability, credentials, temperament, network. Opportunities and threats are external: market movements, technological substitution, organisational change. The TOWS extension then pairs the cells, so that each combination of an internal and an external factor yields a strategy. An item placed in the wrong half, or left unpaired, produces a description rather than a plan that can be acted on (Weihrich, 1982).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The SWOT grid emerged from Harvard Business School policy teaching in the 1960s and is closely associated with Kenneth Andrews; its precise origin is disputed, and attribution to Albert Humphrey's work at Stanford Research Institute is common but poorly documented. Heinz Weihrich, then at the University of San Francisco, formalised the paired analysis as the TOWS Matrix in 1982, adding the step of combining quadrants into strategies (Andrews, 1971; Weihrich, 1982).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Individuals asked to plan a career typically produce either an inventory of skills with no market reference, or a list of desired jobs with no capability reference. SWOT forces both onto one page and, in Weihrich's extension, forces them into contact: a strength matched to an opportunity becomes a strategy, while a weakness exposed to a threat becomes a risk requiring mitigation now rather than acknowledgement later.

FIGURE 1 · THE TOWS STRATEGY MATRIX

	Strengths (S)	Weaknesses (W)
Opportunities (O)	SO: exploit	WO: develop
Threats (T)	ST: defend	WT: mitigate

Every cell pairs an internal factor with an external one

Figure 1. The four SWOT lists become four strategy types once internal and external factors are crossed: use strengths, close gaps, defend and mitigate (Weihrich, 1982).

HOW IT IS USED

Fill each quadrant with evidence rather than adjectives, then cross them: SO, ST, WO and WT. Write one concrete action per pairing and keep the WT action at the top.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before a career decision, at the start of a programme, and whenever an external change, such as a restructure or a new technology, alters the market for your capability.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Individuals planning a career move, mentors structuring a development conversation, and teams assessing their collective position before a strategy or planning cycle, including student groups preparing a Business Challenge.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Its predecessor, unstructured self-assessment, mixes what a person is with what the world is doing, so the resulting plan addresses neither. SWOT separates the two, and TOWS recombines them deliberately into strategy. The tool's well-documented weakness is that it invites long, unweighted and unevidenced lists; it produces value only when each entry carries evidence, entries are prioritised, and the quadrants are actually paired (Hill and Westbrook, 1997).

Human Edge · AI can draft plausible SWOT entries in seconds; only you can evidence them, weigh them honestly and commit to the TOWS action that follows.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Ikgai · **Slibrary 4**

The Power–Interest Grid · **Slibrary 12**

The Personal Brand Pyramid · **Slibrary 7**

OKRs at Personal Level · **Slibrary 15**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Weihrich, H. (1982) 'The TOWS matrix: A tool for situational analysis', Long Range Planning, 15(2), pp. 54–66.

Andrews, K.R. (1971) The Concept of Corporate Strategy. Homewood, IL: Dow Jones-Irwin.

Hill, T. and Westbrook, R. (1997) 'SWOT analysis: it's time for a product recall', Long Range Planning, 30(1), pp. 46–52.

The Johari Window

SLIBRARY 03
SHEET 2 / 5

Open · Blind · Hidden · Unknown — the four panes of self-knowledge

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Johari Window maps self-knowledge against the knowledge others hold about a person, producing four panes. The open area is known to self and others; the blind area is visible to others but not to the self; the hidden area is known to the self and withheld; and the unknown area is available to neither. The two productive moves are disclosure, which enlarges the open area at the expense of the hidden, and feedback, which enlarges it at the expense of the blind (Luft and Ingham, 1955).

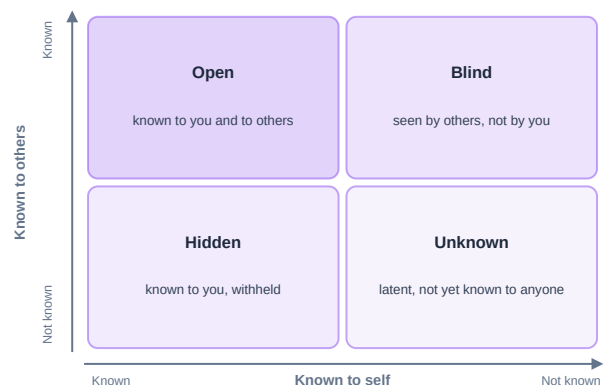
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Joseph Luft and Harrington Ingham devised the model in 1955 for a group-development laboratory at the University of California, Los Angeles; the name is a contraction of their forenames. It became a standard instrument in the T-group and sensitivity-training movement of the 1960s, was elaborated by Luft in *Of Human Interaction*, and remains embedded in management, coaching and clinical education (Luft, 1969).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Luft and Ingham were working on why interpersonal feedback in groups so often failed to change behaviour. Their answer was structural rather than motivational: people cannot act on information they do not have, and the blind pane is by definition invisible from inside. The window makes that asymmetry visible and, in doing so, identifies feedback from others as the only mechanism that can reach the blind area at all.

FIGURE 1 · THE FOUR PANES OF THE WINDOW



Disclosure widens the open pane; only feedback shrinks the blind

Figure 1. Four panes formed by two knowledge axes. Only feedback from others can reduce the blind pane, so it cannot be closed by reflection alone (Luft and Ingham, 1955).

HOW IT IS USED

Name one behaviour you suspect sits in your blind pane, then ask two people who see you work for a specific recent example rather than a general impression. Record it; decide one change.

WHEN IT IS USED

At the start of a new team, after a performance review, and whenever the same criticism has arrived from more than one independent source, or when moving into a role with new colleagues.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Individuals seeking calibrated self-knowledge, facilitators building psychological safety in new teams, and managers or coaches structuring developmental feedback conversations, including structured peer-feedback rounds in class.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier trait models described a person as a fixed set of attributes, implicitly treating the person as the authority on their own characteristics. The Johari Window makes self-knowledge relational and therefore incomplete by construction. Its limitation is that it is a heuristic rather than a measured instrument: the panes have no scale, their relative sizes are illustrative rather than diagnostic, and disclosure carries real risk where psychological safety is low.

Human Edge · AI can summarise feedback you collect, but it cannot see you work; the blind pane is reached only through trusted people willing to tell you.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Ladder of Inference · **Slibrary 6**The Cognitive Bias Quartet · **Slibrary 6**The GROW Model · **Slibrary 4**Personal SWOT / TOWS · **Slibrary 3**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Luft, J. and Ingham, H. (1955) 'The Johari window, a graphic model of interpersonal awareness', *Proceedings of the Western Training Laboratory in Group Development*. Los Angeles: UCLA.

Luft, J. (1969) *Of Human Interaction*. Palo Alto, CA: National Press Books.

DISC Behavioural Model

SLIBRARY 03
SHEET 3 / 5

Dominance · Influence · Steadiness · Conscientiousness

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

DISC classifies observable workplace behaviour on two axes: whether a person orients primarily to tasks or to people, and whether they act at a fast or a measured pace. The four resulting styles are dominance, direct and results-driven; influence, expressive and persuasive; steadiness, cooperative and consistent; and conscientiousness, precise and standards-driven. DISC describes behavioural style in context, not underlying personality, and is best treated as a vocabulary for adapting to others rather than as a measurement (Marston, 1928).

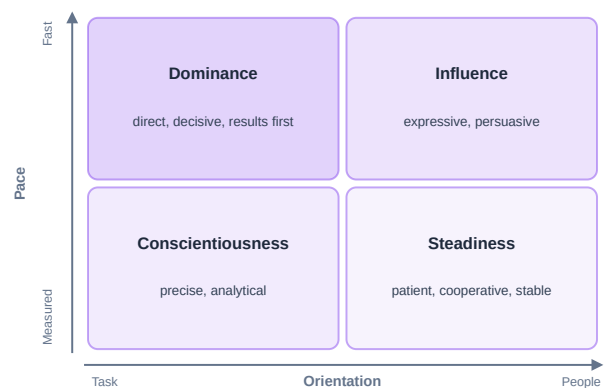
WHO DEVELOPED IT

William Moulton Marston, a Harvard-trained psychologist, described the four factors in *Emotions of Normal People* (1928) without producing an assessment. Walter Clarke built the first instrument from Marston's categories in the 1950s, and the profile is now published by several competing commercial providers whose versions differ in wording, scoring and norms, so two DISC reports are not necessarily comparable (Marston, 1928).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Marston was interested in the emotional behaviour of ordinary people rather than clinical populations, which was unusual for the period. The practical problem the profile addresses is friction that is stylistic rather than substantive: a fast, task-focused colleague and a measured, people-focused one frequently agree on the objective while each experiences the other as the obstacle. Naming the axes defuses that misattribution.

FIGURE 1 · THE FOUR BEHAVIOURAL STYLES



Style differences read as obstruction until they are named

Figure 1. Four styles on orientation and pace. Style is situational: the same person may show a different quadrant under pressure than in routine work (Marston, 1928).

HOW IT IS USED

Identify your habitual style, then flex deliberately toward the other person's: give a conscientiousness colleague data and time, and a dominance colleague the conclusion first.

WHEN IT IS USED

In team formation, before a difficult conversation with a colleague whose style differs, and when recurring friction is about how work is done rather than what.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Managers building mixed teams, salespeople adapting their approach to a buyer, and individuals preparing a stakeholder conversation. It is not appropriate for selection, promotion or any other high-stakes decision.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Trait models such as The Big Five (OCEAN) describe stable dispositions but say little about what to do differently on Monday. DISC restricts itself to observable behaviour and yields an immediate action: flex toward the other style. The trade-off is rigour. Commercial instruments share no common validated model, peer-reviewed evidence of reliability and validity is thin, and four categories compress far more variation than they reveal (Jones and Hartley, 2013).

Human Edge · AI can generate a DISC-style label from a few sentences; reading a colleague's pace in the room and adapting in real time remains a human skill.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

[The Big Five \(OCEAN\) · Slibrary 3](#)
[The Dual Concern Model · Slibrary 13](#)
[The Culture Map — Eight Scales · Slibrary 10](#)
[Executive Presence · Slibrary 10](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Marston, W.M. (1928) *Emotions of Normal People*. London: Kegan Paul, Trench, Trubner & Co.

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MBTI Dichotomies

SLIBRARY 03
SHEET 4 / 5

Four preference pairs producing sixteen type patterns

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Myers-Briggs Type Indicator sorts self-reported preference on four dichotomies: where attention is directed (extraversion or introversion), how information is taken in (sensing or intuition), how decisions are reached (thinking or feeling), and how the outer world is approached (judging or perceiving). Each respondent is assigned one pole per dichotomy, producing sixteen four-letter types. The instrument reports preference, not competence, and its categories are an interpretive convenience rather than a measured finding (Myers and McCaulley, 1985).

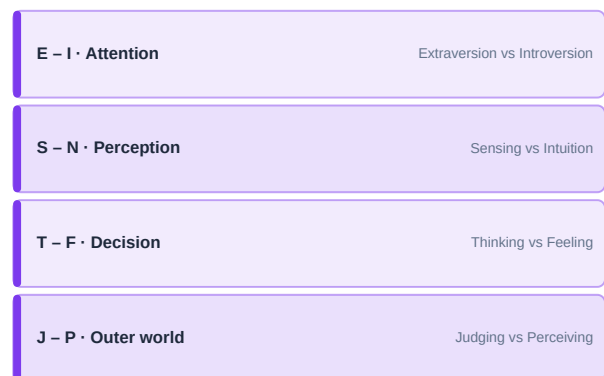
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Katharine Cook Briggs and her daughter Isabel Briggs Myers, neither professionally trained in psychology, constructed the indicator from the 1940s onward as an operationalisation of Carl Jung's Psychological Types (1921). It is now published commercially by The Myers-Briggs Company and is among the most widely administered instruments in organisational settings, despite well-documented psychometric objections in the peer-reviewed literature (Pittenger, 2005).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Briggs and Myers wanted to help people entering wartime employment find roles suited to their dispositions, and to make Jung's typology usable outside clinical practice. The framework's durable contribution is a shared, non-pejorative vocabulary for difference: it lets a team say that a colleague needs processing time before speaking without either party treating this as a deficiency. That value is conversational rather than diagnostic.

FIGURE 1 · THE FOUR PREFERENCE DICHOTOMIES



Four forced choices yield sixteen reported types

Figure 1. Four bipolar scales. The instrument forces a pole on each, although underlying scores are continuous and many cluster near the midpoint (Pittenger, 2005).

HOW IT IS USED

Use the vocabulary to describe working preferences within a team, and treat any reported type as a hypothesis to check against behaviour and feedback rather than as a finding.

WHEN IT IS USED

During team formation and communication workshops, where a shared language for difference is useful and low stakes; never for selection, promotion, role assignment or team composition.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Facilitators running team-development sessions, and individuals reflecting on working preferences who understand the instrument's limitations and compare the result with a validated trait measure such as the Big Five.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Jung's typology was a theoretical scheme with no measurement procedure; Briggs and Myers made it administrable, which is why it spread. That is also where the difficulty lies: the underlying dimensions are continuous, so dichotomising at the midpoint creates unstable categories, and retest studies report many respondents changing type within weeks. Predictive validity for job performance is weak, which is why The Big Five (OCEAN) outranks it on instrument quality (Pittenger, 2005; Boyle, 1995).

Human Edge · AI will happily assign you a four-letter type; judging whether that label is useful, or merely flattering, requires your own evidence and critical distance.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Big Five (OCEAN) · [Slibrary 3](#)

DISC Behavioural Model · [Slibrary 3](#)

The Johari Window · [Slibrary 3](#)

The Culture Map — Eight Scales · [Slibrary 10](#)

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The Big Five (OCEAN)

SLIBRARY 03
SHEET 5 / 5

Openness · Conscientiousness · Extraversion · Agreeableness · Neuroticism

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Five Factor Model describes personality as five continuous dimensions rather than discrete types: openness to experience, conscientiousness, extraversion, agreeableness, and neuroticism, also reported as emotional stability. Each is a spectrum on which an individual is located relative to a population, not a category to which they belong. The factors emerged empirically from analyses of trait vocabulary and have been replicated across languages, cultures and rating methods, which gives the model the strongest evidence base of the instruments in this course (Costa and McCrae, 1992).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The structure was converged on by several independent research programmes from the 1960s onward, including Tupes and Christal, Norman, and Lewis Goldberg, and operationalised as the NEO-PI-R by Paul Costa and Robert McCrae at the US National Institute on Aging. Unlike most instruments in commercial use, it originated in academic psychology rather than in consulting practice, and freely available versions exist for research (Goldberg, 1993).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Trait research before the 1980s was fragmented across incompatible instruments, so findings could not be compared. The Big Five was developed to establish how many dimensions were actually needed to describe personality, using factor analysis of natural-language trait terms. The answer converged on five. Its practical importance is that conscientiousness predicts job performance across nearly every occupation studied (Barrick and Mount, 1991).

FIGURE 1 · FIVE CONTINUOUS TRAIT DIMENSIONS

Openness	conventional ↔ curious, inventive
Conscientiousness	flexible ↔ organised, dependable
Extraversion	reserved ↔ outgoing, energetic
Agreeableness	challenging ↔ cooperative
Neuroticism	calm, resilient ↔ reactive

A position on five spectra, not membership of a category

Figure 1. Five dimensions, each continuous. A person is described by a position on all five at once, which is why type labels lose information (Costa and McCrae, 1992).

HOW IT IS USED

Read your profile as five positions rather than a label, then use it to design working conditions, such as structure, social load and recovery, rather than to explain outcomes afterwards.

WHEN IT IS USED

When evidence-based self-assessment is required, in structured selection where validity matters legally, and when checking a commercial type profile such as MBTI or DISC against a validated baseline.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Occupational psychologists in selection and development, researchers requiring psychometric validity, and individuals wanting a defensible, evidence-based profile of themselves rather than a merely memorable one.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Its predecessors, type-based instruments such as MBTI Dichotomies, assign a person to one of a small number of boxes and discard the distance between two people in the same box. The Big Five keeps every dimension continuous, which is why it survives replication where type models do not. Its limits: it is descriptive rather than explanatory, self-report can be faked in high-stakes use, and five numbers are harder to use in a workshop than a four-letter code.

Human Edge · AI can score a questionnaire and describe a profile; interpreting what your five positions mean for the roles and conditions you choose remains your judgment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

MBTI Dichotomies · [Slibrary 3](#)DISC Behavioural Model · [Slibrary 3](#)The Four Energy Dimensions · [Slibrary 15](#)Growth vs Fixed Mindset · [Slibrary 4](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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Ikigai

SLIBRARY 04
SHEET 1 / 5

Love · Skill · Need · Payment — the overlap that sustains a career

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Ikigai diagram locates sustainable working purpose at the intersection of four conditions: what you love, what you are good at, what the world needs, and what you can be paid for. Pairwise overlaps yield passion, mission, vocation and profession; the centre, where all four hold, is presented as ikigai. The diagram is a Western synthesis and should be distinguished from the Japanese concept whose name it borrows, which concerns a sense of life being worth living (García and Miralles, 2016).

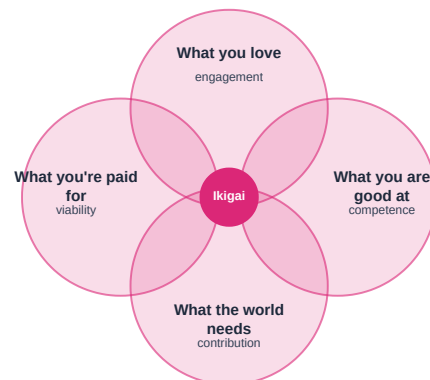
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The four-circle diagram derives from a purpose model published by Andrés Zuzunaga in 2011, relabelled 'ikigai' by Marc Winn in a 2014 blog post, and popularised by Héctor García and Francesc Miralles in Ikigai (2016). The underlying Japanese concept was analysed much earlier by the psychiatrist Mieko Kamiya, whose account carries no requirement of income or vocation at all (Kamiya, 1966).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Career advice tends to optimise a single variable, follow your passion or follow the money, and each produces a predictable failure: unpaid enthusiasm or well-paid disengagement. The diagram's value is that it makes the missing condition diagnosable. Someone describing disengagement in a well-paid, competent role is usually reporting an absence in 'what the world needs' or 'what you love', and can name which.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR CONDITIONS AND THEIR OVERLAP



The thinnest circle is next year's development question

Figure 1. Four conditions overlapping at one centre. The diagnostic value lies in the missing circle, not the centre (García and Miralles, 2016).

HOW IT IS USED

Fill each circle with concrete evidence rather than aspiration, then identify the thinnest circle. Turn that gap into one SMART goal for the year ahead.

WHEN IT IS USED

When choosing a specialisation, when a role is objectively good but subjectively wrong, and when weighing a move that trades income against meaning, security or location.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Master's students choosing a career direction, professionals considering a change, and coaches or mentors structuring a purpose conversation that should end in a concrete development goal.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Single-factor career advice, its predecessor, cannot explain why competent, well-paid people leave. The four-circle model makes the trade-off structure explicit and gives dissatisfaction a vocabulary. Two caveats belong with it: the diagram is not the Japanese concept, which does not require paid work; and it has no empirical validation, so it functions as a conversation structure rather than as an assessment instrument (Kamiya, 1966; Kumano, 2018).

Human Edge · AI can list careers that match stated interests; only you can judge what you genuinely love and what contribution you are willing to own.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Golden Circle · **Slibrary 7**

Personal SWOT / TOWS · **Slibrary 3**

The Personal Brand Pyramid · **Slibrary 7**

OKRs at Personal Level · **Slibrary 15**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

García, H. and Miralles, F. (2016) Ikigai: The Japanese Secret to a Long and Happy Life. London: Hutchinson.

Kamiya, M. (1966) Ikigai ni tsuite [On the Meaning of Life]. Tokyo: Misuzu Shobo.

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The GROW Model

SLIBRARY 04
SHEET 2 / 5

Goal · Reality · Options · Will — the four-stage coaching conversation

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The GROW Model structures a coaching or self-coaching conversation in four stages. Goal sets a specific outcome for the conversation and beyond; Reality establishes the present situation through description rather than judgment; Options generates alternatives before any is evaluated; and Will converts the chosen option into a committed action with an owner and a date. The model relies on questions rather than advice, on the principle that awareness and responsibility produce more durable performance than instruction (Whitmore, 1992).

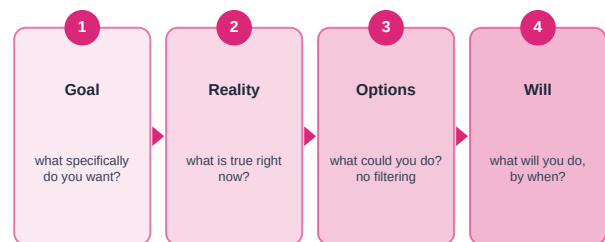
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The model was developed in the 1980s in the United Kingdom by the business coaches Graham Alexander and Alan Fine, with Sir John Whitmore, a former racing driver who applied Timothy Gallwey's Inner Game ideas to management. Whitmore co-founded the consultancy Performance Consultants, and his Coaching for Performance (1992) made GROW the most widely taught coaching structure in organisations (Whitmore, 1992; Alexander, 2006).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Managers asked to develop people tended to diagnose and prescribe, which solved the immediate problem but left the other person dependent and uncommitted. GROW was designed to keep ownership with the person being coached: a goal they set, a reality they describe, options they generate and a commitment they voice. The sequence also prevents the common error of jumping to solutions before the reality is understood.

FIGURE 1 · THE FOUR STAGES OF GROW



Questions keep ownership with the person being coached

Figure 1. Four stages in sequence. In practice the conversation often loops back from Reality to redefine the Goal before moving on (Whitmore, 1992).

HOW IT IS USED

Run a 20-minute peer conversation using only questions for each stage. End with Will: one action, one owner, one date, written as a SMART goal.

WHEN IT IS USED

In development conversations, after feedback revealed a blind spot, when a person is stuck between choices, and when drafting your own personal development roadmap at the end of a self-diagnosis.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Line managers developing their teams, professional coaches and mentors, peer-coaching pairs in class, and individuals using the four questions for structured self-coaching before a career decision.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Its predecessor, directive instruction, transfers the manager's solution but not ownership of it. GROW shifts the manager's role from expert to questioner and gives a novice coach a memorable sequence. Its limits are real: it is a structure, not a theory; it can become a mechanical checklist that skips rapport and emotion; and critics argue it underplays the preparatory work of establishing context and trust (Grant, 2011).

Human Edge · AI can pose the four GROW questions; it cannot hold you accountable, read hesitation in your answer, or supply the commitment that Will requires.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

SMART Goals · [Slibrary 4](#)The Johari Window · [Slibrary 3](#)The IDEAL Model · [Slibrary 5](#)OKRs at Personal Level · [Slibrary 15](#)

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SMART Goals

SLIBRARY 04
SHEET 3 / 5

Specific · Measurable · Achievable · Relevant · Time-bound

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

SMART is a five-criterion screen applied to any stated objective before it is accepted as a commitment. An objective qualifies only if it names a specific outcome, specifies the evidence by which completion will be measured, is achievable with the resources actually available, is relevant to the wider strategy it serves, and carries a fixed date rather than an open horizon. Objectives failing any one criterion are rewritten, not merely noted, so that someone else could verify completion (Doran, 1981).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

George T. Doran, a consultant and former director of corporate planning at Washington Water Power Company, set out the acronym in a 1981 article in Management Review. He presented it as a practical writing discipline for managers, not a motivational theory. The letters were later widely re-labelled, 'attainable' for achievable and 'realistic' for relevant, a drift that Doran's original article did not propose (Doran, 1981).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Doran observed that most corporate objectives were unactionable because they named a direction rather than a destination: 'improve customer service' cannot be started, finished or verified. The test forces the ambiguity out at the point of writing, when it is cheap to fix, rather than at review, when it is not. It complements goal-setting theory, which shows that specific, difficult goals outperform vague ones (Locke and Latham, 2002).

FIGURE 1 · THE FIVE SMART CRITERIA

Specific	a named outcome, not a direction
Measurable	a number or observable state
Achievable	stretching but within capacity
Relevant	connected to your strategy
Time-bound	a date, not a season

An objective must pass all five tests, not most of them

Figure 1. Five criteria applied in sequence. Failure on any single band returns the objective for rewriting; four out of five is not a SMART goal (Doran, 1981).

HOW IT IS USED

Draft the objective in one sentence, then test it against each criterion in turn, rewriting until all five pass. Measurable is the usual failure point; Relevant is the most often ignored.

WHEN IT IS USED

At the Will stage of a GROW conversation, at the start of any piece of work with a deliverable, and whenever an expectation arrives in directional rather than concrete terms.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Individuals building a personal development roadmap, project managers writing objectives, and anyone converting a verbal brief from a manager or client into a written commitment that others can check.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Management by Objectives (Drucker, 1954) established that objectives should be agreed rather than imposed but offered no test of whether an objective was well formed. SMART supplies that test in a form that can be applied in a minute and taught in one session. Its weakness mirrors its strength: it rewards what is easy to measure, which can displace goals that matter but resist quantification, and narrow targets can encourage gaming (Ordóñez et al., 2009).

Human Edge · AI can rewrite a vague aim into flawless SMART wording; deciding whether the goal is worth pursuing, and keeping the commitment, stays with you.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

OKRs at Personal Level · [Slibrary 15](#)The GROW Model · [Slibrary 4](#)Monday Vision · Daily Wins · Friday Reflection · [Slibrary 15](#)The Iron Triangle · [Slibrary 11](#)

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Dreyfus Skill Acquisition Model

SLIBRARY 04
SHEET 4 / 5

Novice → Advanced Beginner → Competent → Proficient → Expert

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Dreyfus model describes skill acquisition as a five-stage progression in which reliance on explicit rules is progressively replaced by situational discrimination. Novices apply context-free rules; advanced beginners recognise recurring situational elements; competent performers choose a plan and accept responsibility for the outcome; proficient performers read situations holistically while still deliberating on action; and experts perceive situation and appropriate action together, deliberating only when something is unusual (Dreyfus and Dreyfus, 1980).

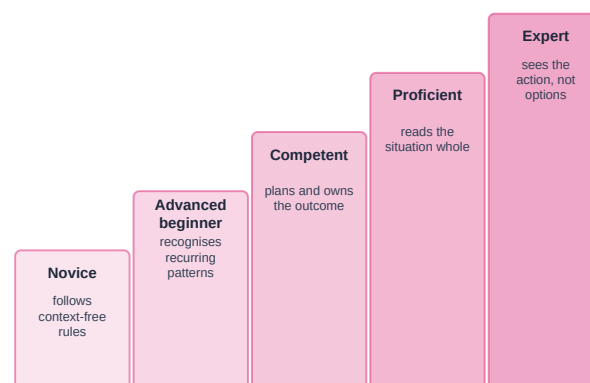
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Stuart Dreyfus, an operations researcher, and his brother Hubert Dreyfus, a philosopher of phenomenology, both at the University of California, Berkeley, developed the model in a 1980 report for the US Air Force Office of Scientific Research. Their wider project was a critique of the claim that human expertise could be captured in the rule sets of symbolic artificial intelligence (Dreyfus, 1972; Dreyfus and Dreyfus, 1986).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The brothers were arguing against the assumption, then dominant in AI research, that expert performance consists of applying more and better rules. Their observation from studying pilots, chess players and drivers was the reverse: rules are scaffolding that experts discard. The model matters for AI-era work because it locates what a rule-following system can supply, and situational judgment sits at the stages it cannot easily reach.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE STAGES OF SKILL ACQUISITION



Rule-following falls as situational judgment rises

Figure 1. Five stages, lowest first. The shift from following rules to owning the outcome occurs at the third step (Dreyfus and Dreyfus, 1980).

HOW IT IS USED

Locate your current stage for one named skill, then set development at the next stage rather than at expert. Novices need rules and examples; competent performers need responsibility and feedback.

WHEN IT IS USED

When planning a personal development roadmap, when designing training, and when deciding which tasks can safely be delegated to a rule-following system or AI tool.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Individuals mapping capability honestly, managers assigning stretch work, and curriculum designers and trainers sequencing a programme from explicit rules and examples towards independent situational judgment.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier training models treated skill as a single continuum of accumulated knowledge, implying that more instruction always helps. The Dreyfus model shows that instruction which helps a novice can hinder an expert, because explicit rule-following interrupts fluent performance. Its limits: the stages are descriptive rather than empirically calibrated, progression is rarely as linear or domain-general as the model suggests, and it says little about how to move between stages (Dall'Alba and Sandberg, 2006).

Human Edge · AI performs well at the rule-following stages; the proficient and expert stages, where situation and action are read together, are where your human edge lies.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Bloom's Revised Taxonomy — AI Waterline · [Slibrary 1](#)

Automation–Augmentation Spectrum · [Slibrary 1](#)

The Task Delegation Matrix · [Slibrary 16](#)

Growth vs Fixed Mindset · [Slibrary 4](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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Growth vs Fixed Mindset

SLIBRARY 04
SHEET 5 / 5

Ability as trainable capacity or as a fixed quantity

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Dweck's model distinguishes two implicit theories of ability. Under a fixed mindset, ability is treated as a stable quantity a person possesses, so difficulty is evidence of a limit and effort signals its absence. Under a growth mindset, ability is treated as developable through effort, strategy and help, so difficulty is information about what to practise next. The belief is domain-specific and situational rather than a global personality trait, and most people hold both in different areas (Dweck, 2006).

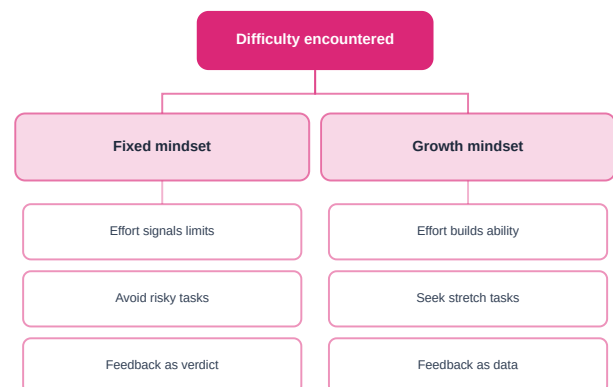
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Carol S. Dweck, professor of psychology at Stanford University, developed the account across three decades of research on responses to failure, beginning with work on learned helplessness in children with Carol Diener. With Ellen Leggett she set out the implicit-theories framework in an influential 1988 article in Psychological Review, and she presented it for a general readership in Mindset (2006) (Dweck and Leggett, 1988).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Dweck's early experiments found that children of equal ability responded to the same failure in opposite ways, some disengaging and others intensifying effort, and that the difference tracked what they believed ability to be. The construct matters at Master's level because the moment a fixed mindset produces withdrawal is the moment most learning is available, and AI tools make avoiding difficulty unusually easy.

FIGURE 1 · ONE SETBACK, TWO RESPONSES



The fork is situational: the same person differs by domain

Figure 1. One interpretation of difficulty branches into opposite behaviour. The divergence appears at setback, not at success (Dweck, 2006).

HOW IT IS USED

Catch the interpretation at the moment of difficulty and restate it as a strategy question: not 'am I good at this?' but 'what specifically am I not yet doing?'

WHEN IT IS USED

After critical feedback, when a task has been avoided repeatedly, and when using AI in a way that removes the difficulty itself rather than the drudgery around it.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students facing demanding assessment, managers giving developmental feedback, and educators and coaches who want failure to be read as diagnostic information about practice rather than as a final verdict on ability.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Motivation was previously explained largely through ability and incentive; Dweck introduced an intervening belief that predicted response to failure independently of both and that is modifiable. The claim requires care: meta-analyses and large replications find average effects on achievement that are small and concentrated among lower-attaining or at-risk students, so the model is best used descriptively rather than as a guaranteed intervention (Sisk et al., 2018; Yeager et al., 2019).

Human Edge · AI can remove every difficulty from a task; choosing to stay with the struggle that builds your ability is a human decision no tool makes for you.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Dreyfus Skill Acquisition Model · [Slibrary 4](#)

The Johari Window · [Slibrary 3](#)

The Yerkes–Dodson Nerve Curve · [Slibrary 8](#)

Mollick's Four Rules of Co-Intelligence · [Slibrary 1](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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SCQA

SLIBRARY 05
SHEET 1 / 5

Situation · Complication · Question · Answer

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

SCQA is a framing sequence placed before any analysis or writing. The situation states what the audience already accepts as true; the complication states the change or tension that makes that situation untenable; the question is the single query the complication forces; and the answer is the governing thought that the rest of the document supports. The sequence is also diagnostic: if no specific complication can be stated, there is no problem worth a document (Minto, 1996).

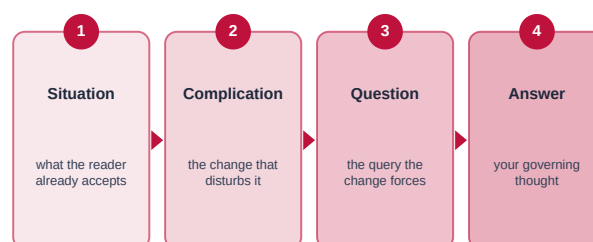
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Barbara Minto developed SCQA at McKinsey & Company in the 1960s and 1970s as the introduction structure of the Pyramid Principle. She was the firm's first female consultant and later led its writing training in Europe before teaching the method independently. The pattern borrows from classical narrative structure, which is why an SCQA opening reads as a short story rather than as a report summary (Minto, 1996).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Minto observed that consultants opened documents with background, on the assumption that context must precede argument, and that readers consequently could not tell why they were reading. The complication supplies that reason. The structure also filters the analyst's own work: an analysis that cannot be traced back to a stated complication is answering a question nobody asked, however rigorous it may be.

FIGURE 1 · THE FOUR FRAMING MOVES



No stateable complication means no problem worth a document

Figure 1. Four moves in fixed order. The complication is the load-bearing element: it converts background into a reason to keep reading (Minto, 1996).

HOW IT IS USED

Write the four sentences before opening a spreadsheet or an AI tool. If the complication is vague, the analysis will be too, so rewrite it until it names a specific, observable change.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before starting any report, proposal or recommendation, when briefing a senior reader who has little time, and when a piece of work has grown large without a clear purpose.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Consultants and analysts framing engagements, students structuring assignments and dissertations, and anyone briefing a colleague or senior reader on a problem that person has not yet met.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Conventional report openings summarise background and leave the reader to infer the purpose from the content. SCQA supplies the purpose first and makes it testable. It also works upstream of writing as a scoping device, which distinguishes it from presentation formulas: the structure fails visibly when the problem is ill-defined, and that failure is the useful signal. Its limit is that it presumes one agreed situation; where stakeholders disagree, the situation itself must first be negotiated.

Human Edge · AI can draft a fluent SCQA in seconds, but only you can judge whether the complication is real, specific and the one your reader actually cares about.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Pyramid Principle · **Slibrary 8**

BLUF — Bottom Line Up Front · **Slibrary 9**

The Storyline Canvas · **Slibrary 9**

Story Structure Arc · **Slibrary 9**

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First Principles Thinking

SLIBRARY 05
SHEET 2 / 5

Decompose to what is certainly true, then rebuild

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

First principles thinking solves a problem by reducing it to propositions that are true independently of convention, then reasoning upward from those alone. The procedure has three moves: identify the assumptions carried by the current framing, break the problem down until only physically or logically necessary constraints remain, and construct a solution from that base rather than from an existing example. It is the deliberate opposite of reasoning by analogy (Aristotle, c. 350 BCE; Wertheimer, 1945).

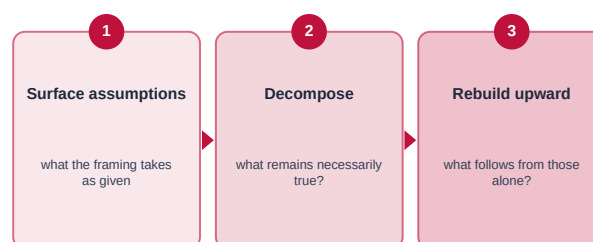
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The concept is Aristotelian in origin: the first principles, or *archai*, from which demonstration proceeds. It enters modern problem solving through Descartes's method of analysis and through Max Wertheimer's Gestalt research on productive thinking, which distinguished genuine restructuring of a problem from the reproductive application of a remembered method. Karl Duncker's experiments on functional fixedness extended the same line (Wertheimer, 1945; Duncker, 1945).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Wertheimer found that learners who had memorised a procedure could not solve a structurally identical problem presented in altered form, while those who had grasped the underlying structure could. Reasoning by analogy is fast and usually adequate, but it inherits every constraint of the analogy, including those that were never necessary. That is why it fails at exactly the moments when conditions have changed.

FIGURE 1 · THREE MOVES BACK TO FUNDAMENTALS



Analogy inherits constraints that were never necessary

Figure 1. Three moves: strip, reduce, reconstruct. The middle move is the hardest, because conventions are experienced as constraints (Wertheimer, 1945).

HOW IT IS USED

Write the problem as currently framed, list every assumption it carries, and strike each one that is convention rather than necessity. Rebuild a solution only from what survives.

WHEN IT IS USED

When an established approach has stopped working, when a cost or capability is asserted as fixed, and when every available option is a variation on the same idea.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Engineers and product designers challenging cost structures, strategists confronting industry orthodoxy, entrepreneurs rethinking a business model, and students asked to produce original rather than derivative analysis.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Reasoning by analogy, such as benchmarking a competitor or adapting best practice, is efficient but cannot generate a solution outside the space of existing examples. First principles thinking can, at a much higher cost in time and effort. Its honest limitation is that it is wasteful when applied indiscriminately: most problems are well served by analogy, and the skill lies in recognising the minority that are not. What counts as certainly true is also itself a judgment.

Human Edge · AI reasons largely by pattern and analogy from its training data; deciding which assumptions are mere convention in your specific context requires your judgment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Ladder of Inference · [Slibrary 6](#)

Distil · Decompose · Prioritise · [Slibrary 7](#)

Bloom's Revised Taxonomy — AI Waterline · [Slibrary 1](#)

The Cynefin Framework · [Slibrary 6](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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Aristotle (c. 350 BCE) *Posterior Analytics*. Translated by J. Barnes (1994). 2nd edn. Oxford: Clarendon Press.

Duncker, K. (1945) 'On problem-solving', *Psychological Monographs*, 58(5).

The IDEAL Model

SLIBRARY 05
SHEET 3 / 5

Identify · Define · Explore · Act · Look back

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The IDEAL Model is a general problem-solving cycle of five stages: identify that a problem exists and is worth solving; define it precisely and set the goal; explore alternative strategies before selecting one; act on the chosen strategy; and look back to evaluate whether the action achieved the goal. Its value lies in separating stages that people habitually merge, especially identification and definition, and in treating the review as part of the solution (Bransford and Stein, 1984).

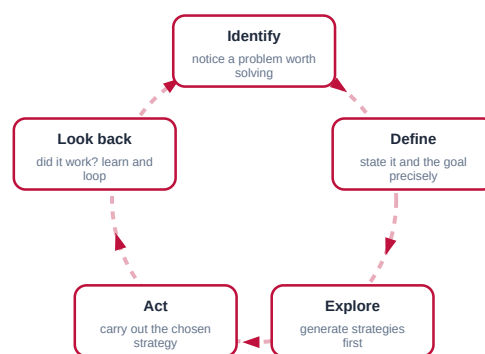
WHO DEVELOPED IT

John D. Bransford, a cognitive and educational psychologist at Vanderbilt University, and Barry S. Stein published the model in *The IDEAL Problem Solver* in 1984, with a second edition in 1993. Bransford later led the Cognition and Technology Group at Vanderbilt and co-edited *How People Learn*. The book was written for general readers and students rather than specialists (Bransford and Stein, 1993).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Bransford and Stein argued that problem solving could be taught as a general skill rather than left to talent, and that many failures occur before any solution is attempted. People act on the first definition that occurs to them, or never notice the problem at all. By naming identification and definition as separate stages, and by making the exploration of strategies explicit, the model gives learners fixed points at which to check their own thinking.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE STAGES, ONE LEARNING LOOP



Most failures start at Define, not at Act

Figure 1. Five stages in a cycle. Looking back feeds the next identification, so each pass improves the problem definition as well as the solution (Bransford and Stein, 1984).

HOW IT IS USED

Write a one-sentence problem definition and goal before any analysis, list at least three strategies before choosing one, and schedule the look-back review at the same time as the action.

WHEN IT IS USED

When a problem is ill-defined or recurring, when a team jumps straight to solutions, and when, as in the Brightfold Retail case, a definition error sends the whole analysis in the wrong direction.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students and educators learning structured problem solving, managers facilitating team problem sessions, and analysts who need an auditable record of how a problem was defined.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Pólya's *How to Solve It* (1945) set out four steps for mathematical problems: understand, devise a plan, carry it out, look back. The IDEAL Model generalises these beyond mathematics and splits understanding into identifying and defining, where everyday problem solving most often fails. Its limits are that it is a teaching heuristic rather than an empirically validated method, and that its tidy sequence understates how often real problems force a return to definition mid-action.

Human Edge · AI can explore many strategies quickly, but it solves the problem exactly as you define it; noticing and defining the right problem remains your task.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The GROW Model · [Slibrary 4](#)SMART Goals · [Slibrary 4](#)The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · [Slibrary 16](#)The Cynefin Framework · [Slibrary 6](#)

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Bransford, J.D. and Stein, B.S. (1984) *The IDEAL Problem Solver*. New York: W.H. Freeman.
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 Pólya, G. (1945) *How to Solve It*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.

5 Whys Root Cause Analysis

SLIBRARY 05
SHEET 4 / 5

Ask why five times to move from symptom to cause

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

5 Whys is an iterative questioning technique for root cause analysis. Starting from a precisely stated problem, the analyst asks why it occurred, then asks why of each answer in turn, until the chain reaches a cause in a process or system that can be changed. Five is a rule of thumb rather than a requirement: the test is that removing the final cause would prevent recurrence, not merely treat the symptom (Ohno, 1988).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The technique is commonly traced to Sakichi Toyoda, founder of the Toyoda group, and was formalised by Taiichi Ohno, the engineer who built the Toyota Production System from the 1950s onward. Ohno described repeating why five times as the basis of Toyota's scientific approach, illustrated by a stopped machine traced back through a blown fuse and poor lubrication to a missing pump strainer (Ohno, 1988).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Toyota stopped the production line whenever a defect appeared, which made every stoppage expensive and every recurrence visible. Quick fixes that replaced a fuse or reset a machine allowed the same fault to return. Ohno wanted operators and supervisors on the shop floor, without statistical training, to trace a problem to its source themselves and to change the process rather than blame the person nearest the fault.

FIGURE 1 · FROM SYMPTOM DOWN TO ROOT CAUSE



Stop where a process fix prevents recurrence, not at a person

Figure 1. Each answer becomes the next question. Five is a heuristic: the chain ends when removing the cause would prevent the problem recurring (Ohno, 1988).

HOW IT IS USED

State the problem as an observed fact, ask why, and check each answer against data before asking again. Branch where two causes contribute, and end with a concrete process change.

WHEN IT IS USED

After a defect, incident or missed target that has recurred or could recur, and whenever the first explanation offered is a person rather than a process.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Operations and quality teams, lean and Six Sigma practitioners, project managers running retrospectives, and analysts testing whether a proposed cause actually explains the observed data.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Before Toyota, fault diagnosis was typically left to specialists or ended at the first plausible cause and the nearest responsible person. 5 Whys made root cause analysis a routine shop-floor habit needing no special tools. Its limits are well documented: a single linear chain misses interacting causes, different investigators reach different roots, and the chain cannot go beyond the analyst's existing knowledge. Patient-safety researchers therefore advise combining it with richer methods (Card, 2017).

Human Edge · AI can propose plausible causal chains instantly, but only people with access to the actual process and data can test whether each 'because' is true.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Ladder of Inference · [Slibrary 6](#)

ISO 31000 Risk Process · [Slibrary 12](#)

Probability–Impact Matrix · [Slibrary 12](#)

First Principles Thinking · [Slibrary 5](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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The Double Diamond

SLIBRARY 05
SHEET 5 / 5

Discover · Define · Develop · Deliver — two cycles of divergence and convergence

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Double Diamond models design as four phases alternating between divergent and convergent thinking. Discover explores the problem space broadly; define narrows it to a single framed problem statement; develop generates multiple candidate solutions; and deliver converges on one, tests it and refines it. The central constriction between the two diamonds is the point at which the problem, not the solution, is fixed, and it is the step teams most often skip (Design Council, 2005).

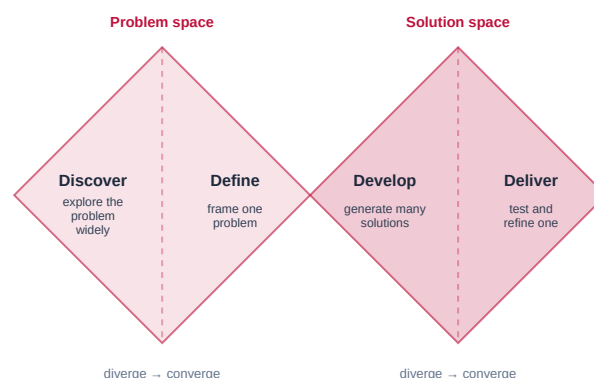
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The UK Design Council published the model in 2005 after studying the design processes of eleven global companies, including Microsoft, Starbucks and LEGO, and finding a common pattern beneath their different vocabularies. It was revised in 2019 as the Framework for Innovation, which places the two diamonds within design principles, a wider set of methods, and the leadership and engagement conditions that allow them to work (Design Council, 2019).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The Council found that organisations treated design as a styling stage at the end of development, arriving with the problem already assumed and only the execution open. The model makes problem definition a distinct, resourced phase with its own divergence. Its persistent message is that effort spent widening the problem space before narrowing it is not delay but the substance of the work.

FIGURE 1 · TWO DIAMONDS, FOUR PHASES



Fix the problem at the waist before developing any solution

Figure 1. Divergence then convergence, twice. The waist between the diamonds is where the problem is fixed, before any solution is developed (Design Council, 2005).

HOW IT IS USED

Name which of the four phases you are in and refuse to mix modes: do not evaluate during a divergent phase, and do not generate new options during a convergent one.

WHEN IT IS USED

At the start of any design, innovation or improvement project, and whenever a team is arguing about solutions before it has agreed what the problem actually is.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Design and innovation teams, service and product designers, project managers structuring discovery work, consultants running client workshops, and facilitators protecting divergent phases from premature judgment.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Linear stage-gate development treats requirements as an input to be received rather than a question to be investigated, so a wrongly framed problem is discovered only at launch. The Double Diamond makes reframing a designed phase with its own time and methods. Its own limitation is that the diagram implies a single pass, whereas real projects loop repeatedly between phases, a point the 2019 revision acknowledged explicitly.

Human Edge · AI is strong in the divergent phases, generating options at volume; deciding which problem is worth solving and which solution to ship remains a human judgment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Cynefin Framework · [Slibrary 6](#)Project Lifecycle Phases · [Slibrary 11](#)Waterfall · Agile · Hybrid · [Slibrary 11](#)The IDEAL Model · [Slibrary 5](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Design Council (2005) The Design Process: What Is the Double Diamond? London: Design Council.

Design Council (2019) Framework for Innovation: Design Council's Evolved Double Diamond. London: Design Council.

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System 1 / System 2

SLIBRARY 06
SHEET 1 / 5

Fast automatic judgment against slow effortful reasoning

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Kahneman's two-system account distinguishes System 1, which produces impressions, intuitions and judgments automatically, continuously and without felt effort, from System 2, which allocates attention to effortful mental activities such as complex calculation and deliberate self-monitoring. System 2 generally endorses System 1's proposals with little modification. That arrangement is efficient in most conditions, because deliberate thought is costly, and it is the origin of systematic, predictable bias in the remaining cases (Kahneman, 2011).

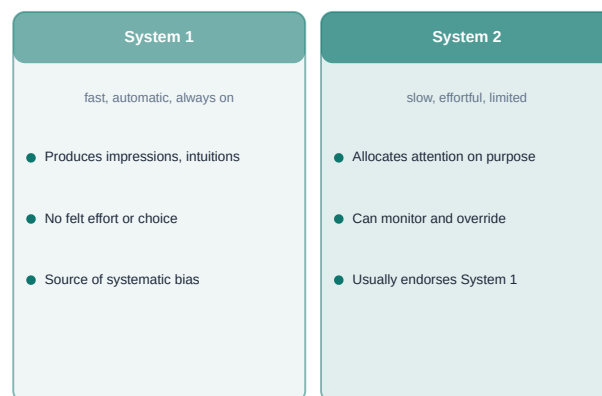
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Daniel Kahneman, an Israeli-American psychologist at Princeton University and winner of the 2002 Nobel Memorial Prize in Economic Sciences, set out the account in *Thinking, Fast and Slow* (2011). The book synthesises four decades of work, much of it with Amos Tversky, on heuristics and judgment under uncertainty. The System 1 and System 2 labels were borrowed from Keith Stanovich and Richard West (Stanovich and West, 2000).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Kahneman and Tversky's experiments established that errors of judgment are not random noise but predictable departures from normative reasoning, arising from heuristics that work well in most circumstances. The two-system framing explains why expertise and intelligence do not protect against these errors: the fast system produces an answer before the slow one is engaged, and the slow system is reluctant to check it.

FIGURE 1 · TWO SYSTEMS, ONE ENDORSEMENT PROBLEM



The default is endorsement, not scrutiny

Figure 1. Two modes and the relationship between them. System 2's habitual endorsement of System 1 output is where predictable error enters (Kahneman, 2011).

HOW IT IS USED

Build the check into the process rather than relying on noticing: pre-commit to a decision checklist for consequential judgments, since the feeling of certainty is itself a System 1 output.

WHEN IT IS USED

On high-stakes decisions, under time pressure or fatigue, and whenever an answer, including an AI-generated one, arrives immediately and feels obviously right without any checking.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Anyone making consequential judgments under uncertainty, managers and boards designing decision processes, and professionals in any field working with fluent AI output that invites immediate, unexamined acceptance.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Classical economics modelled the decision-maker as consistently rational, so observed departures were treated as noise. The heuristics-and-biases programme showed that the departures were systematic and predictable, helping to found behavioural economics. Kahneman himself cautioned that the two systems are useful fictions rather than brain structures, dual-process theory has academic critics, and parts of the priming research cited in the book have since failed to replicate.

Human Edge · Fluent AI output feels right to System 1; AI cannot supply the deliberate System 2 check on whether it actually is right, and that check remains yours.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Bloom's Revised Taxonomy — AI Waterline · [Slibrary 1](#)

The CRAAP Test · [Slibrary 2](#)

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · [Slibrary 16](#)

The Automation Bias Curve · [Slibrary 6](#)

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The Cognitive Bias Quartet

SLIBRARY 06
SHEET 2 / 5

Anchoring · Confirmation · Availability · Overconfidence

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Cognitive Bias Quartet groups four systematic errors of judgment. Anchoring is insufficient adjustment away from an initial value; confirmation bias is seeking and interpreting evidence to fit an existing belief; availability is judging frequency or likelihood by how easily examples come to mind; and overconfidence is certainty that exceeds accuracy. Each has a distinct mechanism and countermeasure, and the four often compound within one analysis (Tversky and Kahneman, 1974; Nickerson, 1998; Moore and Healy, 2008).

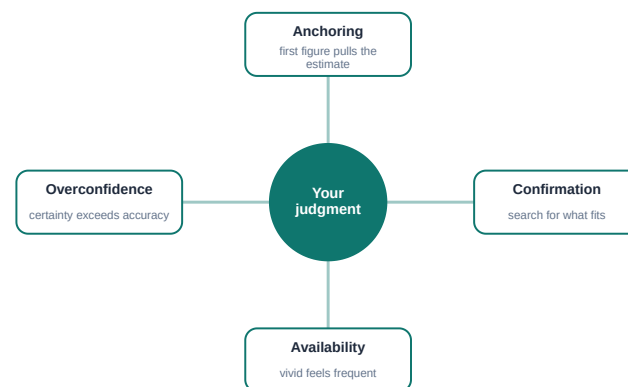
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The grouping was assembled for this course by Dr. Hildegard Haas. The biases themselves come from separate research lines. Amos Tversky and Daniel Kahneman described anchoring and availability in their 1974 Science paper; Raymond Nickerson's 1998 review consolidated evidence on confirmation bias that began with Peter Wason's experiments; and Don Moore and Paul Healy distinguished overestimation, overplacement and overprecision as three forms of overconfidence (Moore and Healy, 2008).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Hundreds of cognitive biases have been catalogued, and long lists are rarely remembered or applied. The quartet selects four that are robustly replicated, recur in business analysis, and each map to a practical countermeasure. They also mirror the ways AI assistance can mislead: a first draft anchors, a leading prompt confirms, a vivid example feels representative, and a confident tone is mistaken for accuracy.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR BIASES AROUND ONE JUDGMENT



Name the bias, then apply its specific countermeasure

Figure 1. Four biases with distinct mechanisms acting on one judgment. They compound: an anchored estimate attracts confirming evidence and is then held with excess confidence (Tversky and Kahneman, 1974).

HOW IT IS USED

Audit a draft analysis against all four: re-derive key figures independently, search for disconfirming evidence, check base rates behind vivid cases, and widen the ranges you state.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before committing to a recommendation, forecast or valuation, when reviewing an AI-generated analysis, and whenever a conclusion was reached quickly and now feels obvious to everyone involved.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Analysts, investors and consultants reviewing their own work, managers chairing decision meetings, negotiators preparing opening numbers, and students in every discipline checking AI-assisted assignments before submission.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Bias-awareness training usually presents either a single bias or a catalogue of dozens, and neither reliably changes behaviour. The quartet trades completeness for usability: four mechanisms, four countermeasures. The caveats are real. The selection is a teaching choice rather than a research taxonomy, awareness alone reduces bias only modestly, and some effects, notably anchoring, vary considerably in size across domains and incentive conditions (Furnham and Boo, 2011).

Human Edge · AI can name biases and flag suspect claims, but it shares and can amplify all four; catching them in your own reasoning requires your deliberate review.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The CRAAP Test · **Slibrary 2**SIFT — Four Moves · **Slibrary 2**BATNA · **Slibrary 13**System 1 / System 2 · **Slibrary 6**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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The Cynefin Framework

SLIBRARY 06
SHEET 3 / 5

Clear · Complicated · Complex · Chaotic — matching response to domain

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Cynefin is a sense-making framework that sorts situations by the nature of the relationship between cause and effect. In clear contexts the relationship is self-evident and best practice applies; in complicated contexts it is knowable through analysis or expertise; in complex contexts it is apparent only in retrospect, so safe-to-fail probes are required; and in chaotic contexts none is discernible and action must precede analysis. A fifth state, confusion, is not knowing which applies (Snowden and Boone, 2007).

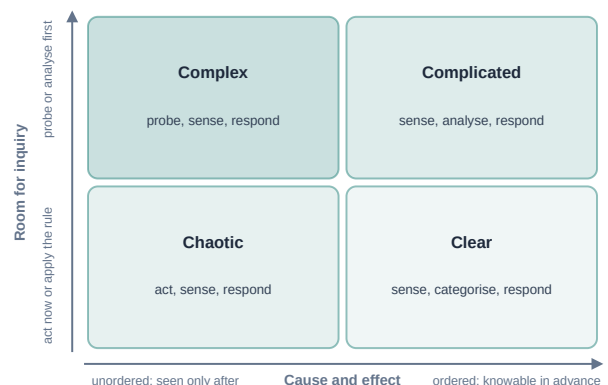
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Dave Snowden developed the framework at IBM's Institute for Knowledge Management from 1999 onward, drawing on complexity science, cognitive science and anthropology, and later continued it at the Cognitive Edge network. The Welsh word cynefin denotes the multiple belongings that shape how a person perceives a place. The framework reached a general management readership through his 2007 Harvard Business Review article with Mary Boone (Kurtz and Snowden, 2003).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Snowden's argument was that management failure is often a category error rather than an execution error. Best practice imported into a complex domain produces confident action on a misread situation, and rigorous analysis applied to a chaotic one wastes the window for response. The framework therefore demands that the domain be diagnosed before any method is chosen, and that the diagnosis be revisited as the situation moves.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR DOMAINS, FOUR WAYS TO DECIDE



The dangerous move is treating a complex problem as complicated

Figure 1. Four domains around a central state of confusion about which applies. Each domain licenses a different sequence of action and analysis (Snowden and Boone, 2007).

HOW IT IS USED

Diagnose the domain before selecting a method. If cause and effect are only clear afterwards, run small, reversible, safe-to-fail probes instead of executing a fixed plan.

WHEN IT IS USED

At the start of an initiative, when a proven method is failing unexpectedly, and during a crisis when the instinct is to analyse rather than act.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Leaders choosing a management approach under uncertainty, crisis teams, project managers deciding between plan-driven and adaptive delivery, and teams diagnosing why an established best practice has stopped working.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Contingency theories of management held that the right approach depends on the situation but offered little help in classifying situations. Cynefin supplies the classification and attaches a distinct action sequence to each class. It is a sense-making device rather than a categorisation model: domains are assigned by judgment and can shift, and Snowden explicitly warns against treating the framework as a two-by-two matrix to be filled in.

Human Edge · AI performs well where cause and effect are knowable; in complex and chaotic domains, deciding what to probe and when to act needs human judgment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Waterfall · Agile · Hybrid · **Slibrary 11**Probability–Impact Matrix · **Slibrary 12**The Task Delegation Matrix · **Slibrary 16**The Double Diamond · **Slibrary 5**

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The Ladder of Inference

SLIBRARY 06
SHEET 4 / 5

From observable data to action, one unexamined rung at a time

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Ladder of Inference describes the near-instantaneous progression from observable data to action. From the available data a subset is selected; meaning is added from cultural and personal context; assumptions are formed on that meaning; conclusions are drawn; beliefs are adopted; and action is taken. Beliefs then determine which data is selected on the next pass, closing a reflexive loop. Many disagreements are in fact disputes located on different rungs (Argyris, 1990; Senge, 1990).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Chris Argyris, professor at Harvard Business School and a founder of organisational learning research, developed the ladder within his work with Donald Schön on theories of action and defensive routines. Peter Senge popularised it as a team-learning discipline in *The Fifth Discipline* (1990) and its accompanying fieldbook, which is the form in which most practitioners encounter it today (Argyris and Schön, 1974).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Argyris's field research found that skilled professionals were remarkably poor at examining the reasoning behind their own conclusions, defending positions whose derivation they could not reconstruct. The ladder makes the invisible steps nameable. That is what allows two people who disagree to locate the rung at which they diverged, instead of arguing at the top about conclusions neither can fully justify.

FIGURE 1 · SEVEN RUNGS FROM DATA TO ACTION



Beliefs at the top govern which data is selected next time

Figure 1. Seven rungs climbed almost instantly. Beliefs at the top determine selection at the bottom, making the ladder a loop rather than a line (Argyris, 1990).

HOW IT IS USED

When you disagree strongly, walk down: what did I actually observe, what did I select, and what meaning did I add that the other person may not share?

WHEN IT IS USED

In conflict where both parties believe the facts are obvious, in feedback conversations, and whenever a strong reaction or firm conclusion has formed very quickly.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Teams working through disagreement, managers examining their own judgments of people, negotiators testing their reading of a counterpart, and facilitators surfacing the reasoning behind stated positions.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Communication training had focused on how positions are expressed. Argyris relocated the problem to how positions are formed, arguing that much organisational conflict concerns unexamined inference rather than incompatible interests. The framework has little quantitative validation and works as a reflective discipline rather than a tested model; its value lies in giving the steps names that can be used out loud in a meeting.

Human Edge · AI can summarise the data on the bottom rung, but it cannot see the meanings and beliefs you added; walking back down the ladder is a human discipline.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Johari Window · [Slibrary 3](#)

Principled Negotiation — Four Rules · [Slibrary 13](#)

The Five Core Concerns · [Slibrary 14](#)

5 Whys Root Cause Analysis · [Slibrary 5](#)

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The Automation Bias Curve

SLIBRARY 06
SHEET 5 / 5

Trust in an automated aid rises faster than its reliability warrants

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Automation bias is the tendency to over-rely on an automated aid because trust in it rises faster than its reliability warrants. It produces two characteristic failures: errors of commission, where an incorrect recommendation is followed despite contradicting evidence, and errors of omission, where a problem the aid did not flag goes undetected. Parasuraman and Riley frame the wider phenomenon as use, misuse through over-trust, disuse through under-trust, and abuse through poor design (Parasuraman and Riley, 1997).

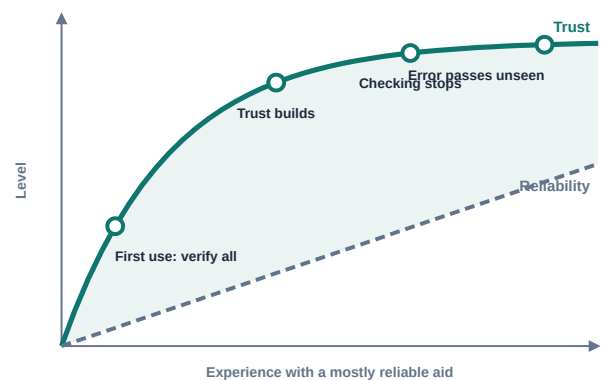
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Raja Parasuraman, a human-factors psychologist later at George Mason University, and Victor Riley published the framing in Human Factors in 1997, drawing on aviation and process-control research. Linda Skitka, Kathleen Mosier and Mark Burdick then demonstrated both error types experimentally in flight simulation, showing that verification decays even when operators are told the aid is imperfect (Skitka, Mosier and Burdick, 1999).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Aviation and medicine had accumulated incidents in which highly trained operators followed automation into avoidable accidents. The research question was why competence did not protect them. The answer is that reliability itself is the hazard: a system that is right most of the time trains the operator to stop checking, and the rare error then arrives unexamined. Generative AI reproduces this configuration closely.

FIGURE 1 · HOW TRUST OUTGROWS RELIABILITY



The gap between the lines is where unchecked errors pass
Figure 1. Trust in the aid rises faster than its reliability warrants, and verification falls away. The widening gap is where errors of commission and omission pass (Parasuraman and Riley, 1997).

HOW IT IS USED

Set a verification rule in advance and tie it to consequence, not confidence: decide which outputs must be checked against a source regardless of how right the system has been lately.

WHEN IT IS USED

Whenever a tool has been reliable for a sustained period, when comparing AI-assisted with unaided analysis, and before any output reaches a client, an examiner or a publication.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Anyone working with AI assistance in study or at work, professionals in regulated settings such as healthcare and aviation, and managers designing review and sign-off processes around automated tools.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier human-factors work treated automation failure as a technical reliability problem to be engineered out. Parasuraman and Riley reframed it as a problem of calibrating human trust, which must be designed around, and later work made calibrated trust an explicit design goal (Lee and See, 2004). The effect is well evidenced in aviation and clinical decision support, though its size varies with workload, accountability and training (Goddard, Roudsari and Wyatt, 2012).

Human Edge · AI cannot calibrate your trust in it; deciding which outputs to verify, by consequence rather than by recent accuracy, is your human edge.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · [Slibrary 16](#)

The Hallucination Risk Ladder · [Slibrary 2](#)

Mollick's Four Rules of Co-Intelligence · [Slibrary 1](#)

System 1 / System 2 · [Slibrary 6](#)

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The Message Strategy Spectrum

SLIBRARY 07
SHEET 1 / 5

Convince ← → Clarify: motivational or informational, and the blend between

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Message Strategy Spectrum places any message on an axis between two poles. At the convince end the message is motivational: it explains why the topic matters and builds trust in the message, typically through inspiring stories and introductory content. At the clarify end it is informational: it unpacks what the thing is through explanation and detail for a more advanced audience. Real messages sit at neither pole but are a deliberate blend, sequenced for example as why, then what, then why again (Bostelaar, n.d.).

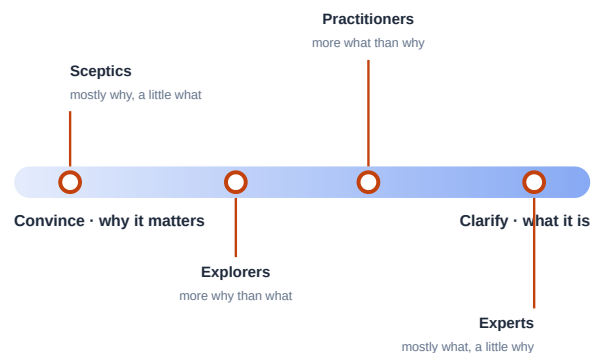
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Kurt Bostelaar, a learning-experience designer, sets out the spectrum in his playbook *Clarify Your Core Message*, published by Leverlo, alongside the worksheet method for distilling a core message. The underlying distinction between motivating an audience and informing it has a longer history in instructional design, most notably in Keller's ARCS model, which treats attention and relevance as preconditions for learning (Keller, 1987).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The playbook addresses a failure familiar to anyone who teaches or presents: a technically excellent explanation delivered to an audience that has not yet accepted that the topic matters, or an inspiring case made to an audience that already agrees and now needs detail. Both are well-made messages aimed at the wrong point on the axis. Making the axis explicit turns an intuition about audience readiness into a decision that can be planned.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR AUDIENCES ON ONE AXIS



Every message is a blend; the audience decides where the blend sits

Figure 1. Audience types located on the convince–clarify axis. A pitch leans towards why; a description or training session leans towards what (Bostelaar, n.d.).

HOW IT IS USED

Rate audience awareness, skill and resistance, and the content's position and purpose, from left to right. Average the ratings, then sketch the blend of why and what as a flow with rough percentages.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before designing a lecture, pitch, briefing or training session, when the same content must serve several audiences, and whenever a carefully prepared message has failed to land with a particular group.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Educators and trainers sequencing content, managers announcing change to a sceptical team, founders pitching to investors, and anyone presenting the same material to audiences of differing awareness and readiness.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Conventional presentation advice, from the classical rhetorical canons onwards, tends to treat clarity as the single objective, which serves only audiences who already accept the premise. Bostelaar makes the balance between convincing and clarifying an explicit design variable set by diagnosing the audience rather than by the presenter's preference. It is a practitioner instrument without formal validation, and the averaging of five ratings is a heuristic rather than a measurement; its value is that the choice becomes visible and reviewable.

Human Edge · AI can draft both a motivational and an informational version quickly, but judging a real room's awareness, resistance and mood remains a human reading.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

High-Context / Low-Context · [Slibrary 10](#)

Story Structure Arc · [Slibrary 9](#)

Cialdini's Principles of Influence · [Slibrary 14](#)

The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)

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Distil · Decompose · Prioritise

SLIBRARY 07
SHEET 2 / 5

Bostelaar's four-step compression from paragraph to one sentence

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Distil · Decompose · Prioritise is a five-step worksheet for reducing a complex idea to a single accessible sentence. The writer first describes the message at length in one paragraph, then extracts every distinct concept it contains as an isolated item, then force-ranks those concepts by importance. Only after ranking is the message re-summarised in at most three sentences and finally in one. The ranking step exposes the primary emphasis instead of leaving it assumed, and separates the core from the clutter (Bostelaar, n.d.).

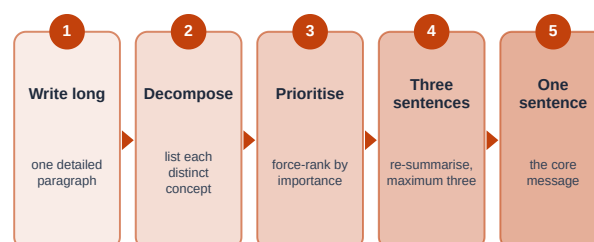
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Kurt Bostelaar, a learning-experience designer, presents the method as the second section of his playbook *Clarify Your Core Message*, following the Message Strategy Spectrum. It belongs to a long practitioner tradition that treats compression as a test of understanding, and it echoes the Heaths' advice to find the core of an idea by stripping it to its most important essence (Heath and Heath, 2007).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The method answers a specific failure: writers who cannot say which of their points matters most, because nothing has ever forced them to choose. Shortening alone tends to produce a briefer version of the same confusion. Decomposition puts the concepts side by side so they can be compared, and forced ranking makes the choice unavoidable. That is why the three-sentence and one-sentence summaries come after ranking rather than before it.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE STEPS FROM CLUTTER TO CORE



The forced ranking, not the shortening, decides the emphasis

Figure 1. The five worksheet steps in fixed order. Distilling shortens, decomposing separates, and only forced ranking establishes what the one sentence must carry (Bostelaar, n.d.).

HOW IT IS USED

Write the paragraph without editing, list the concepts it contains, rank them with no ties, then write the three-sentence and one-sentence versions around the top-ranked concepts only.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before writing a lecture, pitch, abstract, elevator introduction or executive summary, and whenever a message contains several good points but no evident main one that an audience could repeat afterwards.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Educators preparing sessions, professionals writing summaries and briefings for senior readers, and Masters students framing a thesis statement, research question or project pitch for assessment.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Conventional editing advice, such as cutting words and removing jargon, improves readability without resolving emphasis, so a shortened message can remain unclear about its own priority. Bostelaar makes prioritisation a separate, explicit step with a visible output, a ranked list, placed before the final compression. The method is a practitioner worksheet rather than a validated instrument, and a forced ranking can oversimplify ideas that are genuinely interdependent; its value is procedural, in that the ranking cannot be skipped.

Human Edge · AI can summarise a paragraph into one sentence instantly, but deciding which concept truly matters to this audience and purpose is a judgement you must own.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Pyramid Principle · [Slibrary 8](#)

BLUF — Bottom Line Up Front · [Slibrary 9](#)

The 7 Cs of Communication · [Slibrary 9](#)

First Principles Thinking · [Slibrary 5](#)

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The Golden Circle

SLIBRARY 07
SHEET 3 / 5

Why → How → What: start from purpose, not from product

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Golden Circle is a three-ring model of communication order. The outer ring, what, states the product or activity; the middle ring, how, states the differentiating process; and the inner ring, why, states the purpose or belief that motivates the activity. Sinek argues that most organisations and individuals communicate from the outside in, and that those who inspire consistently begin at the centre and work outward. The claim concerns sequence rather than content, which makes it easy to apply to pitches and introductions (Sinek, 2009).

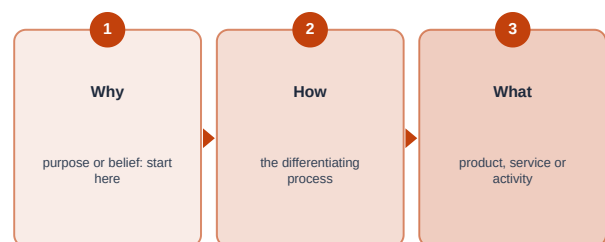
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Simon Sinek, a British-American author and speaker, presented the model in a 2009 TEDx talk that became one of the most viewed TED talks, and in his book *Start with Why* the same year. He supports it with an appeal to a limbic-brain account of decision-making, a popular simplification of neuroanatomy that is not supported in the terms he states it (Sinek, 2009; Poldrack, 2011).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Sinek observed that organisations with comparable products and resources achieve very different levels of loyalty, and that the difference seemed to track whether they could articulate a purpose beyond the transaction. In this course the model serves as an ordering rule for introductions and pitches: it puts the belief first, at the moment when an audience decides whether to keep listening, and leaves the detail for later.

FIGURE 1 · COMMUNICATE FROM THE INSIDE OUT



Most communication runs what, how, why; the model reverses it

Figure 1. The three rings as a speaking order, from the inner ring outward. The claim is about sequence, not content (Sinek, 2009).

HOW IT IS USED

Draft your introduction three times, opening with what, with how and with why, then test which version an unfamiliar listener remembers and wants to hear more about.

WHEN IT IS USED

When opening a pitch, an interview answer or a networking introduction, when announcing a change, and when a proposal has plenty of detail but no evident motivation for the listener.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Founders framing a venture for investors, professionals introducing themselves at interviews and events, marketers writing brand messages, and leaders explaining a change to people who did not ask for it.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Conventional communication training, typified by feature-and-benefit selling, optimised the content of a message; Sinek's contribution is a claim about its order, which is simple to apply and to test. Two cautions belong with it. The neuroscientific justification is not supportable as stated, and the evidence offered is a selection of success narratives, such as Apple, rather than systematic comparison. Use it as a rhetorical structure, not as a finding about the brain.

Human Edge · AI can polish a purpose statement, but it cannot supply the belief itself; a why that is not genuinely yours will not survive a follow-up question.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Ikigai · **Slibrary 4**Story Structure Arc · **Slibrary 9**Executive Presence · **Slibrary 10**OKRs at Personal Level · **Slibrary 15**

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StoryBrand SB7

SLIBRARY 07
SHEET 4 / 5

The customer is the hero; you are the guide

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

SB7 structures a message as a story with seven elements: a character who wants something; a problem at external, internal and philosophical levels; a guide who shows empathy and authority; a plan the character can follow; a call to action; the failure that is avoided; and the success that results. Its governing rule is positional: the customer or audience is the hero of the story and the brand or speaker is the guide, never the other way round (Miller, 2017).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Donald Miller, an American author and founder of the StoryBrand consultancy, published the framework in Building a StoryBrand (2017). It compresses classical narrative theory, notably Joseph Campbell's monomyth as adapted for screenwriting, into a marketing template that can be used without literary training (Campbell, 1949). Consumer research on narrative processing gives partial support to its premise that stories build brand connection (Escalas, 2004).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Miller's diagnosis of failing marketing was not that it lacked information but that it supplied the wrong kind: organisations describe themselves, which forces the audience to work out its own relevance, and most audiences do not bother. Casting the customer as hero reverses that burden. The internal-problem layer matters most in practice, because decisions are often driven by how a problem feels rather than by what it costs.

FIGURE 1 · SEVEN ELEMENTS OF THE SB7 STORY



You are the guide; the audience is the hero

Figure 1. The seven elements in narrative order. Reversing the hero and guide roles is the failure the framework is designed to prevent (Miller, 2017).

HOW IT IS USED

Write one sentence for each element about your audience rather than yourself, then check that every sentence names them, their problem and their success, not your credentials.

WHEN IT IS USED

When writing a pitch, personal profile, landing page, proposal or cover letter, and whenever feedback says a message is about you rather than about the audience it needs to move.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Founders and marketers writing customer-facing copy, job applicants framing a profile around an employer's problem, consultants structuring a proposal, and students preparing a business challenge pitch.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Feature-and-benefit copywriting keeps the organisation at the centre and leaves the audience to infer relevance. SB7 inverts the roles and makes that inference the writer's job. It is a practitioner formula rather than a researched model, and its rigidity has a real cost: applied mechanically, it produces recognisably formulaic copy, which erodes the distinctiveness it was meant to create. Treat the seven elements as a checklist, not a script.

Human Edge · AI can fill the seven boxes in seconds, but only you can find the audience's internal problem through genuine listening and speak to it credibly.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

[Story Structure Arc · Slibrary 9](#)
[The Storyline Canvas · Slibrary 9](#)
[The Five Core Concerns · Slibrary 14](#)
[The Johari Window · Slibrary 3](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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The Personal Brand Pyramid

SLIBRARY 07
SHEET 5 / 5

Attributes → Benefits → Values → Personality → Essence

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Personal Brand Pyramid arranges how a professional presents themselves into five ascending levels of abstraction. Attributes are verifiable skills, credentials and achievements; benefits are what those attributes do for an employer or client; values state what the person consistently stands for; personality describes how they behave and come across; and the essence is a single distilled idea. Each level must be supported by the one beneath it, so an essence with no attribute trail is a claim rather than a position (Aaker, 1996; Keller, 2001).

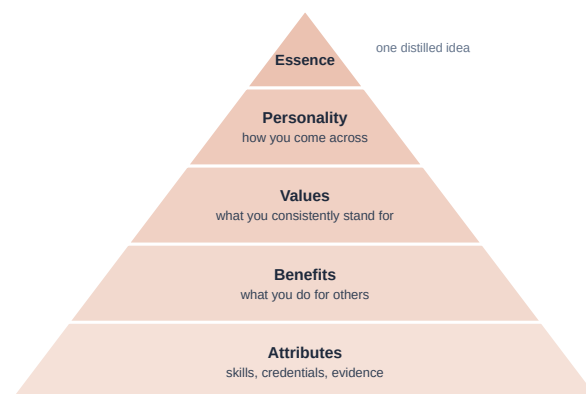
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The pyramid is a synthesis rather than a single author's model. David Aaker established the architecture of brand identity in Building Strong Brands (1996); Kevin Lane Keller gave brand equity its pyramid form (Keller, 2001); and Leslie de Chernatony developed the attributes-to-values brand pyramid used in brand planning (de Chernatony, 2010). Applying brand thinking to individuals was popularised by Tom Peters' 1997 article 'The brand called you'.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Brand planners found that brands were described either as feature lists, which competitors could copy, or as abstract adjectives, which meant nothing to a buyer. The pyramid connects the two ends by requiring every emotional claim to be traceable to something concrete. Applied to a person, it marks the difference between claiming to be strategic and offering a demonstrable record that makes the word credible to a recruiter.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE LEVELS OF A PERSONAL BRAND



Build from the base: an unsupported level is a claim, not a brand

Figure 1. Five levels rising from the verifiable to the distilled. Any level unsupported from below is an assertion rather than a position (Aaker, 1996; de Chernatony, 2010).

HOW IT IS USED

Build upward: list attributes you can evidence, derive the benefit each delivers, name the values and personality others actually observe, and only then attempt the one-line essence.

WHEN IT IS USED

When writing a personal brand statement, LinkedIn summary or CV profile, and whenever a positioning line sounds impressive but cannot be substantiated in an interview.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Masters students entering the job market, professionals repositioning after a career change, freelancers and consultants marketing themselves, and brand managers auditing whether claims are consistent.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Feature-based self-presentation, the conventional CV list, is easily matched and gives an employer no reason to prefer one candidate. Purely aspirational positioning is distinctive but unsupported, and collapses on contact with evidence. The pyramid's contribution is its demand for vertical support throughout. Its limits are that the upper levels resist measurement, level names vary between sources, and corporate brand logic transfers imperfectly to people, who change and are judged on conduct as well as claims.

Human Edge · AI can generate an elegant brand statement for anyone; only your verifiable record and consistent behaviour can make that statement true of you.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Personal SWOT / TOWS · [Slibrary 3](#)The Johari Window · [Slibrary 3](#)Ikigai · [Slibrary 4](#)Executive Presence · [Slibrary 10](#)

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The Pyramid Principle

SLIBRARY 08
SHEET 1 / 5

Answer first, then grouped and summarised supporting arguments

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Pyramid Principle organises an argument so that the governing thought appears first and everything below it supports it. Ideas at any level summarise the ideas grouped beneath them; ideas in each group are of the same logical kind; and groups are ordered deductively or inductively, by time, structure or degree. Supporting groups should be mutually exclusive and collectively exhaustive. A reader or listener can therefore stop at any level and still hold a complete, correct argument (Minto, 1987).

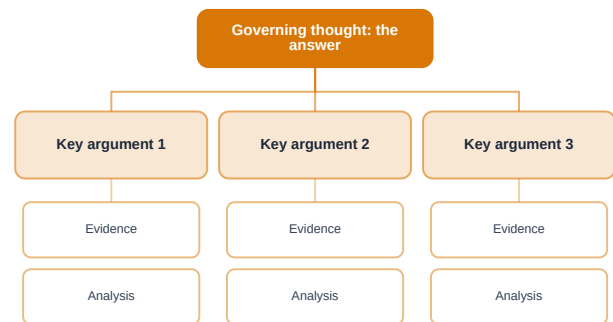
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Barbara Minto joined McKinsey & Company in the 1960s as one of its first female consultants and was later made responsible for teaching writing across the firm's European offices. She published the method independently in 1987, later revising it through several editions, and it has since become the default structure of consulting communication and much executive writing beyond it (Minto, 1987; Rasiel, 1999).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Minto observed that writers organise documents in the order in which they did the work, while readers need the order in which they will make a decision. Those two orders are rarely the same. The pyramid resolves the conflict by putting the conclusion at the top. It also disciplines the writer: an argument that cannot be stated in one governing sentence, supported by a few distinct reasons, has not yet been finished.

FIGURE 1 · ONE ANSWER, SUPPORTED DOWNWARD



Each level summarises the level beneath it

Figure 1. The answer at the top, MECE key arguments beneath, evidence at the base. A reader who stops early still holds a complete argument (Minto, 1987).

HOW IT IS USED

Write the single governing sentence first, list the three or so arguments that would persuade a sceptical reader, test them for overlap and gaps, then gather evidence under each.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before writing any report, memo, proposal, email to a senior reader or presentation, and when a draft is accurate but readers keep asking what the point is or what to decide.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Consultants and analysts preparing client deliverables, managers writing to senior stakeholders and boards, and Masters students structuring assessed reports, case study answers, presentations and dissertation chapters.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Academic and technical writing conventionally builds towards a conclusion, which suits a reader obliged to read everything and fails one who is not. Minto inverted the order and specified the logical rules, grouping, summarising and MECE, that make the inversion sound. The structure is demanding to produce, can feel abrupt in high-context cultures that expect context before conclusions, and suits exploratory writing poorly, where the answer is not yet known.

Human Edge · AI can arrange points into a tidy pyramid, but choosing the governing thought, the answer you will defend, is a human commitment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

SCQA · **Slibrary 5**

BLUF — Bottom Line Up Front · **Slibrary 9**

High-Context / Low-Context · **Slibrary 10**

Distil · Decompose · Prioritise · **Slibrary 7**

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Rasiel, E.M. (1999) *The McKinsey Way*. New York: McGraw-Hill.

Talk Like TED — Nine Secrets

SLIBRARY 08
SHEET 2 / 5

Emotion · Novelty · Memorability across three dimensions

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Talk Like TED is a set of nine presentation techniques grouped into three dimensions. Emotional talks connect with the audience through visible passion, storytelling and a conversational delivery. Novel talks teach the audience something new, include a memorable jaw-dropping moment and use appropriate humour. Memorable talks respect a time limit of about eighteen minutes, paint mental pictures through multisensory experiences, and stay authentic to the speaker. Gallo argues that the most shared talks combine all three dimensions (Gallo, 2014).

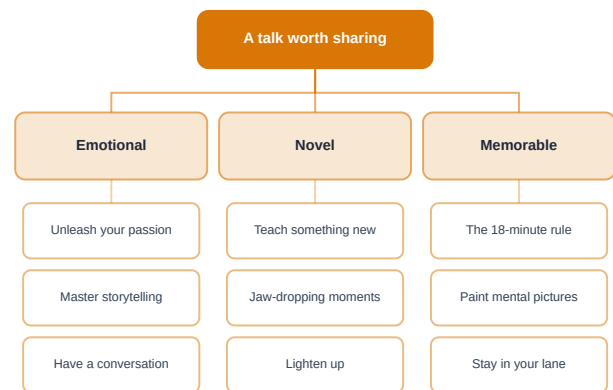
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Carmine Gallo, an American communications coach, former journalist and author of *The Presentation Secrets of Steve Jobs*, developed the nine techniques by analysing hundreds of popular TED talks and interviewing speakers and researchers. His work draws on the TED organisation's own coaching practice, which its curator Chris Anderson later set out in the official TED guide to public speaking (Gallo, 2014; Anderson, 2016).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

TED talks demonstrated that complex ideas from science, business and design could reach mass audiences when presented well, yet most professional presentations remained dense and forgettable. Gallo set out to identify what the most shared talks had in common and to turn those patterns into techniques that ordinary presenters could practise, shifting attention from slide content to emotional connection, novelty and memorability.

FIGURE 1 · NINE SECRETS, THREE DIMENSIONS



Touch the heart, surprise the mind, leave something that lasts

Figure 1. Nine techniques grouped into three dimensions. Gallo argues the most shared talks combine all three rather than excelling at one (Gallo, 2014).

HOW IT IS USED

Audit a draft talk against all nine techniques, strengthen the weakest dimension first, rehearse aloud until delivery sounds conversational, and cut to the time limit.

WHEN IT IS USED

When preparing a keynote, investor pitch, conference talk or any presentation where the aim is to inspire an audience and be remembered afterwards, not only to inform it.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Founders pitching to investors, leaders addressing large internal audiences at town halls, academics presenting research to non-specialists, and students preparing assessed presentations and competition pitches.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Classical public-speaking training focused on delivery mechanics such as posture, voice and eye contact. Gallo reorganised advice around the audience's experience: feeling, surprise and recall. The caveats are real. The techniques are inferred from successful, highly edited talks, which invites survivorship bias; the eighteen-minute rule rests on thin evidence; and the TED format suits inspirational talks better than technical briefings or decision meetings.

Human Edge · AI can script a TED-style talk, but passion, lived stories and conversational presence on stage can only come from you.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Story Structure Arc · [Slibrary 9](#)

Executive Presence · [Slibrary 10](#)

Mehrabian 7-38-55 — and Its Misuse · [Slibrary 10](#)

Cialdini's Principles of Influence · [Slibrary 14](#)

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Assertion–Evidence Slide Design

SLIBRARY 08
SHEET 3 / 5

A sentence headline making a claim, supported by a visual — not bullets

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The assertion–evidence approach replaces the conventional slide of a topic phrase above bullet points with two components: a full-sentence headline stating the single claim the slide makes, and visual evidence such as a photograph, diagram, chart or equation supporting it. Explanatory words that are not part of the headline are spoken rather than displayed. The design follows evidence that text read and heard at the same time competes for the same verbal channel and reduces comprehension (Alley, 2013; Mayer, 2009).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Michael Alley, professor of engineering communication at Pennsylvania State University, developed and tested the approach with colleagues, including Kathryn Neeley and Joanna Garner, from the late 1990s onwards. Its theoretical basis is Richard Mayer's cognitive theory of multimedia learning, in particular the redundancy and multimedia principles, which have been demonstrated repeatedly under controlled conditions (Mayer, 2009; Alley and Neeley, 2005; Garner and Alley, 2013).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Alley's work began from a practical failure in engineering and scientific communication: audiences retained little from technically sound presentations built on default software templates. The mechanism identified is redundancy. An audience reading a bullet while hearing a spoken version of it processes both through the verbal channel and does neither well. Comparative studies report better comprehension and retention with sentence headlines and visual evidence than with topic-and-bullet slides.

FIGURE 1 · THE DEFAULT SLIDE AND THE ALTERNATIVE

Topic–subtopic	Assertion–evidence
the software default	Alley's alternative
● Headline is a topic phrase	● Headline is a full sentence
● Body is a bullet list	● Body is visual evidence
● Audience must infer the claim	● One claim per slide
● Reading competes with listening	● Explanation is spoken, not shown

The headline carries the claim; the body carries the proof

Figure 1. A topic phrase leaves the claim to be inferred; a sentence headline states it and frees the body for evidence rather than text (Alley, 2013).

HOW IT IS USED

Write each headline as a full sentence of no more than two lines stating what the slide proves, then choose the single visual that demonstrates it. Everything else is said, not shown.

WHEN IT IS USED

When preparing technical, analytical or research presentations, when a talk must be understood and remembered, and when slides have become speaker notes projected for the audience to read.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Engineers, scientists and analysts presenting findings, consultants presenting recommendations to clients, educators designing lecture slides for large classes, and students presenting research, case analyses or project results.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The topic-and-bullet layout is inherited from presentation software defaults rather than from research on comprehension, and it obliges the audience to infer the claim. Assertion–evidence states the claim and supplies evidence, with support from controlled studies rather than preference. The costs are preparation time, the need for good visuals, and the loss of the deck as a standalone document, a real trade-off where slides are circulated rather than presented.

Human Edge · AI can convert bullets into sentence headlines, but deciding what each slide actually proves, and whether the evidence truly supports it, remains your judgement.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

BLUF — Bottom Line Up Front · [Slibrary 9](#)

Mehrabian 7-38-55 — and Its Misuse · [Slibrary 10](#)

SCQA · [Slibrary 5](#)

Thumbnail Thinking & Slibraries · [Slibrary 16](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Alley, M. (2013) The Craft of Scientific Presentations. 2nd edn. New York: Springer.

Alley, M. and Neeley, K.A. (2005) 'Rethinking the design of presentation slides: a case for sentence headlines and visual evidence', Technical Communication, 52(4), pp. 417–426.

Garner, J.K. and Alley, M. (2013) 'How the design of presentation slides affects audience comprehension: a case for the assertion–evidence approach', International Journal of Engineering Education, 29(6).

Mayer, R.E. (2009) Multimedia Learning. 2nd edn. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Data-Ink Ratio

SLIBRARY 08
SHEET 4 / 5

Maximise the ink that carries information; erase the rest

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The data-ink ratio is the proportion of a graphic's ink devoted to the non-redundant display of data information, calculated as data-ink divided by the total ink used to print the graphic. Tufte's principle is to maximise this ratio within reason: erase non-data ink such as heavy gridlines, borders, backgrounds and three-dimensional effects, erase redundant data ink, and avoid decorative 'chartjunk'. The aim is a graphic in which almost every mark carries information the viewer needs (Tufte, 1983).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Edward R. Tufte, a statistician and political scientist, then professor at Yale University, set out the principle in *The Visual Display of Quantitative Information*, which he self-published through Graphics Press in 1983. The book became a foundation of information design, and the principle has been extended for business dashboards and reports by practitioners such as Stephen Few (Tufte, 1983; Few, 2012).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Tufte observed that published statistical graphics, in newspapers, reports and later in spreadsheet software, were often cluttered with ornament that obscured the numbers or distorted them. He wanted a simple test that designers could apply to any chart: how much of what is drawn actually represents data? By making the answer measurable, even roughly, the ratio gives a disciplined reason for deleting decoration rather than a matter of taste.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE RULES FOR DATA INK

Show the data	above all else
Maximise data-ink	within reason
Erase non-data ink	frames, grids, 3-D, shading
Erase redundant ink	say each value once
Revise and edit	then look again

Every mark should earn its place by carrying information

Figure 1. Tufte's five principles of data graphics, applied in order from the governing aim to the final edit (Tufte, 1983).

HOW IT IS USED

Take a draft chart and remove one element at a time, such as borders, gridlines, legends or shading, asking after each deletion whether any information was lost. Keep only what carries meaning.

WHEN IT IS USED

When designing charts and tables for slides, reports and dashboards, and when reviewing software-default or AI-generated graphics before they reach a decision-making audience or are published externally.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Analysts and consultants building charts, researchers preparing figures for publication, dashboard and report designers, journalists, and presenters turning raw spreadsheet output into clear slides for managers.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier graphic practice treated decoration as harmless or even attractive, and spreadsheet defaults made clutter easy. Tufte offered a measurable principle in its place. The caveats matter: the ratio is hard to compute precisely, and experiments suggest that some embellishment can improve long-term memorability without harming accuracy (Bateman et al., 2010). Maximise the ratio 'within reason' rather than to the point of stripping context an audience needs.

Human Edge · AI can generate and declutter a chart in seconds, but deciding which data point is the story and which ink the audience genuinely needs is human judgement.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Thumbnail Thinking & Slibraries · [Slibrary 16](#)

The 7 Cs of Communication · [Slibrary 9](#)

The Cognitive Bias Quartet · [Slibrary 6](#)

The Gantt Chart · [Slibrary 11](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Tufte, E.R. (1983) *The Visual Display of Quantitative Information*. Cheshire, CT: Graphics Press.

Few, S. (2012) *Show Me the Numbers: Designing Tables and Graphs to Enlighten*. 2nd edn. Burlingame, CA: Analytics Press.

Bateman, S. et al. (2010) 'Useful junk? The effects of visual embellishment on comprehension and memorability of charts', *Proceedings of the SIGCHI Conference on Human Factors in Computing Systems (CHI '10)*. New York: ACM.

The Yerkes–Dodson Nerve Curve

SLIBRARY 08
SHEET 5 / 5

Performance peaks at moderate arousal, then collapses

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Yerkes–Dodson principle describes an inverted-U relationship between arousal and performance. As arousal rises from low levels, performance improves; beyond a moderate optimum it declines, and the optimum falls lower as tasks become more complex. For presenters, some nervous energy sharpens attention while excessive anxiety impairs memory and delivery. The practical response is not to eliminate arousal but to interpret it productively, for example by reappraising anxiety as excitement (Yerkes and Dodson, 1908; Brooks, 2014).

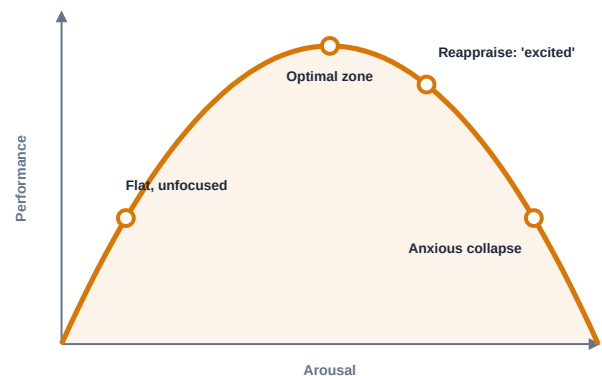
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Robert M. Yerkes and John D. Dodson, psychologists at Harvard University, published the original study in 1908. It tested how strongly mice needed to be shocked to learn a visual discrimination, not human arousal. The general inverted-U for human arousal and performance is a later generalisation by other researchers, and Alison Wood Brooks at Harvard Business School added the reappraisal intervention in 2014 (Teigen, 1994; Brooks, 2014).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Yerkes and Dodson wanted to know how the strength of a stimulus affects the speed of learning. They found that for difficult discriminations, intermediate shock produced faster learning than weak or strong shock. The later generalisation to human arousal answered a practical question: why does some pressure help performance while too much ruins it? Brooks then asked what performers can actually do about excessive arousal at the moment it occurs.

FIGURE 1 · THE NERVE CURVE



Do not try to calm down; relabel the arousal as excitement

Figure 1. The generalised inverted-U of arousal and performance. The original 1908 study used mice; reappraisal helps performers stay near the peak (Yerkes and Dodson, 1908; Brooks, 2014).

HOW IT IS USED

Before speaking, notice the arousal, say 'I am excited' rather than 'calm down', and name one opportunity in the situation. Rehearsal also lowers the effective difficulty of the task.

WHEN IT IS USED

Immediately before a pitch, presentation, viva, interview or negotiation, and during rehearsal under realistic pressure, so that you learn where your own performance peak lies.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Presenters and candidates preparing to perform, coaches and educators helping students with assessment nerves, and managers calibrating deadlines and pressure so that teams stay challenged.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor advice, to relax, sets a goal performers cannot reach once arousal is high. The inverted-U reframes arousal as useful up to a point, and Brooks' reappraisal changes the label rather than the physiology. Honest limits apply: the 1908 study concerned mice and shocks, the human 'law' is a loose generalisation with mixed evidence, and reappraisal effects are modest and come mainly from short laboratory tasks (Teigen, 1994).

Human Edge · AI feels no stage fright and cannot stand in the room for you; managing your own arousal and presence under pressure is a distinctly human skill.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Growth vs Fixed Mindset · [Slibrary 4](#)

The Four Energy Dimensions · [Slibrary 15](#)

Executive Presence · [Slibrary 10](#)

System 1 / System 2 · [Slibrary 6](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Yerkes, R.M. and Dodson, J.D. (1908) 'The relation of strength of stimulus to rapidity of habit-formation', *Journal of Comparative Neurology and Psychology*, 18(5), pp. 459–482.
 Brooks, A.W. (2014) 'Get excited: Reappraising pre-performance anxiety as excitement', *Journal of Experimental Psychology: General*, 143(3), pp. 1144–1158.
 Teigen, K.H. (1994) 'Yerkes–Dodson: a law for all seasons', *Theory & Psychology*, 4(4), pp. 525–547.

Shannon–Weaver Model

SLIBRARY 09
SHEET 1 / 5

Source · Encoder · Channel · Noise · Decoder · Destination

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Shannon–Weaver model represents communication as a linear transmission. An information source selects a message, an encoder turns it into a signal, the signal travels through a channel where noise may distort it, a decoder reconstructs the message, and it reaches its destination. Noise is any interference between sending and receiving. Weaver's commentary extended the engineering account to human communication by distinguishing technical, semantic and effectiveness problems (Shannon and Weaver, 1949).

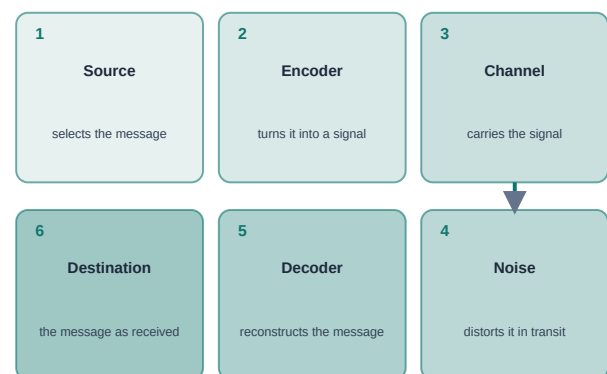
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Claude Shannon, a mathematician at Bell Telephone Laboratories, published the mathematical theory of communication in 1948 to solve a signal-transmission problem. Warren Weaver, director of natural sciences at the Rockefeller Foundation, wrote the interpretive essay published with it in 1949. Weaver extended the model beyond engineering, a move Shannon himself did not make and did not encourage in his own work (Shannon, 1948).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Shannon's problem was the reliable reproduction of a signal at a distance, irrespective of meaning. Weaver's contribution was to observe that the same structure exposes where human communication fails: a message encoded into words that the receiver decodes differently, a noisy channel, or a receiver whose decoding is shaped by a different context. Its enduring teaching value is that it turns noise into a named, addressable component.

FIGURE 1 · SIX ELEMENTS OF A TRANSMISSION



What was sent is not what arrived: locate the break

Figure 1. Six elements in a one-way chain. The model's limitation is its own shape: it has no feedback loop and no shared field of experience (Shannon and Weaver, 1949).

HOW IT IS USED

Locate the failure precisely: was the message poorly encoded, the channel wrong or noisy, or the decoding shaped by a context the sender did not account for? Then fix that element, not the whole message.

WHEN IT IS USED

When diagnosing a communication breakdown, when choosing the channel for a difficult message such as a product recall, and when the same message lands differently with different audiences.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Communication professionals diagnosing failures, managers selecting channels for sensitive news, engineers and analysts designing information flows, and students learning the basic vocabulary of communication theory.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Before Shannon there was no formal account of information transmission; his paper founded information theory and made noise a measurable quantity. The model's weakness is structural: it is linear and one-way, with no feedback and no shared field of experience. Transactional models such as Schramm's therefore superseded it for human communication. In this course it serves as a diagnostic vocabulary, not as a description of how people actually converse (Schramm, 1954).

Human Edge · AI can remove typing errors and translate the words, but only a person can anticipate how a specific receiver will decode the message and what counts as noise for them.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

High-Context / Low-Context · [Slibrary 10](#)

The Ladder of Inference · [Slibrary 6](#)

The 7 Cs of Communication · [Slibrary 9](#)

The Hallucination Risk Ladder · [Slibrary 2](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Shannon, C.E. and Weaver, W. (1949) The Mathematical Theory of Communication. Urbana, IL: University of Illinois Press.

Shannon, C.E. (1948) 'A mathematical theory of communication', Bell System Technical Journal, 27(3), pp. 379–423.

Schramm, W. (1954) 'How communication works', in Schramm, W. (ed.) The Process and Effects of Mass Communication. Urbana, IL: University of Illinois Press.

The 7 Cs of Communication

SLIBRARY 09
SHEET 2 / 5

Clear · Concise · Concrete · Correct · Coherent · Complete · Courteous

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The 7 Cs of Communication is a checklist for evaluating a message before it is sent. The version used in this course asks whether the message is clear, concise, concrete, correct, coherent, complete and courteous. Each criterion targets a common failure: ambiguity, padding, vagueness, error, poor sequence, missing information and disregard for the reader. The checklist originates in public relations practice and has since been adapted in many business-writing variants (Cutlip and Center, 1952).

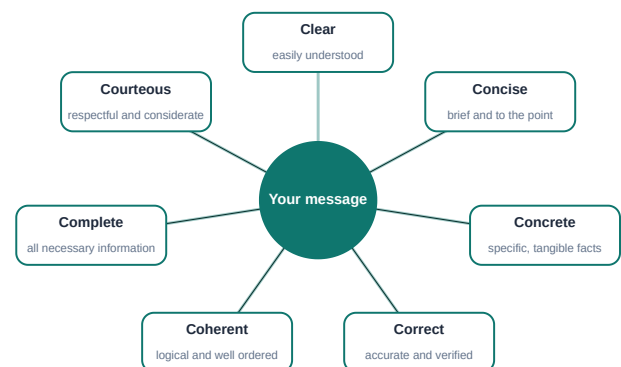
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Scott Cutlip and Allen Center, American public relations scholars, introduced a set of seven Cs in the first edition of *Effective Public Relations* (1952). Their original list addressed public relations campaigns and differed from the version taught today. Business-communication textbooks, notably Murphy and colleagues, later reworked the idea into a writing checklist, and the variant used here circulates widely in professional training (Murphy, Hildebrandt and Thomas, 1997).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The checklist was designed to make message quality inspectable. Writers judge their own drafts by what they meant rather than by what the page says, so a fixed set of criteria forces a second, reader-side reading. Seven short words are easy to remember under time pressure, which is when most poor messages are sent. The list also gives reviewers a shared vocabulary for feedback.

FIGURE 1 · SEVEN CHECKS BEFORE YOU SEND



Plan, draft, review against all seven, then send

Figure 1. Seven criteria applied to one message. The course variant differs from the original public relations list of Cutlip and Center (1952).

HOW IT IS USED

Draft first, then review the message against each C in turn, ideally aloud or with a colleague. Fix the weakest criterion before polishing the others, and use the list to structure peer feedback.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before sending emails, memos and reports, especially messages with legal, financial or safety consequences, such as the Halden Medical recall memo, and when reviewing a draft produced by an AI tool.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Managers, project leads and client-facing staff writing under time pressure, communication trainers and reviewers giving structured feedback, and students preparing written assignments and business correspondence.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier style guidance, such as Strunk and White's rules, addressed sentences; the 7 Cs address the whole message from the reader's side. Their limits are real: the list is a practitioner heuristic without empirical validation, the criteria overlap and can conflict, since concise and complete pull in opposite directions, and several incompatible versions circulate under the same name. Treat it as a review prompt, not a scoring instrument.

Human Edge · AI can check a draft against all seven Cs in seconds, but courtesy and completeness depend on knowing this reader, this relationship and what is at stake.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

BLUF — Bottom Line Up Front · [Slibrary 9](#)The CRAAP Test · [Slibrary 2](#)The Pyramid Principle · [Slibrary 8](#)Prompt Anatomy · [Slibrary 16](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Cutlip, S.M. and Center, A.H. (1952) *Effective Public Relations*. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice-Hall.

Murphy, H.A., Hildebrandt, H.W. and Thomas, J.P. (1997) *Effective Business Communications*. 7th edn. New York: McGraw-Hill.

BLUF — Bottom Line Up Front

SLIBRARY 09
SHEET 3 / 5

Decision first, then context, then detail

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

BLUF, Bottom Line Up Front, places the conclusion, decision or request in the opening sentence, followed by supporting reasons in decreasing order of importance and background last. The structure assumes a reader who may stop at any point, so the most consequential information is never left to the end. It reverses the order in which the analysis was carried out and optimises the message for the reader's attention rather than the writer's sense of completeness (United States Army, 2020).

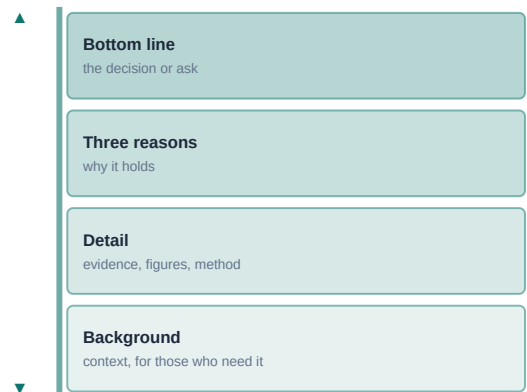
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The convention originates in US military staff writing, where Army Regulation 25-50 requires correspondence to put the main point or recommendation first. Business and government adopted it for executive email and briefings. Jean-luc Doumont, an engineer and communication specialist, gives the principle a systematic treatment in *Trees, Maps, and Theorems* (2009), deriving it from the constraints of attention and memory rather than from convention (Dumont, 2009).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The problem addressed is asymmetric attention. Senior readers give a document a fraction of the time the writer spent on it and read less as it goes on, so a conclusion placed at the end is often never reached. BLUF also has a drafting benefit: a writer who cannot state the bottom line in one sentence has usually not finished the thinking.

FIGURE 1 · INFORMATION IN ORDER OF CONSEQUENCE



A reader who stops after line one still has what they need

Figure 1. Four rungs in descending consequence, the reverse of the order in which the analysis was done (United States Army, 2020; Doumont, 2009).

HOW IT IS USED

Write the draft, then move the conclusion to the first sentence and delete whatever now repeats it. Add three supporting reasons, push detail to the end or an annex, and test by reading only line one.

WHEN IT IS USED

In emails to senior stakeholders, executive summaries, status reports and urgent notices, and whenever the reader has less time than the document requires; adapt the opening for high-context readers.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Anyone writing upward in an organisation, project managers reporting status to sponsors, consultants writing recommendations for clients, crisis and quality teams issuing urgent notices, and professionals whose messages routinely go unread or unanswered.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Narrative and academic conventions build towards a conclusion, which rewards the complete reader and penalises the partial one. BLUF optimises for partial reading, the realistic case at work. The trade-off is genuine: it removes persuasive build-up and can read as abrupt in high-context cultures, as in a recall memo to a Japanese distributor, where relationship framing may need to precede the ask. It suits decisions better than delicate persuasion.

Human Edge · AI can reorder a draft into BLUF instantly, but deciding what the bottom line actually is, and how bluntly this reader can hear it, remains a human judgement.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Pyramid Principle · **Slibrary 8**

SCQA · **Slibrary 5**

The 7 Cs of Communication · **Slibrary 9**

High-Context / Low-Context · **Slibrary 10**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

United States Army (2020) Army Regulation 25-50: Preparing and Managing Correspondence. Washington, DC: Headquarters, Department of the Army.
 Doumont, J.-L. (2009) *Trees, Maps, and Theorems: Effective Communication for Rational Minds*. Kraainem: Principiae.
 Minto, B. (2009) *The Pyramid Principle: Logic in Writing and Thinking*. 3rd edn. Harlow: Pearson Education.

The Storyline Canvas

SLIBRARY 09
SHEET 4 / 5

Plot and character mapped across setup, conflict and conclusion

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Storyline Canvas maps a teaching story on two parallel tracks. The plot track runs beginning, middle and end, carrying tension from the inciting incident to the climax. The character track runs misbelief, insight and understanding: the protagonist first lives out the opposite of the lesson, then collides with the truth, then embodies it. The story is written as setup, conflict and conclusion across both tracks, and the life lesson the character learns is the core message (Bostelaar, n.d.).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Kurt Bostelaar, a designer who publishes visual thinking playbooks through Leverlo, sets out the canvas in *Craft Stories to Teach & Explain*, the companion to his playbook on clarifying the core message. The plot track draws on classical dramatic structure and the character track on the transformation arc of screenwriting craft, although the playbook itself cites no sources (Bostelaar, n.d.).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Bostelaar's sequencing argument is that a story should be built only after the message has been distilled, because a story written first will communicate whatever it happens to contain. The canvas prevents the common failure of an anecdote that is engaging but teaches nothing: if the character does not begin with a misbelief and end with understanding, no lesson has been transmitted.

FIGURE 1 · TWO TRACKS, THREE ACTS



Clarify the message first; only then build the story

Figure 1. Plot above, character below, read column by column as setup, conflict and conclusion. The character track carries the message (Bostelaar, n.d.).

HOW IT IS USED

Start from the core message and reverse-engineer the character track: misbelief, insight, understanding. Then design plot events that force each shift, and write the story last as setup, conflict and conclusion.

WHEN IT IS USED

When preparing a teaching case, an opening anecdote, a change announcement or any explanation that must be remembered and retold rather than merely understood, and when a draft story entertains but teaches nothing.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Educators building narrative teaching material, leaders communicating change to their teams, consultants explaining a recommendation to clients, and presenters or students opening with a story that has to earn its place.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Storytelling advice usually supplies a plot template and leaves the lesson to emerge, producing memorable stories with no reliable teaching function. The canvas separates character transformation from plot and requires the message to be fixed before either is designed. Its limits: it is a practitioner design tool, not an empirically tested method, and it assumes a single protagonist and a single lesson, which suits short explanatory stories better than complex cases.

Human Edge · AI can fill every cell of the canvas fluently, but choosing a true, relevant character and a lesson the audience genuinely needs is human work.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Story Structure Arc · **Slibrary 9**

Distil · Decompose · Prioritise · **Slibrary 7**

StoryBrand SB7 · **Slibrary 7**

Talk Like TED — Nine Secrets · **Slibrary 8**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Bostelaar, K. (n.d.) *Playbook: Craft Stories to Teach & Explain*. Leverlo.
 Bostelaar, K. (n.d.) *Playbook: Clarify Your Core Message*. Leverlo.
 Freytag, G. (1863) *Die Technik des Dramas*. Leipzig: Hirzel.

Story Structure Arc

SLIBRARY 09
SHEET 5 / 5

Inciting incident → point of no return → crisis → climax

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Story Structure Arc is the plot storyline beneath a teaching story. Tension is introduced in the beginning; at the inciting incident the character first engages with the complication; at the point of no return there is no going back to a world without it; at the crisis its impact is felt deeply and resolution seems hopeless; the climax is the do-or-die event that resolves it. Every plot point must tie to this single storyline (Bostelaar, n.d.).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Kurt Bostelaar presents the arc in his Leverlo playbook Craft Stories to Teach & Explain as the plot storyline of the Storyline Canvas. The underlying shape is much older: Gustav Freytag's 1863 pyramid of dramatic action, and the screenwriting vocabulary of inciting incident, crisis and climax popularised by Robert McKee. The playbook does not cite these sources (Freytag, 1863; McKee, 1997).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The arc addresses the two broken plot patterns the playbook names: the monologue, a flat litany of details with no complication, and the hollow plot, a beginning and an end with no middle. Without rising tension an audience has no reason to keep listening. Naming four turning points gives the storyteller checkpoints for building and releasing tension deliberately rather than by instinct.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR TURNING POINTS OF TENSION



No complication, no plot: every point ties to one storyline

Figure 1. Tension is introduced, builds through four turning points and is resolved after the climax (Bostelaar, n.d.; after Freytag, 1863).

HOW IT IS USED

Name the complication, then place the four turning points on it. Raise tension deliberately through uncertainty, obstacles, stakes, competing forces, time pressure or withheld information, and cut any event not tied to the storyline.

WHEN IT IS USED

When a case study, pitch or change story feels flat, when an explanation is a list of facts with no problem at its centre, and when rehearsing a narrative opening for a presentation.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Presenters, trainers and case writers, leaders telling change stories to their organisations, entrepreneurs pitching to investors, marketers building campaigns, and students preparing narrative presentations or role-play scenarios.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Freytag's pyramid described the five-act structure of classical drama, with a symmetrical rise and fall. The arc used here adapts screenwriting practice for short business stories: the rise is long, the fall is brief, and the turning points are defined by what happens to the character. Limits: it is a craft convention, not a tested model of persuasion, and forcing every message into a crisis-and-climax shape can dramatise matters that need plain reporting.

Human Edge · AI can generate a technically complete arc on demand, but judging which real tension will move this audience, and when drama is inappropriate, is a human call.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

[The Storyline Canvas · Slibrary 9](#)
[SCQA · Slibrary 5](#)
[The Yerkes–Dodson Nerve Curve · Slibrary 8](#)
[StoryBrand SB7 · Slibrary 7](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Bostelaar, K. (n.d.) Playbook: Craft Stories to Teach & Explain. Leverlo.

Freytag, G. (1863) Die Technik des Dramas. Leipzig: Hirzel.

McKee, R. (1997) Story: Substance, Structure, Style and the Principles of Screenwriting. New York: ReganBooks.

Hofstede's Cultural Dimensions

SLIBRARY 10
SHEET 1 / 5

Six dimensions of national cultural variation in the workplace

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Hofstede's framework describes national cultures on six dimensions: power distance, the acceptance of unequal power; individualism versus collectivism; masculinity versus femininity, the pull between achievement and caring; uncertainty avoidance, the tolerance of ambiguity; long-term versus short-term orientation; and indulgence versus restraint. Countries receive comparative scores from 0 to about 100 on each dimension. The scores are national averages and carry no implication about any individual member of that culture (Hofstede, Hofstede and Minkov, 2010).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Geert Hofstede, a Dutch social psychologist, derived the first four dimensions from an attitude survey of more than one hundred thousand IBM employees in some seventy countries between 1967 and 1973. Long-term orientation was added with Michael Harris Bond from the Chinese Value Survey, and indulgence with Michael Minkov from World Values Survey data. Gert Jan Hofstede co-authored the 2010 edition (Hofstede, Hofstede and Minkov, 2010).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Hofstede's data showed that IBM employees doing similar work under shared corporate policies answered systematically differently by country, which suggested that national culture shaped workplace behaviour independently of the organisation and its management practices. The dimensions gave international management its first quantified comparative vocabulary, replacing anecdote and personal impression with something that could be measured, compared across countries and tested by other researchers.

FIGURE 1 · SIX DIMENSIONS OF NATIONAL CULTURE

Power distance	flat ↔ hierarchical
Individualism	group first ↔ self first
Masculinity	caring ↔ achievement
Uncertainty avoidance	ambiguity ok ↔ needs rules
Long-term orientation	tradition ↔ pragmatic future
Indulgence	restraint ↔ gratification

Country averages: a hypothesis about a context, never a person

Figure 1. Six continuous dimensions on which national averages differ. Variation within countries is large on every one (Hofstede, Hofstede and Minkov, 2010).

HOW IT IS USED

Compare the scores of the countries involved to anticipate friction, for instance around hierarchy, directness, rules or deadlines. Treat the result as a hypothesis, then verify it with the individuals you are actually working with.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before working in an unfamiliar national context, when preparing cross-border communication such as a recall notice, when a multinational team misreads intent, and when designing policy for several countries.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

International managers and HR professionals designing global policies, negotiators preparing for foreign counterparts, researchers in cross-cultural management, and students working in multinational cohorts and project teams.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Cross-cultural management before Hofstede was descriptive and anecdotal, with no systematic way to compare countries. He supplied quantified, comparable dimensions from a matched sample. The framework is criticised on solid grounds: one company's employees, ageing data, nations equated with cultures, and variation within countries that often exceeds the differences between them. Using scores to stereotype individuals is the most common misuse (McSweeney, 2002).

Human Edge · AI can look up and compare country scores instantly, but reading the actual person in front of you, and noticing where they depart from the average, is human work.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Culture Map — Eight Scales · [Slibrary 10](#)High-Context / Low-Context · [Slibrary 10](#)Principled Negotiation — Four Rules · [Slibrary 13](#)The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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The Culture Map — Eight Scales

SLIBRARY 10
SHEET 2 / 5

Communicating, evaluating, leading, deciding, trusting, disagreeing, scheduling, persuading

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Meyer's Culture Map positions cultures on eight behavioural scales relevant to working together: communicating, low-context to high-context; evaluating, direct to indirect negative feedback; persuading, principles-first to applications-first; leading, egalitarian to hierarchical; deciding, consensual to top-down; trusting, task-based to relationship-based; disagreeing, confrontational to avoiding confrontation; and scheduling, linear to flexible time. The scales describe how people typically work together, not what they value. A culture's position is meaningful only relative to another culture (Meyer, 2014).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Erin Meyer, a professor at INSEAD, developed the map from her work with international executive teams and published it in *The Culture Map* (2014), drawing on interviews and surveys with thousands of managers. It builds on Edward T. Hall's concepts of context and time and on the dimensional tradition of Hofstede, but is reworked around observable workplace behaviours rather than underlying values (Meyer, 2014; Hall, 1976).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Meyer's argument is that value-level frameworks tell managers that two cultures differ without telling them what to do on Monday morning. Each of the eight scales was chosen because it generates a concrete practice, such as how negative feedback is phrased or whether a decision taken in a meeting is final. The relative-position rule is central: a culture is direct only compared with another.

FIGURE 1 · EIGHT SCALES OF WORKING BEHAVIOUR

Communicating	low-context ↔ high-context
Evaluating	direct ↔ indirect feedback
Persuading	principles ↔ applications first
Leading	egalitarian ↔ hierarchical
Deciding	consensual ↔ top-down
Trusting	task-based ↔ relationship-based
Disagreeing	confrontational ↔ avoids it
Scheduling	linear ↔ flexible time

Read the gap between two cultures, not either label

Figure 1. Eight scales, each an observable working practice. What matters is the distance between two cultures on a scale, not an absolute position (Meyer, 2014).

HOW IT IS USED

Plot your own culture and your counterpart's on the scales that matter for the task, then adapt on the one or two with the widest gap rather than attempting to adjust on all eight at once.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before leading or joining a cross-cultural team, before giving feedback or delivering bad news across cultures, and when a working relationship deteriorates without any substantive disagreement.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Managers of virtual and international teams, expatriates and relocating professionals, negotiators and key account managers working across borders, and students collaborating in multinational project groups.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Hofstede measured values; Meyer describes behaviours, which is what a manager can actually adjust, and adds the relative-position rule that stops a culture being labelled direct in the abstract. The evidence base is practitioner observation and executive surveys rather than peer-reviewed large-sample research, so the country placements are indicative. It is stronger as a preparation and diagnosis tool than as a source of fixed scores.

Human Edge · AI can place two countries on all eight scales, but noticing that this particular counterpart is an exception, and adjusting in the moment, needs a human.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Hofstede's Cultural Dimensions · [Slibrary 10](#)

High-Context / Low-Context · [Slibrary 10](#)

The Dual Concern Model · [Slibrary 13](#)

DISC Behavioural Model · [Slibrary 3](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Meyer, E. (2014) *The Culture Map: Breaking Through the Invisible Boundaries of Global Business*. New York: PublicAffairs.

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High-Context / Low-Context

SLIBRARY 10
SHEET 3 / 5

How much meaning sits in the words versus in the situation

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Hall's distinction concerns where meaning is located. In low-context communication most of the meaning is carried explicitly in the words, so messages are literal, detailed and designed to be understood without shared background. In high-context communication much of the meaning resides in the setting, the relationship, the status of the speakers and what is deliberately left unsaid, so the same words can carry more, or less, than they appear to (Hall, 1976).

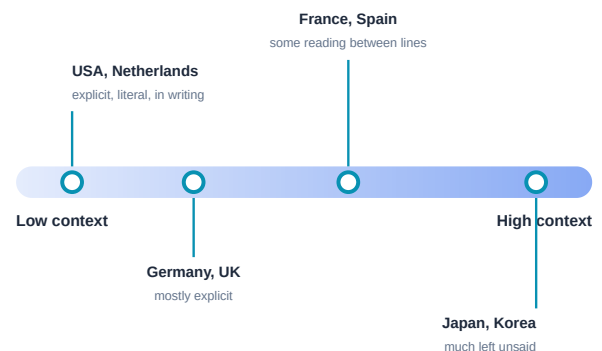
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Edward T. Hall, an American anthropologist who trained US Foreign Service personnel for overseas postings, introduced the distinction in *Beyond Culture* (1976). He had earlier developed proxemics, the study of how people use space, and the monochronic–polychronic account of time in *The Silent Language*. His work, grounded in fieldwork with Navajo and Hopi communities and in diplomatic training, is widely regarded as founding the field of intercultural communication (Hall, 1959).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Hall was addressing repeated diplomatic and commercial failures in which both parties behaved correctly by their own standards. The disagreement was often about how much should be said. Low-context communicators experience high-context partners as evasive; high-context communicators experience low-context partners as blunt and mistrustful. Each reads the other's competence as a flaw of character, and the relationship suffers even though no substantive disagreement exists.

FIGURE 1 · WHERE THE MEANING IS CARRIED



Neither end is clearer; each is clear to those who share it

Figure 1. A continuum from meaning in the words to meaning in the surroundings. Country positions are relative and indicative (Hall, 1976; Meyer, 2014).

HOW IT IS USED

Adjust your own position rather than expecting the other side to: with high-context partners, invest in relationship framing and read what is not said; with low-context partners, state decisions explicitly and confirm them in writing.

WHEN IT IS USED

In cross-cultural negotiation, when a written agreement is interpreted differently, when a counterpart seems evasive or abrupt, and when drafting sensitive messages such as a recall memo to a Japanese distributor.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Negotiators and managers working internationally, writers of cross-border contracts and correspondence, customer-facing and after-sales teams in global firms, and students working in mixed international cohorts.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Transmission models such as Shannon–Weaver treated meaning as residing in the message, so misunderstanding meant noise or poor encoding. Hall relocated part of the meaning outside the message, which explains failures where the words were transmitted perfectly. The distinction is applied to whole cultures and has limited, mixed quantitative support, so it should generate hypotheses about a counterpart rather than conclusions (Kittler, Rygl and Mackinnon, 2011).

Human Edge · AI translates the words accurately, but it cannot sense what a specific counterpart has left unsaid or what the relationship requires before the facts.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Culture Map — Eight Scales · **Slibrary 10**

Shannon–Weaver Model · **Slibrary 9**

BLUF — Bottom Line Up Front · **Slibrary 9**

The Five Core Concerns · **Slibrary 14**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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Executive Presence

SLIBRARY 10
SHEET 4 / 5

Gravitas · Communication · Appearance

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Executive presence is the impression that a person is leadership material, formed by others from how they act, speak and look. Hewlett's model has three components: gravitas, meaning confidence, composure under pressure, decisiveness and integrity; communication, including speaking skill, command of a room and the ability to read an audience; and appearance, which acts mainly as a filter. In her survey data, senior leaders weighted gravitas most heavily and appearance least (Hewlett, 2014).

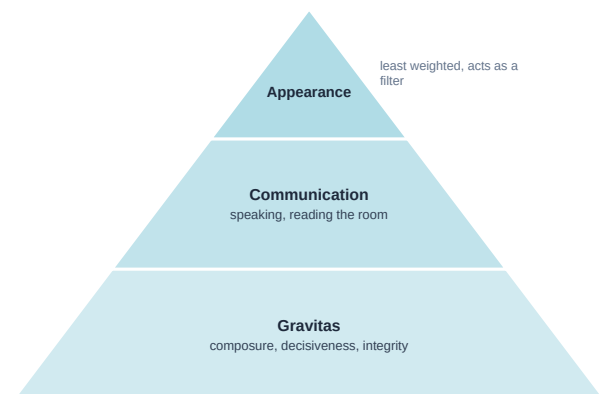
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Sylvia Ann Hewlett, an economist and founder of the Center for Talent Innovation in New York, developed the model from national surveys of college-educated professionals, including senior executives, combined with focus groups and interviews with leaders and their sponsors. She published it in *Executive Presence* (2014), with particular attention to how the criteria affect women and professionals from minority backgrounds (Hewlett, 2014).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Hewlett observed that many high performers were passed over for leadership roles for lacking an undefined quality called presence. Because the criteria were unspoken, those who did not already fit the dominant image found them hardest to meet. The model was developed to make the judgement explicit, to show which signals matter most, and so to make presence something that can be learned rather than assumed.

FIGURE 1 · THREE LAYERS OF PERCEIVED PRESENCE



Presence is granted by observers, not claimed by the speaker

Figure 1. Gravitas forms the foundation and carries most of the judgement; communication and appearance sit on top of it (Hewlett, 2014).

HOW IT IS USED

Ask trusted observers how you come across on each component, work first on gravitas behaviours such as composure and clear decisions under pressure, then on delivery, and treat appearance as a threshold to meet.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before promotions, board or client presentations and high-stakes negotiations, when feedback says someone is capable but not yet seen as a leader, and when delivering bad news such as a product recall.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Emerging leaders and high-potential managers, executive coaches and HR development teams designing leadership programmes, mentors and sponsors giving feedback, and graduate students preparing for leadership-track roles.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier accounts treated presence as innate charisma or, following Goffman, as general impression management. Hewlett decomposes it into weighted, learnable components. The limits are significant: the evidence is survey-based self-report from one national context, the construct is loosely defined, and the criteria can encode existing bias about who looks like a leader. The model describes how presence is judged, not how it should be (Goffman, 1959).

Human Edge · AI can coach delivery and polish slides, but gravitas under pressure and the trust observers grant in the room remain entirely human.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Mehrabian 7-38-55 — and Its Misuse · **Slibrary 10**

The Yerkes–Dodson Nerve Curve · **Slibrary 8**

The Personal Brand Pyramid · **Slibrary 7**

French & Raven's Bases of Power · **Slibrary 14**

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Hewlett, S.A. (2014) *Executive Presence: The Missing Link Between Merit and Success*. New York: HarperBusiness.
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Mehrabian 7-38-55 — and Its Misuse

SLIBRARY 10
SHEET 5 / 5

Words, tone and face — within the narrow conditions Mehrabian actually tested

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Mehrabian's experiments found that when a speaker's words, vocal tone and facial expression convey inconsistent feelings or attitudes, listeners judge the speaker's attitude roughly 7 per cent from the words, 38 per cent from tone and 55 per cent from facial expression. The finding applies only to single-word messages about feelings or attitudes in which the channels conflict. It does not show that 93 per cent of all communication is non-verbal, a claim Mehrabian has repeatedly rejected (Mehrabian, 1971).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Albert Mehrabian, professor emeritus of psychology at the University of California, Los Angeles, ran the underlying experiments in 1967 with Morton Wiener and Susan Ferris, using single spoken words such as 'maybe' and photographs of faces. He combined the results in *Silent Messages* (1971) and has since publicly corrected the popular generalisation, which persists in training (Mehrabian and Ferris, 1967).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

The research question was narrow and legitimate: when channels disagree about how someone feels, which one does a listener believe? The answer, the non-verbal channels, matters for presenters, because delivery that contradicts content will be read through the delivery. The wider myth is instructive in its own right, as a specific finding stripped of its conditions and repeated until it became common knowledge.

FIGURE 1 · WHAT WAS TESTED VS WHAT IS CLAIMED

What was tested	The popular myth
narrow laboratory conditions	conditions dropped
- Single words, e.g. 'maybe' - Feelings and attitudes only - Words and tone in conflict 7% words, 38% tone, 55% face	93% of meaning is non-verbal - Applies to all communication - Content barely matters - Cited without any source

Use it as a consistency check, never as a general ratio

Figure 1. The finding holds only for conflicting single-word messages about feelings; the general 93 per cent claim is a misreading (Mehrabian, 1971; Lapakko, 1997).

HOW IT IS USED

Use it as a consistency check, not a ratio: rehearse until tone and expression match the words, treat any mismatch as the message the audience will actually receive, and challenge the 93 per cent claim when it appears.

WHEN IT IS USED

When rehearsing a high-stakes delivery, when feedback says a message did not feel sincere, when delivering bad news such as an apology or recall, and whenever the 93 per cent claim is cited.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Presenters and negotiators rehearsing delivery, managers delivering difficult news, trainers correcting a widespread misattribution, and students learning to evaluate how research findings are quoted and reused.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Before Mehrabian, the relative credibility of communication channels was asserted rather than measured; he measured it under controlled conditions. The limits are severe: tiny samples, single words, posed recordings and a combined formula from two separate studies. In this course the framework serves a double purpose, as a genuine finding about congruent delivery and as a documented case of a narrow result acquiring a false general claim (Lapakko, 1997).

Human Edge · AI can repeat the 7-38-55 statistic confidently and without its conditions; checking what a study actually tested before quoting it is a human responsibility.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Executive Presence · **Slibrary 10**The CRAAP Test · **Slibrary 2**The Hallucination Risk Ladder · **Slibrary 2**The Five Core Concerns · **Slibrary 14**

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The Iron Triangle

SLIBRARY 11
SHEET 1 / 5

Scope · Time · Cost, constrained by quality

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Iron Triangle states that a project's scope, time and cost are interdependent, so a change to any one requires a compensating change in at least one other if quality is to be held constant. Adding scope without adding time or budget does not produce more output; it produces lower quality or a missed date. The triangle is therefore a negotiating instrument as much as a planning one, because it turns every change request into an explicit choice (Atkinson, 1999).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The three-constraint formulation is attributed to Martin Barnes, who taught it from about 1969 in project-management courses in the United Kingdom, originally as a triangle of time, cost and quality. Roger Atkinson's 1999 paper in the International Journal of Project Management named it the iron triangle and argued that it had become an inadequate definition of project success. Pinto (2019) treats it as the baseline model of project constraints.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Sponsors routinely request additional scope mid-project while holding the date and budget fixed, and project managers accept because the trade-off is never made visible. The triangle makes the arithmetic explicit at the moment of the request rather than at delivery, which converts an unwinnable conversation into a choice the sponsor has to make. When the choice is refused, quality quietly absorbs the difference through skipped testing, thinner documentation and deferred defects.

FIGURE 1 · THREE CONSTRAINTS, ONE HIDDEN VARIABLE



Fix all three sides and quality becomes the variable that moves

Figure 1. Scope, time and cost bound quality. A change to one side must be met from another side or absorbed by the centre (Barnes, 1969; Atkinson, 1999).

HOW IT IS USED

When new scope is requested, answer with the trade-off rather than a yes or no: name what moves in time or cost, record the decision, and let the sponsor choose.

WHEN IT IS USED

At initial estimation, at every change request, and whenever a deadline or budget cap is imposed after the scope has already been agreed with the team.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project managers negotiating with sponsors and steering boards, teams under scope pressure, product owners prioritising a backlog, and clients deciding between competing requests on a fixed budget.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The triangle replaced an implicit assumption that better management could deliver more for the same money in the same time with a stated constraint relationship. Atkinson's own argument is the necessary caveat: meeting the three constraints is not the same as delivering value. The NHS National Programme for IT shows both sides, with scope expanding against fixed political deadlines, yet projects breaching all three have also succeeded commercially, hence later variants adding risk and benefit.

Human Edge · AI can recalculate schedules and costs for each option instantly; deciding which constraint gives, and holding the sponsor to that choice, remains a human act of judgment and accountability.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Probability–Impact Matrix · [Slibrary 12](#)

Principled Negotiation — Four Rules · [Slibrary 13](#)

The Eisenhower Matrix · [Slibrary 15](#)

The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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Project Lifecycle Phases

SLIBRARY 11
SHEET 2 / 5

Initiate · Plan · Execute · Monitor & Control · Close

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The project lifecycle organises project work into five process groups. Initiating authorises the project and identifies stakeholders; planning establishes scope, schedule, cost and risk baselines; executing performs the work and leads the team; monitoring and controlling runs throughout, comparing performance against the baselines and managing change; and closing formally completes the work and captures lessons. The groups overlap in time rather than running in strict sequence, and each phase ends at a gate where continuation is decided (Project Management Institute, 2017).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The five process groups were codified by the Project Management Institute, founded in 1969, and published in successive editions of the PMBOK Guide from 1996. The seventh edition (2021) reframed the standard around principles and performance domains, retaining the lifecycle as a widely used descriptive structure rather than a prescribed sequence. Pinto (2019) and PRINCE2 use closely comparable phase models, which is why the vocabulary travels across sectors and countries.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Project failure was routinely attributed to poor execution, but post-project reviews located the causes earlier, in unclear authorisation, absent baselines and uncontrolled change. The lifecycle gives each of those a named home and an owner. Closing is included as a distinct group for the same reason: without a formal step, projects drift to a stop, resources are never released and the lessons that would protect the next project are never recorded.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE PHASES ACROSS THE PROJECT



Monitoring and control runs alongside every other phase

Figure 1. Five process groups. The fourth is not a separate stage but a continuous activity spanning the others, with a gate decision at each phase end (PMI, 2017).

HOW IT IS USED

Confirm which phase the work is actually in before proposing an action: a scope question during execution is a change request, not a planning discussion, and belongs at a gate.

WHEN IT IS USED

At project start-up, at each phase gate, when a project is proceeding without an agreed baseline, and when work is finishing without a formal close or lessons review.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project managers structuring delivery, sponsors and steering boards deciding at gates, auditors assessing project maturity, and team members seeking to understand where their work sits.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Before codification, project practice was transmitted by apprenticeship and varied between organisations, so failures could not be compared across projects. The process groups supplied a common vocabulary and made certification possible. The criticism is real: the model presumes definable scope up front and suits stable, plan-driven work better than emergent projects, which the seventh edition's principle-based reframing concedes. Gates also fail when, as in the NHS National Programme for IT, nobody is permitted to stop.

Human Edge · AI can draft charters, baselines and status reports for every phase; the gate decision to continue, change course or stop needs a human who owns the consequences.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

SMART Goals · [Slibrary 4](#)OKRs at Personal Level · [Slibrary 15](#)The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)ISO 31000 Risk Process · [Slibrary 12](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Project Management Institute (2017) A Guide to the Project Management Body of Knowledge (PMBOK Guide). 6th edn. Newtown Square, PA: PMI.
 Project Management Institute (2021) A Guide to the Project Management Body of Knowledge (PMBOK Guide). 7th edn. Newtown Square, PA: PMI.
 Pinto, J.K. (2019) Project Management: Achieving Competitive Advantage. 5th edn. Harlow: Pearson.

Waterfall · Agile · Hybrid

SLIBRARY 11
SHEET 3 / 5

Matching method to requirement stability and feedback speed

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Waterfall, agile and hybrid are three families of delivery approach, chosen by how stable the requirements are and how quickly feedback can be obtained. Waterfall completes each stage before the next begins and suits fixed, regulated or safety-critical scope. Agile delivers in short iterations, valuing working output, collaboration and responsiveness to change over following a plan. Hybrid combines a governed, phase-gated outer frame with iterative delivery inside it, which is how most large organisations actually work (Royce, 1970; Beck et al., 2001).

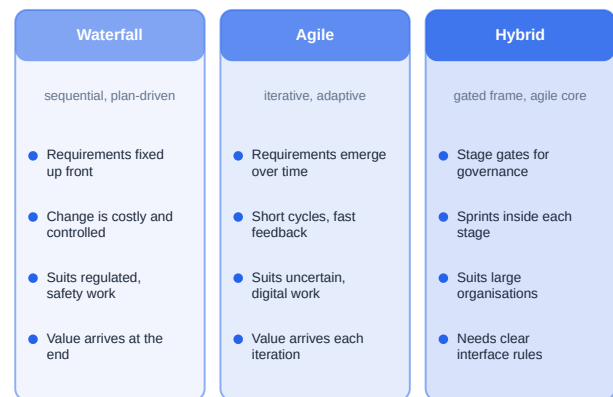
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Winston W. Royce described the sequential model in 1970, while warning that a single pass was risky and recommending iteration; the label waterfall came later. Seventeen practitioners, including Kent Beck, Ken Schwaber and Jeff Sutherland, wrote the Agile Manifesto in Snowbird, Utah, in 2001. Boehm and Turner (2003) and Wysocki (2019) developed the contingency argument that the method should be matched to the project's risk and complexity profile.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Plan-driven methods assumed requirements could be specified in full before construction, an assumption that holds poorly where users discover what they need by using something. Agile methods followed from that insight, but proved hard to govern at scale and in regulated settings. The comparison exists so that teams choose deliberately, placing a project by requirement stability and feedback speed, rather than adopting whichever method is fashionable or already familiar.

FIGURE 1 · THREE APPROACHES, ONE DECISION



Place the project by requirement stability and feedback speed

Figure 1. Three delivery approaches compared on requirements, change, fit and value timing. The choice follows the project's profile, not preference (Royce, 1970; Beck et al., 2001).

HOW IT IS USED

Rate requirement stability, feedback speed and regulatory constraint, then choose and justify the approach explicitly. Record which elements are fixed and which are expected to evolve.

WHEN IT IS USED

At project initiation, when a detailed plan keeps being invalidated by new information, and when an agile team must report into a stage-gated governance structure.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project and programme managers choosing methods, sponsors setting governance, product owners balancing change against commitments, and teams translating between agile delivery and corporate reporting and audit cycles.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The Agile Manifesto challenged plan-driven control based on conformance to a fixed specification, substituting working output and collaboration. The three-way comparison goes further by treating method as a contingent decision. Caveats matter: Royce never advocated a pure single pass, agile is often adopted as ceremony without its values, and hybrid can combine the overhead of both. The NHS National Programme for IT, specified centrally and top-down, illustrates the cost of a mismatch.

Human Edge · AI can generate sprint backlogs and stage plans in either style; judging which approach fits the people, politics and uncertainty of a real project is a human call.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Cynefin Framework · **Slibrary 6**The Double Diamond · **Slibrary 5**The Twenty-Minute Sprint · **Slibrary 15**ISO 31000 Risk Process · **Slibrary 12**

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 Wysocki, R.K. (2019) Effective Project Management: Traditional, Agile, Hybrid, Extreme. 8th edn. Indianapolis, IN: Wiley.

Work Breakdown Structure

SLIBRARY 11
SHEET 4 / 5

Deliverable-oriented decomposition to the work-package level

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

A Work Breakdown Structure is a hierarchical decomposition of the total project scope into progressively smaller deliverables, terminating in work packages small enough to be estimated, assigned to a single owner and tracked. It is governed by the 100% rule: each level contains all of the work of its parent and nothing more, so anything absent from the structure is outside the project. The WBS is the foundation for the schedule, the budget and the RACI Matrix (Project Management Institute, 2019).

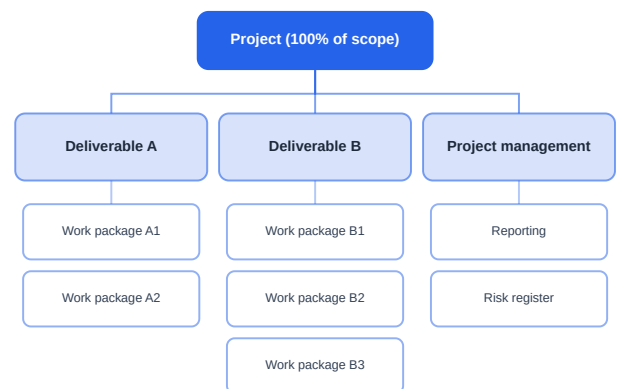
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The technique originated in US Department of Defense and NASA programme management in the early 1960s, alongside the PERT/Cost system. Gregory Haugan, who worked on that guidance, later set out the 100% rule and its practical application (Haugan, 2002). The Project Management Institute published a dedicated practice standard and embedded the WBS in the PMBOK Guide, and it is a core chapter in Pinto (2019).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Large programmes were being estimated as single figures, which made both the estimate and any later variance impossible to interrogate. Decomposition to work-package level makes estimation additive and accountability specific. The 100% rule addresses the other failure mode: scope that nobody explicitly excluded and nobody explicitly owns, which surfaces late as unplanned work and is a common source of the overruns that break the Iron Triangle.

FIGURE 1 · DECOMPOSITION TO WORK PACKAGES



Each level holds all of its parent's work and nothing beyond it

Figure 1. Deliverables decomposed until each work package has one owner and an estimate. Work absent from the structure is outside the project (Haugan, 2002; PMI, 2019).

HOW IT IS USED

Decompose by deliverable rather than by activity, include project management itself as a branch, and stop when each package can be estimated reliably and assigned to one owner.

WHEN IT IS USED

During planning, before estimating cost or duration, before building a Gantt Chart, and whenever a project is running over because of work that was never listed.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project managers building schedules and budgets, teams agreeing who owns what, cost estimators, and sponsors verifying that the full scope has been captured before approval.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Estimating a project as a whole conceals which assumptions the number rests on and makes variance untraceable. Decomposition makes estimation additive, assigns ownership at a usable granularity and gives change control something concrete to act on. Its cost is significant up-front effort and a structure that resists change, which is why agile approaches substitute a rolling product backlog for a fixed breakdown. A WBS also cannot capture scope that stakeholders never articulated.

Human Edge · AI can propose a plausible WBS in seconds; confirming that it truly contains 100% of the scope stakeholders expect, and that each owner accepts their package, needs people.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Distil · Decompose · Prioritise · **Slibrary 7**

First Principles Thinking · **Slibrary 5**

The RACI Matrix · **Slibrary 12**

OKRs at Personal Level · **Slibrary 15**

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The Gantt Chart

SLIBRARY 11
SHEET 5 / 5

Activities against a timeline, with dependencies and float

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

A Gantt chart displays scheduled activities as horizontal bars on a time axis, where bar length represents duration and horizontal position represents start and finish. Dependencies are shown by links between bars, milestones by zero-duration markers, and float by the gap a task can slip without delaying the finish. Activities with no float form the critical path. The chart's main function is communication: it makes the schedule legible to people who did not build it (Gantt, 1919; Clark, 1922).

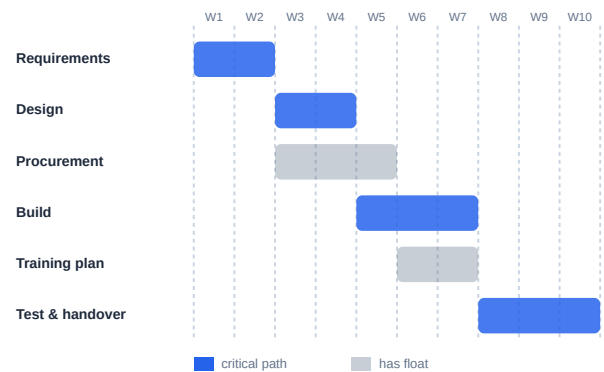
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Henry Laurence Gantt, an American mechanical engineer and associate of Frederick Winslow Taylor, developed his charts in the 1910s for production scheduling and wartime shipbuilding. Wallace Clark's 1922 book spread the method internationally. The Polish engineer Karol Adamiecki had produced a comparable harmonogram in 1896, but published in Polish and remained largely unknown in the West. Dependencies and float were added later with critical path analysis.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Gantt's problem was industrial: work was scheduled in the foreman's head, so delay propagated invisibly and idle capacity could not be seen. Rendering time as horizontal distance makes both visible at a glance. The chart has endured for over a century because of legibility rather than analytical power; it is understood immediately by people with no scheduling training, which few later planning techniques manage.

FIGURE 1 · DURATION AS LENGTH, SLACK AS FLOAT



Critical tasks have no float: a day lost there is lost at the end

Figure 1. Six activities on a ten-week grid. Critical bars form the path with no slack; the others carry float (Gantt, 1919; Clark, 1922).

HOW IT IS USED

Build the Work Breakdown Structure and the dependencies first, then draw the chart and mark the critical path. A Gantt chart drawn backwards from a deadline is a wish, not a schedule.

WHEN IT IS USED

When communicating a plan to sponsors, clients and other stakeholders, when tracking progress against dates, and when coordinating parallel workstreams that share people or resources.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project managers reporting to sponsors and steering boards, teams coordinating dependencies across functions, suppliers aligning delivery dates, and anyone presenting a schedule to a non-specialist audience.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Before the bar chart, schedules existed as lists of dates in which overlap, sequence and slack were invisible. Mapping time to horizontal space made the whole plan readable at once. Its limitations are well known: on its own it does not calculate which delays matter, which critical path analysis was developed to supply, it becomes unreadable on large projects, and a neat chart can lend false confidence to estimates that were never tested.

Human Edge · AI and scheduling software can generate a Gantt chart instantly; whether the durations are honest and the dependencies real depends on human conversations with the people doing the work.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Work Breakdown Structure · [Slibrary 11](#)

The Eisenhower Matrix · [Slibrary 15](#)

The Twenty-Minute Sprint · [Slibrary 15](#)

Data-Ink Ratio · [Slibrary 8](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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 Clark, W. (1922) The Gantt Chart: A Working Tool of Management. New York: Ronald Press.
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The Power–Interest Grid

SLIBRARY 12
SHEET 1 / 5

Manage closely · Keep satisfied · Keep informed · Monitor

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Power–Interest Grid classifies stakeholders on two axes: their power to affect the outcome and their interest in it. High power with high interest requires close management and genuine participation; high power with low interest requires keeping satisfied, since dissatisfaction converts latent power into active opposition; low power with high interest requires keeping informed; and low power with low interest requires monitoring. The grid allocates limited engagement effort by consequence rather than by seniority or habit (Mendelow, 1981).

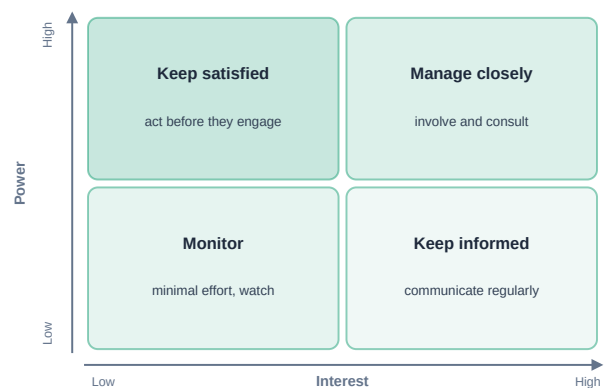
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Aubrey L. Mendelow presented the grid at the 1981 International Conference on Information Systems in Cambridge, Massachusetts, within work on environmental scanning for strategic planning. It sits within the broader stakeholder tradition later associated with R. Edward Freeman's influential 1984 book and is now standard in project-management and strategy texts, including Pinto (2019) and the PMBOK Guide's stakeholder engagement processes.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Organisations consulted stakeholders either uniformly, which is expensive and dilutes attention, or by seniority, which misses influential parties without formal authority. The grid allocates effort by consequence. Its most mishandled cell is high power with low interest: these stakeholders are ignored until something raises their interest, at which point their power is already fully formed. Clinicians in the NHS National Programme for IT were a costly example of such neglect.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR ENGAGEMENT STRATEGIES



Interest can rise overnight; power rarely falls as quickly

Figure 1. Power against interest yields four engagement strategies. The high-power, low-interest cell is the one most often mishandled (Mendelow, 1981).

HOW IT IS USED

List every stakeholder, place each on the grid with evidence for the placement, assign an engagement owner, and re-map at every phase gate because positions move, especially on interest.

WHEN IT IS USED

At project initiation, at each phase gate, before a change programme or major announcement, and whenever an unanticipated objection comes from someone who was not being consulted.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project managers planning engagement and communication, change leaders sequencing messages, sponsors managing their boards and funders, and anyone seeking approval from groups with differing stakes.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Stakeholder theory established that organisations answer to more parties than shareholders but gave no method for allocating limited attention among them. The grid supplies one, using the two variables that determine consequence. Its limitations are that both axes are judged rather than measured, it is silent on attitude, whether supportive or hostile, and it produces a static picture of a shifting field, which is why the deck insists on re-mapping at each gate.

Human Edge · AI can draft a stakeholder list and a first placement from documents; reading real power, hidden interests and trust requires human relationships and political judgment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

French & Raven's Bases of Power · [Slibrary 14](#)

Cialdini's Principles of Influence · [Slibrary 14](#)

Hofstede's Cultural Dimensions · [Slibrary 10](#)

The RACI Matrix · [Slibrary 12](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

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Freeman, R.E. (1984) Strategic Management: A Stakeholder Approach. Boston, MA: Pitman.

Pinto, J.K. (2019) Project Management: Achieving Competitive Advantage. 5th edn. Harlow: Pearson.

The RACI Matrix

SLIBRARY 12
SHEET 2 / 5

Responsible · Accountable · Consulted · Informed

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The RACI Matrix is a responsibility assignment matrix that lists tasks, deliverables or decisions as rows and roles as columns, marking each cell as Responsible (does the work), Accountable (owns the outcome and signs off), Consulted (gives input before the work is done) or Informed (is told afterwards). The central rule is one Accountable per row. Built from the Work Breakdown Structure, it turns a plan into explicit ownership and prevents both gaps and duplicated authority (Project Management Institute, 2017).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The RACI Matrix has no single documented originator. It emerged from responsibility-charting practice in organisational and project management during the second half of the twentieth century and was codified by the Project Management Institute in the PMBOK Guide as a form of responsibility assignment matrix. Pinto (2019) links it directly to the Work Breakdown Structure, and variants such as RASCI add a Supportive role.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Projects fail at hand-offs more often than inside tasks. When two people each believe the other owns a decision, it is not made; when three believe they own it, it is made three times. The matrix makes these assumptions visible on one page before work starts, and exposes overloaded individuals, rows with no Accountable, and decisions where too many people have been consulted to move quickly.

FIGURE 1 · ONE ACCOUNTABLE PER ROW

	Sponsor	Project mgr	Tech lead	Users
Business case	A	R	C	C
Requirements	I	A	C	R
System build	I	A	R	I
User training	I	A	C	R
Go-live decision	A	R	C	C

Scan rows for a single A; scan columns for overload

Figure 1. Five deliverables against four roles, each row with exactly one Accountable. Rows read ownership; columns read workload (PMI, 2017; Pinto, 2019).

HOW IT IS USED

List deliverables from the Work Breakdown Structure, list roles, fill each cell, then check that every row has one A and that no column is overloaded with R.

WHEN IT IS USED

During planning, when a team is formed or restructured, when new suppliers join, when decisions stall or are duplicated, and before a hand-over between phases, teams or suppliers.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project managers assigning work, sponsors clarifying governance and sign-off, cross-functional and multi-supplier teams, and HR or operations leads mapping recurring processes, approvals and decision rights across departments.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Organisation charts show reporting lines but not who decides what on a specific piece of work. The RACI Matrix adds that task-level view on a single page. Its limits are real: it records formal roles, not whether people accept them, heavy Consulted columns can slow decisions, and it cannot resolve accountability that has been deliberately blurred, as in the NHS National Programme for IT, where central and local ownership never aligned.

Human Edge · AI can populate a RACI draft from a project plan; getting a named person to accept the A, and live with it, is a human negotiation about responsibility.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · [Slibrary 16](#)

Work Breakdown Structure · [Slibrary 11](#)

The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)

French & Raven's Bases of Power · [Slibrary 14](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Project Management Institute (2017) A Guide to the Project Management Body of Knowledge (PMBOK Guide). 6th edn. Newtown Square, PA: PMI.
 Pinto, J.K. (2019) Project Management: Achieving Competitive Advantage. 5th edn. Harlow: Pearson.
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Probability–Impact Matrix

SLIBRARY 12
SHEET 3 / 5

Scoring risks to decide what gets attention and what gets accepted

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Probability–Impact Matrix scores each identified risk on its likelihood of occurrence and the severity of its consequence for scope, time, cost or quality, and places it in a coloured grid. The position sets priority and response: high probability with high impact calls for avoidance or substantial mitigation; low probability with high impact for transfer or contingency; and low scores for acceptance under monitoring. Hillson extends the same grid to opportunities, or positive risks (Project Management Institute, 2017; Hillson, 2004).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

The matrix is a standard instrument of formal risk management rather than the work of a single author. Its roots lie in mid-twentieth-century reliability and safety engineering; it is codified in the PMBOK Guide's qualitative risk analysis process and supported by ISO 31000 and IEC 31010. David Hillson's work popularised the double matrix covering threats and opportunities, and Pinto (2019) teaches it as the core qualitative tool.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Risk registers without scoring list every conceivable hazard with equal weight, which gives no basis for allocating limited attention and is routinely ignored. The two-axis score orders the register and attaches a different class of response to each region, rather than a single generic instruction to mitigate. It also gives sponsors a one-page view of exposure that can be discussed at a phase gate.

FIGURE 1 · PROBABILITY AGAINST IMPACT

	Low prob.	Medium prob.	High prob.
High impact	Transfer	Mitigate	Avoid
Medium impact	Accept	Mitigate	Mitigate
Low impact	Accept	Accept	Control

The response differs by region; mitigate is not a universal answer

Figure 1. A three-by-three heat map assigning a response class to each region. Scores are judgments, so the grid triages rather than measures (PMI, 2017; Cox, 2008).

HOW IT IS USED

Identify risks, score probability and impact on agreed scales, place each in the grid, and record the response, a named owner and the trigger that would escalate it.

WHEN IT IS USED

During planning, at every phase gate and status review, and whenever a new dependency, supplier or external constraint enters the project and changes its exposure.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project managers maintaining risk registers, sponsors and boards reviewing exposure, steering committees setting contingency, and teams deciding where reserves of time or money should be held.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Unscored risk lists cannot prioritise and cannot differentiate response; the matrix supplies both from two judgments. Its documented weaknesses are serious: categorical bands compress very different magnitudes, the ordering can invert true expected loss, and the scores are subjective, so it is a communication and triage device, not a quantitative model (Cox, 2008). Optimism bias can keep large risks, such as supplier withdrawal in the NHS National Programme for IT, in the green.

Human Edge · AI can suggest risks and draft scores from past projects; admitting uncomfortable risks, especially political ones, and owning the response remains a human responsibility.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Cognitive Bias Quartet · [Slibrary 6](#)

The Cynefin Framework · [Slibrary 6](#)

The Iron Triangle · [Slibrary 11](#)

The Hallucination Risk Ladder · [Slibrary 2](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Project Management Institute (2017) A Guide to the Project Management Body of Knowledge (PMBOK Guide). 6th edn. Newtown Square, PA: PMI.
Hillson, D. (2004) Effective Opportunity Management for Projects: Exploiting Positive Risk. New York: Marcel Dekker.
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Pinto, J.K. (2019) Project Management: Achieving Competitive Advantage. 5th edn. Harlow: Pearson.

ISO 31000 Risk Process

SLIBRARY 12
SHEET 4 / 5

Establish context → identify → analyse → evaluate → treat → monitor

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

ISO 31000 sets out a generic risk management process applicable to any organisation or project. After defining scope, context and criteria, risk assessment proceeds through identification, analysis of likelihood and consequence, and evaluation against the agreed criteria, followed by treatment. Communication and consultation with stakeholders, and monitoring and review, run continuously alongside every step, with recording and reporting throughout. The process is iterative and is meant to be integrated into decision-making rather than run as a separate compliance exercise (International Organization for Standardization, 2018).

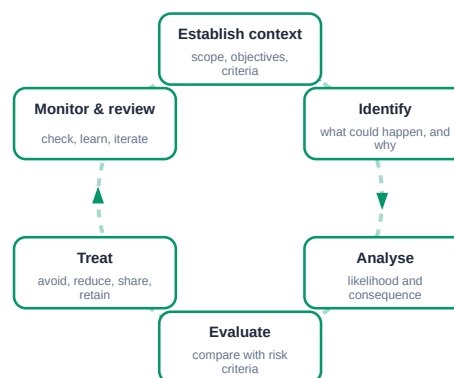
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The International Organization for Standardization published ISO 31000 in 2009, building substantially on the Australian and New Zealand standard AS/NZS 4360. The 2018 revision simplified the text and placed greater emphasis on leadership, integration and continual improvement. It is supported by IEC 31010, which catalogues risk assessment techniques, including the Probability–Impact Matrix, and it is referenced across project-management texts such as Pinto (2019).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Organisations had multiple, incompatible risk vocabularies, with finance, safety, IT and projects each running their own process, so risks could not be compared or aggregated. A common international process allows one language across functions and borders. Its insistence on establishing context first addresses a frequent failure: risks identified without agreed objectives and criteria produce lists that cannot be evaluated, because nobody has decided what the project is trying to protect.

FIGURE 1 · THE ISO 31000 RISK PROCESS



Communication and consultation surround every step

Figure 1. Six steps in an iterative loop, wrapped in continuous communication, consultation, monitoring and review (International Organization for Standardization, 2018).

HOW IT IS USED

Agree objectives and risk criteria first, then run identification, analysis and evaluation with stakeholders, choose treatments with owners, and schedule reviews so the register stays live.

WHEN IT IS USED

At project initiation, at each phase gate, before major commitments such as signing contracts or go-live decisions, and whenever the project's context or objectives change.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Risk managers, project and programme managers, internal auditors, compliance officers, boards setting risk appetite, and public bodies and regulated firms required to demonstrate systematic risk governance to regulators.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The standard replaced sector-specific, often compliance-driven risk procedures with a single principle-based process that treats risk as the effect of uncertainty on objectives, positive or negative. Critics note that it is deliberately generic, not certifiable, and gives little guidance on quantification, so organisations can adopt its vocabulary without changing decisions (Purdy, 2010). Its value depends on genuine consultation, which the NHS National Programme for IT notably lacked with clinicians.

Human Edge · AI can scan documents to identify and analyse risks at scale; setting the context, deciding what level of risk is acceptable and consulting affected people are human responsibilities.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Cynefin Framework · [Slibrary 6](#)

The CRAAP Test · [Slibrary 2](#)

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · [Slibrary 16](#)

The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

International Organization for Standardization (2018) ISO 31000:2018 Risk Management — Guidelines. Geneva: ISO.

International Electrotechnical Commission (2019) IEC 31010:2019 Risk Management — Risk Assessment Techniques. Geneva: IEC.

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The GPM P5 Standard

SLIBRARY 12
SHEET 5 / 5

People · Planet · Prosperity · Process · Products

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The GPM P5 Standard is a framework for integrating sustainability into project management. It extends the triple bottom line of People, Planet and Prosperity with two project-specific dimensions: the Process by which the project is delivered and the Products, or outputs, it leaves behind. Each dimension is broken into elements, such as labour practices, energy, waste and return on investment, against which impacts are assessed and reported over the full lifecycle, from initiation to the product's use and disposal (GPM Global, 2019).

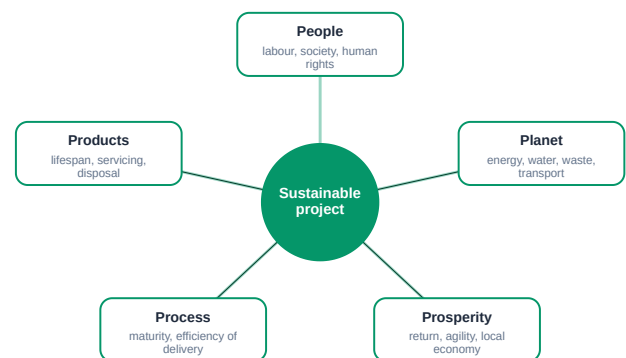
WHO DEVELOPED IT

GPM Global, a US-based professional association for sustainable project management, developed the P5 Standard from the early 2010s, drawing on Elkington's triple bottom line, the UN Global Compact and the ISO 26000 guidance on social responsibility. It is maintained through periodic revisions and supported by the association's PRISM delivery method and certification. Academic work by Silvius and Schipper (2014) has helped establish sustainability as a recognised dimension of project success.

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Conventional project success criteria, time, cost and scope, measure delivery efficiency but not a project's wider social and environmental consequences, many of which occur after handover. As organisations adopted sustainability commitments and reporting duties, project managers lacked a structured way to translate them into project decisions. P5 gives a common checklist and a basis for reporting impacts, making sustainability a project responsibility rather than a corporate slogan.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE DIMENSIONS OF PROJECT IMPACT



Sustainability is assessed across the lifecycle, not at handover

Figure 1. The triple bottom line extended by Process and Products. Each dimension is assessed and reported as a project impact (GPM Global, 2019; Elkington, 1997).

HOW IT IS USED

Run a P5 impact analysis at initiation, set targets for the most material elements, assign owners, and report actual impacts at each phase gate and at closure.

WHEN IT IS USED

When building the business case, when sustainability or ESG reporting obligations apply to the organisation, during supplier selection, and when a project's products will outlast its delivery.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Project managers and sponsors accountable for sustainability goals, procurement and ESG teams, public-sector bodies, and organisations applying the PRISM delivery method or pursuing GPM certification.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The Iron Triangle judges projects on delivery efficiency; P5 widens the success criteria to include social, environmental and economic impacts and explicitly covers products after handover. Limits are worth stating: it is a voluntary standard maintained by one association, its scoring relies largely on self-assessment, and adoption is modest compared with PMI or PRINCE2, so it can become a reporting exercise if not linked to real decisions and budgets.

Human Edge · AI can collect data and draft a P5 impact report; weighing competing values, such as jobs against emissions, and answering for the trade-off is human ethical judgment.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Iron Triangle · [Slibrary 11](#)The Ethical Line · [Slibrary 14](#)Ikigai · [Slibrary 4](#)The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)

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BATNA

SLIBRARY 13
SHEET 1 / 5

Best Alternative To a Negotiated Agreement — your real source of power

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

A BATNA is the course of action a party will take if the present negotiation produces no agreement. It is not a wish or a target but the best of the alternatives actually available, and it fixes the reservation value below which any deal is worse than walking away. Bargaining power therefore derives from the quality of the alternative rather than from size or confidence, and it can be improved before the negotiation begins (Fisher and Ury, 1981).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Roger Fisher and William Ury of the Harvard Negotiation Project introduced the concept in *Getting to Yes* (1981), with Bruce Patton joining as co-author from the second edition. The idea formalises the economic notion of a reservation price, but presents it for practitioners rather than for game theorists, as a question every negotiator can answer before the first meeting (Fisher, Ury and Patton, 2011).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Fisher and Ury observed that negotiators protected themselves with a bottom line, which is arbitrary, rigid and set before the information that should inform it arrives. Anchoring protection in a real alternative addresses both problems: the reservation value is derived rather than invented, and the alternative can be improved, which changes the negotiation itself rather than merely the negotiator's resolve.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR STEPS TO A USABLE ALTERNATIVE



Leverage is prepared before the meeting, not summoned inside it
Figure 1. Four preparatory steps. The second is the one that changes the negotiation, because it alters the real cost of walking away (Fisher and Ury, 1981).

HOW IT IS USED

List the realistic alternatives, improve the best one, and write down the reservation value it implies. Then estimate the other side's alternative, for example what Norlund Biotech loses if Verdana Foods walks.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before any negotiation with material stakes, such as salary, contract or supplier terms, and especially when the other party appears to hold all the leverage, as a sole supplier often does.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Anyone negotiating terms: buyers and suppliers preparing positions, candidates judging how far an offer can be pushed, and managers deciding whether to accept a partner's demand.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor, the traditional bottom line, is a number chosen in advance and defended regardless of what emerges, which loses good deals and blocks learning during the negotiation. BATNA replaces it with a value derived from a real option, making preparation productive rather than merely reassuring. Its limitation is that alternatives are often poorly known, and the other side's BATNA is private, so the calculated reservation value is only as sound as that assessment.

Human Edge · AI can list and cost alternatives quickly; it cannot build the supplier relationship or pilot project that actually improves your BATNA away from the table.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

ZOPA · [Slibrary 13](#)

Principled Negotiation — Four Rules · [Slibrary 13](#)

The Cognitive Bias Quartet · [Slibrary 6](#)

Probability–Impact Matrix · [Slibrary 12](#)

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ZOPA

SLIBRARY 13
SHEET 2 / 5

The Zone Of Possible Agreement between two reservation points

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Zone of Possible Agreement is the set of terms that both parties prefer to their respective alternatives. It is bounded by each side's reservation value, derived from its BATNA. Where the acceptable ranges overlap, a deal is feasible and the negotiation concerns where within the zone it settles; where they do not overlap, no agreement is possible on current terms, and the constructive move is to change the terms or the alternatives (Raiffa, 1982).

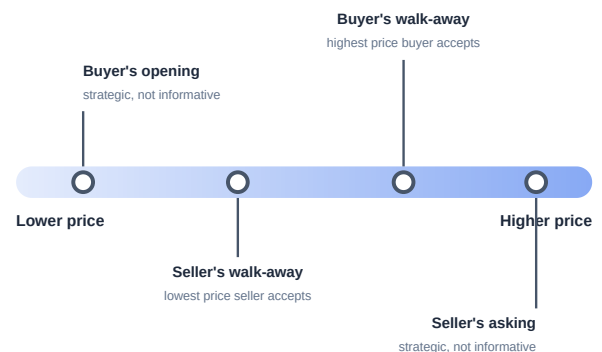
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Howard Raiffa, professor of managerial economics at Harvard and a founder of decision analysis, formalised the bargaining zone in *The Art and Science of Negotiation* (1982). The book brought analytical method to negotiation without reducing it to game theory. The concept descends from the settlement range described by Walton and McKersie and from earlier economic bargaining models (Raiffa, Richardson and Metcalfe, 2002).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Negotiators routinely fail in two symmetrical ways: they walk away from deals that sat inside the zone because the opening positions looked far apart, or they persist for months where no zone existed. Making the zone explicit distinguishes a hard negotiation from an impossible one, which decides whether further effort is an investment or a waste. It also shows where the real work lies: discovering the other side's limit.

FIGURE 1 · TWO RESERVATION POINTS AND THEIR OVERLAP



The ZOPA lies between the two walk-away points, if they overlap
Figure 1. Each party's acceptable range runs to its reservation value. The overlap is the set of terms both prefer to no deal (Raiffa, 1982).

HOW IT IS USED

Estimate both reservation values before opening. If no plausible overlap exists, change what is on the table, such as volume, duration or exclusivity, rather than pressing harder on price alone.

WHEN IT IS USED

During negotiation preparation, when talks have stalled on a single number, and when deciding whether to keep investing time in a deal that may have no feasible outcome.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Negotiators preparing positions, sales and procurement professionals qualifying deals before investing effort, and mediators diagnosing whether a settlement is available at all between two parties.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Positional bargaining, the predecessor, treats the gap between opening positions as the object of negotiation, yet openings are strategic and say little about feasibility. The ZOPA shifts attention to reservation values, which are real. The practical difficulty is that the other party's reservation value is private and must be inferred, so the zone as drawn is always an estimate: useful for diagnosis, unreliable as a precise boundary.

Human Edge · AI can model price ranges from market data; it cannot read the counterpart's hesitation that reveals where their real walk-away point lies.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

BATNA · [Slibrary 13](#)

Distributive vs Integrative Bargaining · [Slibrary 14](#)

The Cognitive Bias Quartet · [Slibrary 6](#)

First Principles Thinking · [Slibrary 5](#)

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Principled Negotiation — Four Rules

SLIBRARY 13

SHEET 3 / 5

People · Interests · Options · Criteria

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Principled negotiation prescribes four rules. Separate the people from the problem, so that the relationship is not traded against substance. Focus on interests rather than positions, since a stated position is only one way of meeting an interest. Invent options for mutual gain before choosing among them. Insist on objective criteria, so that the outcome rests on a standard rather than on whoever concedes last (Fisher, Ury and Patton, 2011).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Roger Fisher, director of the Harvard Negotiation Project, and William Ury, an anthropologist and the Project's co-founder, set out the method in *Getting to Yes* (1981), with Bruce Patton co-authoring later editions. It grew out of the Project's work on international disputes and labour conflicts and became the dominant framework in negotiation teaching in business, law and diplomacy worldwide (Fisher and Ury, 1981).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Positional bargaining produces three predictable costs. It is slow, because movement requires concessions from an arbitrary opening. It damages relationships, because holding a position means resisting the person. And it produces poor agreements, because it never surfaces trades that would benefit both sides. Each of the four rules addresses one of these mechanisms directly, so that efficiency, relationship and quality improve together.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR RULES OF THE HARVARD METHOD

People	soft on people, hard on substance
Interests	ask why they want it, not what
Options	generate first, evaluate later
Criteria	settle on a standard, not on will

Applied together, each rule removes one cost of positional bargaining
Figure 1. Four rules, each targeting one cost of positional bargaining: relationship damage, hidden trades, premature evaluation and arbitrary settlement (Fisher, Ury and Patton, 2011).

HOW IT IS USED

For every demand, write down why each side wants it. In the Verdana Foods case, ask what Norlund's 22% increase protects, then search for options and a market index both can accept.

WHEN IT IS USED

In negotiations that must preserve an ongoing relationship, in multi-issue deals, and whenever a purely positional exchange of offers has stalled on a single figure.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Managers negotiating internally, professionals dealing with clients and suppliers, and anyone who must reach agreement with a party they will continue to work with afterwards.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Before the method, negotiation was treated either as a contest of will or as an appeal to goodwill; the predecessor, positional bargaining, damaged relationships while soft bargaining conceded substance. Principled negotiation separated the two dimensions, making it possible to be firm on substance and workable with the person. Critics note that it presumes reasonable good faith and offers less against a determinedly adversarial counterpart, a gap Ury addressed in later work (Menkel-Meadow, 1984).

Human Edge · AI can generate many options and find objective benchmarks; separating people from the problem requires reading emotion and building trust in the room.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

- BATNA · [Slibrary 13](#)
- The Five Core Concerns · [Slibrary 14](#)
- The Double Diamond · [Slibrary 5](#)
- The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)

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The Dual Concern Model

SLIBRARY 13

SHEET 4 / 5

Competing · Collaborating · Compromising · Avoiding · Accommodating

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Dual Concern Model locates conflict behaviour on two independent dimensions: concern for one's own outcomes, expressed as assertiveness, and concern for the other party's outcomes, expressed as cooperativeness. Their combinations yield five modes: competing, collaborating, compromising, avoiding and accommodating. Each is appropriate in some circumstances, so the diagnostic question is not which mode is best but whether a person can deliberately access all five when the situation calls for it (Thomas and Kilmann, 1974).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Kenneth Thomas and Ralph Kilmann published their Conflict Mode Instrument in 1974, adapting the two-dimensional managerial grid of Robert Blake and Jane Mouton. Dean Pruitt and Jeffrey Rubin developed the same logic as the dual concern model of negotiation strategy, predicting when parties contend, yield, withdraw or solve problems. Together these works give the model its behavioural and negotiation foundations (Pruitt and Rubin, 1986).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Earlier conflict training prescribed a single correct approach, usually cooperation, which fails where speed, safety or principle requires assertion. The two-concern grid replaces prescription with diagnosis. Its practical finding is that most people have a habitual mode used regardless of circumstance, so the development task is widening one's range rather than correcting a single style, and matching mode to stakes, time and relationship.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE MODES ON TWO INDEPENDENT CONCERNS

	Low cooperation	Moderate	High cooperation
High assertiveness	Compete		Collaborate
Moderate		Compromise	
Low assertiveness	Avoid		Accommodate

The development question is range, not which mode is best
 Figure 1. Five modes formed by concern for own and for other's outcomes, with compromising at the midpoint. Each is correct in some situations (Thomas and Kilmann, 1974).

HOW IT IS USED

Identify your default mode, then name a recent conflict where another mode would have served better and rehearse it. Before a negotiation, choose a mode deliberately for each issue.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before a difficult conversation or negotiation, when the same conflict pattern keeps recurring, and when a team handles disagreement badly, escalates it quickly or avoids it altogether.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Managers handling team conflict, negotiators choosing an approach issue by issue, coaches and trainers, and individuals whose conflict behaviour stays the same across very different situations.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor, single-dimension models, placed conflict behaviour on a line from aggressive to yielding, which cannot represent collaborating, high on both concerns, or avoiding, low on both. Two independent dimensions accommodate all five modes. Caveats: the Thomas-Kilmann instrument is self-report and measures preference rather than skill, and its forced-choice format has attracted psychometric criticism, so it works best as a discussion device (Rahim, 1983).

Human Edge · AI can suggest which mode suits a scenario; choosing and switching modes under pressure, with a real person watching, remains a human skill.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Principled Negotiation — Four Rules · [Slibrary 13](#)

DISC Behavioural Model · [Slibrary 3](#)

The Culture Map — Eight Scales · [Slibrary 10](#)

Distributive vs Integrative Bargaining · [Slibrary 14](#)

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The Negotiation Canvas (5W1H)

SLIBRARY 13
SHEET 5 / 5

Who · What · Why · Where · When · How — one page of preparation

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Negotiation Canvas is a one-page preparation instrument that organises negotiation planning around six questions. Who identifies the parties, their mandates and absent decision-makers; What lists issues and priorities; Why records the interests behind each position; Where and When fix setting, sequence and deadlines; How sets the process, planned concessions and walk-away point. It integrates BATNA, interests, stakeholder analysis and ethics on a single page, so that preparation becomes visible, shareable and checkable before the meeting (Haas, 2026).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Dr. Hildegard Haas developed the canvas for MASCO101 at EU Business School, building on her 5W1H Compass for negotiation teaching. It adapts the classic questions of journalism and rhetoric, famously Kipling's six honest serving-men, and fills each with an established negotiation concept: stakeholder mapping, principled negotiation, BATNA, cultural context and ethics. The canvas is used in the course's role plays and in the Verdana Foods negotiation case (Haas, 2026).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Students and professionals typically prepare the number they want and little else, then discover in the room that the wrong person is present, the deadline is theirs alone, or the other side's interest was never considered. A fixed page of six questions makes gaps visible before the meeting, and gives a team a shared document to divide preparation and agree the walk-away point.

FIGURE 1 · THE NEGOTIATION CANVAS (5W1H)



Every empty cell is a question you will face unprepared
Figure 1. Six cells completed before the negotiation, each drawing on an established concept such as BATNA or stakeholder mapping (Haas, 2026).

HOW IT IS USED

Complete all six cells alone, then with your team, before the first meeting. For Verdana Foods, map who at Norlund Biotech can approve alternatives to the 22% increase and when their deadline really falls.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before any planned negotiation, in role plays and case exercises, and whenever a team must agree a shared position and walk-away point before meeting the other side.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

MASCO101 students in class activities, negotiation teams dividing preparation, and professionals preparing supplier, client or employment negotiations who want a structured single-page plan that colleagues can review.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor, the generic 5W1H question list, organises inquiry but says nothing about negotiation; standard checklists, in turn, often cover price and concessions while neglecting mandates and timing. The canvas links each question to a named negotiation concept on one page. As a course-developed instrument it has not been empirically validated, and a completed canvas records assumptions about the other side that must be tested at the table.

Human Edge · AI can pre-fill the canvas from documents and research; judging the counterpart's unstated interests and real mandate requires human conversation and judgement.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

BATNA · [Slibrary 13](#)The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)Hofstede's Cultural Dimensions · [Slibrary 10](#)The Storyline Canvas · [Slibrary 9](#)

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Cialdini's Principles of Influence

SLIBRARY 14
SHEET 1 / 5

Reciprocity · Commitment · Social proof · Authority · Liking · Scarcity

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Cialdini identifies six psychological principles that reliably increase compliance. Reciprocity obliges people to return a favour; commitment and consistency press them to act in line with earlier positions; social proof leads them to follow similar others; authority produces deference to credible expertise; liking increases compliance with people we find similar or agreeable; and scarcity raises the perceived value of what is limited. A seventh principle, unity, was added later (Cialdini, 1984).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Robert B. Cialdini, Regents' Professor Emeritus of psychology and marketing at Arizona State University, derived the principles from laboratory experiments and from extended participant observation inside sales, fundraising and advertising organisations. He published them in *Influence* (1984) and added a seventh principle, unity, based on shared identity, in *Pre-Suasion*. The book has sold millions of copies and shaped marketing, fundraising and negotiation practice worldwide (Cialdini, 2016).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Cialdini's method was deliberately unusual: rather than starting from theory, he trained inside compliance professions to find which techniques had survived commercial selection pressure. The six principles are what remained. His stated purpose was as much defensive as instructive, because recognising a principle being deployed on you is the condition for resisting it. The principles are therefore a map of pressure as well as a toolkit.

FIGURE 1 · SIX PRINCIPLES OF COMPLIANCE



Recognising a principle in use is the condition of resisting it

Figure 1. Six principles established by field observation and experiment. A seventh, unity, was added in 2016 (Cialdini, 1984; Cialdini, 2016).

HOW IT IS USED

Use the principles to make a genuine case easier to accept: give first, cite real evidence of others' behaviour, and state authority accurately. Watch for a counterpart's artificial deadline, a scarcity tactic.

WHEN IT IS USED

When seeking agreement without formal authority, when designing a request or proposal, and when you notice yourself agreeing to something faster than its merits warrant.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Anyone influencing without formal authority, negotiators and salespeople, marketers and fundraisers, and individuals who want to recognise compliance techniques being used on them by others.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor, laboratory persuasion research, examined attitude change under controlled conditions. Cialdini's field immersion identified the techniques practitioners had converged on commercially, adding external validity. Caveats: several classic supporting studies have faced replication difficulties, effect sizes vary widely by context and culture, and the same principles power manipulative design, so each use must be tested against the Ethical Line before it is deployed.

Human Edge · AI can generate persuasive copy using all six principles at scale; deciding whether that use is honest, and spotting it aimed at you, is human judgement.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

French & Raven's Bases of Power · **Slibrary 14**The Ethical Line · **Slibrary 14**System 1 / System 2 · **Slibrary 6**StoryBrand SB7 · **Slibrary 7**

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French & Raven's Bases of Power

SLIBRARY 14
SHEET 2 / 5

Legitimate · Reward · Coercive · Expert · Referent · Informational

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

French and Raven distinguish the bases from which social power derives. Legitimate power rests on a recognised right to require compliance; reward power on the capacity to confer benefits; coercive power on the capacity to impose costs; expert power on recognised knowledge or skill; and referent power on identification with the person. Raven later added informational power, based on control of relevant information, making six bases (French and Raven, 1959).

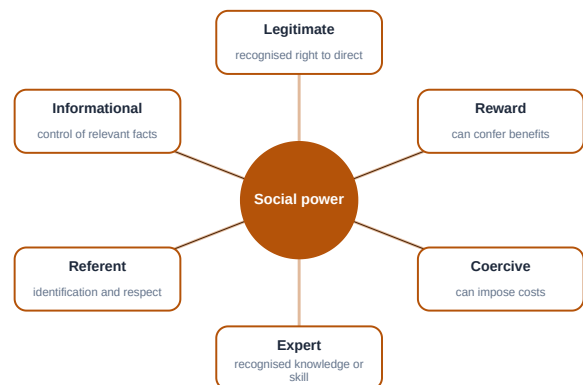
WHO DEVELOPED IT

John R. P. French Jr. and Bertram Raven published the typology in 1959 in *Studies in Social Power*, from the University of Michigan's Institute for Social Research. Raven added informational power as a sixth base in 1965 and refined the model over the following decades into a power/interaction model of interpersonal influence. The typology remains among the most cited in organisational behaviour and leadership research (Raven, 1965; Raven, 2008).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Organisational analysis at the time equated power with position, which could not explain why some junior people were consistently influential and some senior ones were not. Separating the bases explains it: expert, referent and informational power accumulate through work and relationships rather than appointment, and they survive a change of role, which positional power does not. The typology thus gave people without titles a way to analyse and build influence.

FIGURE 1 · SIX BASES OF SOCIAL POWER



Three bases come with a title; three can be built without one

Figure 1. Five bases identified in 1959, with informational power added by Raven in 1965. Only the first three derive from position (French and Raven, 1959; Raven, 1965).

HOW IT IS USED

Audit which bases each party actually holds. Norlund Biotech's sole-supplier status is reward and coercive power; Verdana Foods can answer with informational and expert power built through market data.

WHEN IT IS USED

When influencing people who do not report to you, when entering a new organisation, and when positional authority produces compliance but not genuine commitment from others.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Professionals working across organisational boundaries, project managers without line authority, negotiators assessing relative leverage, and new leaders establishing their standing and credibility in an unfamiliar team.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor view treated power as a single quantity conferred by position, giving no account of influence exercised without it and no development path other than promotion. The typology makes power analysable and, in three of its bases, buildable. Later research finds the bases are not fully independent: coercive use, for example, tends to erode referent power, and relative effectiveness varies across cultures (Raven, 2008).

Human Edge · AI now shifts informational and expert power by making facts cheap; referent power, earned through trust and character, cannot be delegated to a machine.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Cialdini's Principles of Influence · [Slibrary 14](#)The Power–Interest Grid · [Slibrary 12](#)Hofstede's Cultural Dimensions · [Slibrary 10](#)[Executive Presence](#) · [Slibrary 10](#)

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Distributive vs Integrative Bargaining

SLIBRARY 14
SHEET 3 / 5

Claiming value from a fixed pie against creating value first

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Walton and McKersie distinguish distributive bargaining, in which a fixed quantity is divided so that one party's gain is the other's loss, from integrative bargaining, in which differences in priorities are traded to enlarge the total value available. Real negotiations contain both, and the tension is structural: the information-sharing that creates value also exposes a party to the claiming that divides it. Skilled negotiators therefore manage both processes deliberately rather than choosing one (Walton and McKersie, 1965).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Richard E. Walton and Robert B. McKersie, both later at MIT's Sloan School of Management, set out the distinction in *A Behavioral Theory of Labor Negotiations* (1965), based on detailed study of collective bargaining between unions and management in the United States. David Lax and James Sebenius later named the resulting tension between creating and claiming value the negotiator's dilemma (Lax and Sebenius, 1986).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Practitioner advice had polarised between hard bargaining and mutual-gains approaches, each treating the other as naive. Walton and McKersie showed that both processes are present in the same negotiation and require opposite behaviours, one guarded and one open. That reframing explains why single-strategy advice fails: the skill lies in sequencing the two, typically creating value before claiming it, while protecting information that would weaken one's claim.

FIGURE 1 · CLAIMING VALUE AGAINST CREATING IT



Openness enlarges the pie and exposes you while it is divided

Figure 1. Two processes within one negotiation. The behaviour that creates value also makes claiming easier for the other side (Walton and McKersie, 1965).

HOW IT IS USED

Add issues before dividing them. In the Verdana Foods case, move beyond the 22% price demand to volume, contract length and payment terms, trade across differing priorities, and settle price last.

WHEN IT IS USED

In any multi-issue negotiation, when talks are deadlocked on one number, and when preparing to negotiate with a supplier, client or colleague you will deal with repeatedly.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Negotiators preparing strategy, procurement and sales professionals structuring complex deals, union and management representatives in collective bargaining, and managers resolving resource disputes between teams or departments.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor, classical bargaining theory, modelled negotiation as purely distributive, which made every concession a loss and every negotiation adversarial by construction. Adding the integrative process made value creation a legitimate object of strategy. The model has no general solution to the dilemma it describes: it names the trade-off between openness and exposure, and the right balance depends on trust, repetition and power.

Human Edge · AI can search many issue packages for joint gains; judging how much to reveal, and whether this counterpart will reciprocate, stays with the negotiator.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

ZOPA · Slibrary 13

Principled Negotiation — Four Rules · Slibrary 13

The Dual Concern Model · Slibrary 13

First Principles Thinking · Slibrary 5

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The Five Core Concerns

SLIBRARY 14
SHEET 4 / 5

Appreciation · Affiliation · Autonomy · Status · Role

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Five Core Concerns framework treats emotions in negotiation as something to be managed through their causes rather than suppressed. Five concerns underlie most emotional reactions: appreciation, being understood and valued; affiliation, being treated as a colleague; autonomy, the freedom to decide; status, recognised standing; and role, a fulfilling part to play. Meeting these concerns in oneself and the other party generates emotions that support agreement (Fisher and Shapiro, 2005).

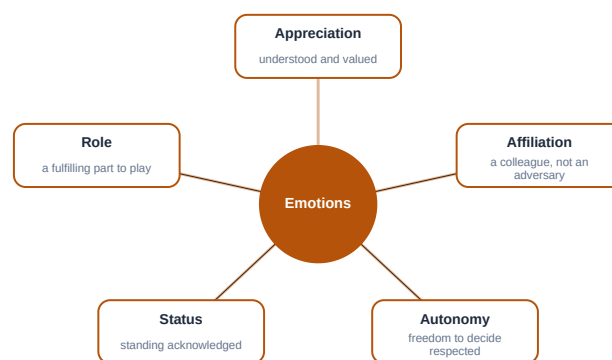
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Roger Fisher, co-author of *Getting to Yes*, and Daniel Shapiro, a psychologist and founder of the Harvard International Negotiation Program, developed the framework in *Beyond Reason* (2005). It extended the Harvard Negotiation Project's work from interests to emotions, and Shapiro later applied it to identity-based conflict in *Negotiating the Nonnegotiable*. The framework is taught widely in executive education and mediation training (Shapiro, 2016).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Principled negotiation advised separating the people from the problem, but negotiators found that emotions could not simply be set aside and that attempts to suppress them failed. Tracking every emotion in real time is impossible. Fisher and Shapiro therefore focused on five underlying concerns that are few enough to remember and can be addressed deliberately, before and during a negotiation.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE CORE CONCERNS



Address the concern and the emotion follows

Figure 1. Five concerns that generate most emotions in negotiation. Each can be used as a lens to diagnose and as a lever to act (Fisher and Shapiro, 2005).

HOW IT IS USED

Before the meeting, note which concerns are at risk for each side. Acknowledge the other side's expertise, consult before deciding, and offer them a meaningful role in shaping the solution.

WHEN IT IS USED

In emotionally charged or relationship-critical negotiations, when talks stall for no apparent substantive reason, and when repairing a working relationship after a difficult or heated exchange.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Negotiators and mediators, managers handling conflict within teams, leaders during change, and anyone negotiating with a partner, client or colleague they must continue to work with.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor, principled negotiation, treated emotion mainly as an obstacle to separate from the problem. The core concerns turn emotion into a manageable resource, with five lenses that are simple enough to use in the moment. The framework is practitioner-derived rather than empirically validated, the concerns overlap, and the weight given to status or autonomy varies considerably across cultures, so the lenses need local calibration.

Human Edge · AI can remind you which concerns are at stake; making a counterpart genuinely feel appreciated and respected requires authentic human presence.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Principled Negotiation — Four Rules · [Slibrary 13](#)The Johari Window · [Slibrary 3](#)The Culture Map — Eight Scales · [Slibrary 10](#)[Executive Presence · Slibrary 10](#)

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The Ethical Line

SLIBRARY 14
SHEET 5 / 5

Where competitive tactics end and deception begins

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Ethical Line places bargaining tactics on a scale from those most negotiators accept, such as inflated opening demands and concealing one's walk-away point, to those most judge unethical, such as misrepresenting facts, making false promises or gathering information improperly. Survey evidence shows broad agreement at the ends and genuine disagreement in the middle. The course extends the scale to undisclosed AI use in live negotiation (Lewicki and Robinson, 1998).

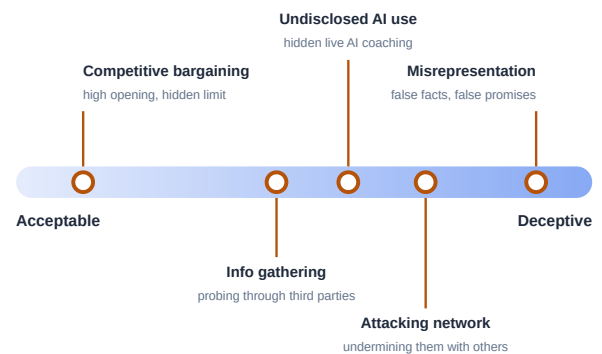
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Roy Lewicki of Ohio State University and Robert Robinson of Harvard Business School surveyed business students and executives on the acceptability of bargaining tactics and published the results in 1998. With Donahue they refined the categories into the SINS scale of self-reported inappropriate negotiation strategies, which remains a standard instrument in negotiation ethics research and in negotiation courses (Robinson, Lewicki and Donahue, 2000).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Negotiation teaching accepted that some strategic concealment is part of bargaining, yet offered little guidance on where legitimate competitiveness ends. Asking which tactics people actually regard as acceptable produced an empirical map rather than an abstract rule. It lets negotiators see which moves their counterpart is likely to consider fair and which will destroy trust and reputation if they are discovered.

FIGURE 1 · FROM ACCEPTABLE TO DECEPTIVE



Decide where your line sits before the pressure of the room

Figure 1. Tactic categories ordered by perceived acceptability, with undisclosed AI use placed on the same scale by this course (Lewicki and Robinson, 1998; Robinson, Lewicki and Donahue, 2000).

HOW IT IS USED

Before negotiating, mark which tactic categories you will use and which you refuse, and agree this within the team. Test each move: would it survive the counterpart discovering it?

WHEN IT IS USED

When preparing any competitive negotiation, when a counterpart's claims seem too convenient to be true, and when deciding whether and how to disclose AI support.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Negotiators and negotiation teams, managers and compliance officers setting standards for sales and procurement staff, and professionals using AI tools during live client or supplier talks.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor, rule-based business ethics, listed prohibited practices without evidence on how negotiators actually judge tactics. Lewicki and Robinson replaced this with an empirical scale showing where consensus exists and where it does not. Caveats: the data are self-reported perceptions, largely from student and Western samples, and acceptability varies by culture and relationship. The placement of undisclosed AI use is the course's judgement, not their finding.

Human Edge · AI can coach you live and draft persuasive claims; only you can decide what you will disclose and where honest competition turns into deception.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

Cialdini's Principles of Influence · [Slibrary 14](#)

The AI Disclosure Ladder · [Slibrary 2](#)

The Attribution & Integrity Ladder · [Slibrary 16](#)

The Culture Map — Eight Scales · [Slibrary 10](#)

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The Eisenhower Matrix

SLIBRARY 15
SHEET 1 / 5

Urgent × Important — do, schedule, delegate, delete

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Eisenhower Matrix sorts tasks on two independent axes: importance, meaning contribution to a stated objective, and urgency, meaning proximity of a deadline. Important and urgent work is done now; important but not urgent work is scheduled, because planning, prevention and development live there; urgent but unimportant work is delegated; and work that is neither is deleted. The matrix exists because urgency is felt immediately while importance is only recognised on reflection, so without a rule the loudest task wins (Covey, 1989).

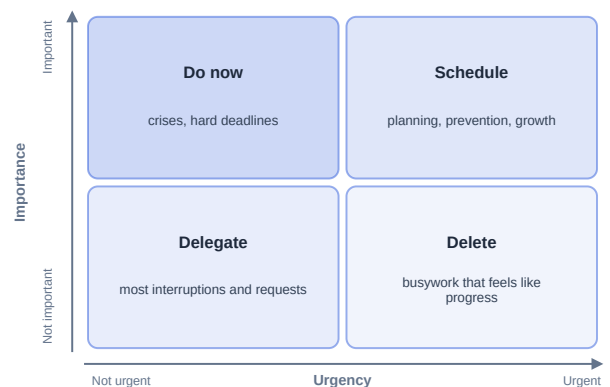
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The distinction is attributed to Dwight D. Eisenhower, who in a 1954 address quoted a university president's remark that the urgent is seldom important and the important seldom urgent. Stephen R. Covey turned the remark into the four-quadrant time-management matrix in *The 7 Habits of Highly Effective People* (1989) and developed quadrant two further in *First Things First* (Covey, Merrill and Merrill, 1994).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Covey observed that people manage time against demands rather than against objectives, so attention goes to whatever signals urgency most loudly. Important work without a deadline generates no signal and is therefore deferred indefinitely. The matrix makes that pattern visible, which is why its real subject is the important-but-not-urgent quadrant and why its practical instruction is to schedule that work rather than merely intend it.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR QUADRANTS OF URGENCY AND IMPORTANCE



The growth quadrant never shouts, so it must be booked, not intended

Figure 1. Two independent axes produce four responses. Important but not urgent work is the quadrant sacrificed first and the one whose value compounds (Covey, 1989).

HOW IT IS USED

List next week's tasks, place each in a quadrant, then book calendar time for the important but not urgent items before anything else claims the space. Delegate or delete the lower half deliberately.

WHEN IT IS USED

During weekly planning, when a week has been busy without visible progress, and when every item on a list appears equally pressing and the order of work is being set by the inbox.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Anyone allocating their own time, managers deciding what to delegate, and teams whose improvement work is permanently postponed by delivery work. It is most useful where people control a meaningful share of their own schedule.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Conventional time management ranked a single to-do list by deadline, which structurally guarantees that important work without a deadline is never reached. Separating urgency from importance makes that failure visible and gives it a name. The matrix offers no method for judging importance, which is the harder question, and it assumes genuine control over one's own schedule. Its quadrant labels are also sometimes misapplied, with delegation treated as a way to offload rather than develop others.

Human Edge · AI can sort a task list by deadline and even suggest quadrants, but judging what is important to your goals and values remains a human decision.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

OKRs at Personal Level · [Slibrary 15](#)SMART Goals · [Slibrary 4](#)The RACI Matrix · [Slibrary 12](#)Distil · Decompose · Prioritise · [Slibrary 7](#)

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OKRs at Personal Level

SLIBRARY 15
SHEET 2 / 5

One qualitative objective, three measurable key results

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

An OKR pairs a single qualitative objective, a direction stated memorably, with a small number of key results that are quantitative, time-bound and verifiable. Key results measure outcomes rather than activity, so completing the listed tasks does not by itself count as achievement. At personal level the course uses one objective and three key results per term, reviewed weekly and scored rather than passed or failed, with ambitious targets expected to land somewhat short (Doerr, 2018).

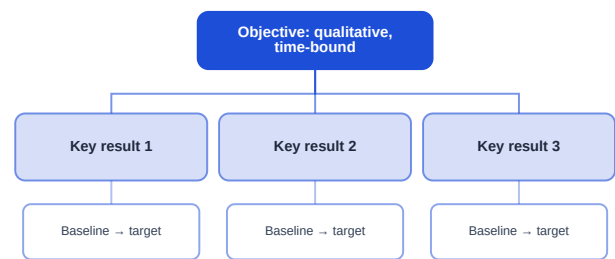
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Andrew Grove developed the method at Intel in the 1970s as an evolution of Peter Drucker's Management by Objectives and described it in High Output Management (1983). John Doerr, who learned it at Intel, introduced it to Google in 1999 and set it out for a general readership in Measure What Matters (2018), including examples of individuals applying it to their own goals (Grove, 1983).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Management by Objectives had often become annual, private and tied to pay, which encouraged cautious targets that vanished from view between reviews. Grove's changes addressed each failure: shorter cycles, visible goals, and separation from compensation so that ambitious targets could be set without penalty. At personal level the same logic counters the tendency to confuse a busy task list with progress towards anything in particular.

FIGURE 1 · ONE OBJECTIVE, THREE KEY RESULTS



If it has no number and no date, it is not a key result

Figure 1. A directional objective supported by three measurable outcomes. Key results measure results, not the activity undertaken to produce them (Doerr, 2018).

HOW IT IS USED

Write an objective that would motivate you without further explanation, then three key results a sceptic could verify without asking you. Check progress weekly and score each result honestly at the end.

WHEN IT IS USED

At the start of a term, quarter or project, when effort is high but direction unclear, and whenever personal goals have drifted into task lists that measure activity rather than outcomes.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Individuals structuring a term's study or a career step, teams and organisations setting quarterly direction, and managers aligning personal development goals with wider organisational objectives.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Management by Objectives established negotiated objectives but left cadence, visibility and the activity versus outcome distinction unspecified, which is where it failed in practice. OKRs specify all three. The risks are well documented: separating OKRs from reward is essential and frequently abandoned, and heavily quantified goals can narrow attention, encourage gaming and displace valuable work that resists measurement (Ordóñez et al., 2009).

Human Edge · AI can draft measurable key results in seconds, but choosing an objective worth a term of your effort is a judgment about purpose that stays with you.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

SMART Goals · [Slibrary 4](#)

Ikigai · [Slibrary 4](#)

The GROW Model · [Slibrary 4](#)

The Eisenhower Matrix · [Slibrary 15](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Doerr, J. (2018) Measure What Matters. New York: Portfolio/Penguin.

Grove, A.S. (1983) High Output Management. New York: Random House.

Ordóñez, L.D., Schweitzer, M.E., Galinsky, A.D. and Bazerman, M.H. (2009) 'Goals gone wild: the systematic side effects of overprescribing goal setting', Academy of Management Perspectives, 23(1), pp. 6–16.

The Four Energy Dimensions

SLIBRARY 15
SHEET 3 / 5

Physical · Emotional · Mental · Spiritual

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Four Energy Dimensions treat performance as a function of managed energy rather than allocated hours. Physical energy sets the quantity available, emotional energy its quality, mental energy its focus, and spiritual energy, meaning alignment with purpose, its direction and force. Each dimension is depleted by use and restored only by deliberate recovery, so capacity grows through oscillation between effort and renewal rather than through ever longer working days (Loehr and Schwartz, 2003).

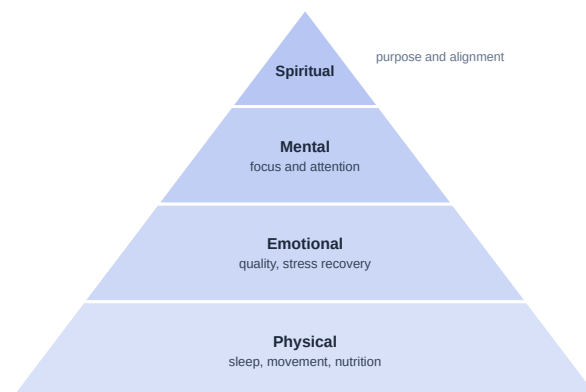
WHO DEVELOPED IT

Jim Loehr, a performance psychologist, and Tony Schwartz, a journalist and consultant, developed the model at LGE Performance Systems, generalising from work with elite athletes to executives in *The Power of Full Engagement* (2003). Schwartz later tested it in organisations and summarised the approach in the Harvard Business Review article 'Manage your energy, not your time' (Schwartz and McCarthy, 2007).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Time-management systems assume that hours are interchangeable, which anyone attempting analytical work at the end of a long day knows to be false. Loehr and Schwartz observed that executives were already at their time limit and could improve only by changing the quality of the hours they had. Their central reversal is that recovery is productive rather than residual, and must therefore be planned rather than left to chance.

FIGURE 1 · THE FOUR ENERGY DIMENSIONS



Capacity is built by oscillation between effort and recovery

Figure 1. Four dimensions resting on a physical base. Each is expended by use and restored only by scheduled recovery (Loehr and Schwartz, 2003).

HOW IT IS USED

Identify which dimension is depleted rather than assuming the answer is more time, attach one specific recovery ritual to it, and schedule your most demanding work in your peak physical hours.

WHEN IT IS USED

When output falls despite unchanged hours, before a sustained high-demand period such as exams or a launch, and when a planning system is followed faithfully but no longer produces results.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Individuals designing a sustainable working week, managers setting realistic team workload before a demanding period, coaches and mentors, and anyone whose real difficulty is depletion of energy rather than disorganisation of time.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Classical time management treats the person as a container of interchangeable hours and responds to overload by finding more of them. The energy model reframes capacity as renewable and makes recovery a designed input, which shifts the intervention from scheduling to ritual design. The supporting evidence is largely practitioner case material rather than controlled trials, though recovery research is consistent with it (Sonnentag and Fritz, 2007), and the spiritual dimension resists measurement.

Human Edge · AI adds working hours without tiring, but it cannot notice or restore your energy; managing your own capacity is a distinctly human discipline.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

[The Yerkes–Dodson Nerve Curve · Slibrary 8](#)
[The Eisenhower Matrix · Slibrary 15](#)
[Ikigai · Slibrary 4](#)
[The Human Edge Triangle · Slibrary 1](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Loehr, J. and Schwartz, T. (2003) *The Power of Full Engagement*. New York: Free Press.

Schwartz, T. and McCarthy, C. (2007) 'Manage your energy, not your time', *Harvard Business Review*, 85(10), pp. 63–73.

Sonnentag, S. and Fritz, C. (2007) 'The Recovery Experience Questionnaire: development and validation of a measure for assessing recuperation and unwinding from work', *Journal of Occupational Health Psychology*, 12(3), pp. 204–221.

The Twenty-Minute Sprint

SLIBRARY 15
SHEET 4 / 5

A short, bounded, single-task block with a hard stop

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Twenty-Minute Sprint is a short, bounded work session in which one task receives undivided attention until a timer ends it, followed by a brief break. It combines two practices: timeboxing, which sets a strict limit on time spent on one task regardless of progress, and time blocking, which assigns such boxes to fixed slots in the day. The hard stop lowers the cost of starting, protects attention from switching, and makes progress on dreaded or open-ended work measurable (Meier, 2010).

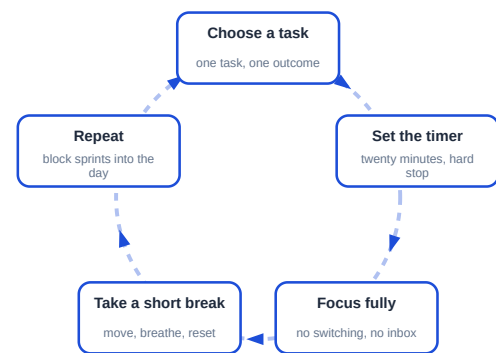
WHO DEVELOPED IT

J.D. Meier, a former Microsoft programme manager, promotes twenty-minute sprints within his Agile Results system, set out in *Getting Results the Agile Way* (2010), which borrows timeboxing from agile software delivery. The practice is closely related to the Pomodoro Technique, which Francesco Cirillo developed as a student in the late 1980s using a kitchen timer and 25-minute intervals (Cirillo, 2018).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Knowledge work tends to expand to fill available time, and large or unpleasant tasks are postponed because their end is not in sight. A short fixed box removes both problems: the commitment is small enough to begin, and the stop is certain. Attention research adds a further reason, since switching between tasks leaves an attention residue that lowers performance on the next task (Leroy, 2009).

FIGURE 1 · THE TWENTY-MINUTE SPRINT



Timeboxing limits the task; time blocking gives it a place

Figure 1. Five moves repeated through the day. The hard stop makes starting cheap and protects attention from switching (Meier, 2010; Cirillo, 2018).

HOW IT IS USED

Pick one task with a visible outcome, close other windows, set a twenty-minute timer and stop when it rings. Put recurring sprints in the calendar for skills you want to build, such as writing each morning.

WHEN IT IS USED

When starting work that has been postponed, when attention is fragmented by messages, for open-ended tasks like reading or drafting, and when energy is limited and a long block is unrealistic.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students tackling assignments and exam preparation, professionals protecting deep work from meetings, writers and analysts, and teams running short focused sessions on a shared problem.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

The predecessor is the Pomodoro Technique, which fixed 25-minute intervals and a counting routine. Meier's version is simpler and pairs the timebox explicitly with time blocking, so sprints are planned into the day rather than triggered ad hoc. Evidence for any exact interval is weak; twenty minutes is a practical convention, and deep analytical work may need longer blocks once the habit of starting is established.

Human Edge · AI can draft within any timebox, but choosing the one task that matters and holding your own attention on it is the human part.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Four Energy Dimensions · [Slibrary 15](#)

The Yerkes–Dodson Nerve Curve · [Slibrary 8](#)

The Gantt Chart · [Slibrary 11](#)

Mollick's Four Rules of Co-Intelligence · [Slibrary 1](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Meier, J.D. (2010) *Getting Results the Agile Way: A Personal Results System for Work and Life*. Bellevue, WA: Innovation Playhouse.

Cirillo, F. (2018) *The Pomodoro Technique: The Life-Changing Time-Management System*. New York: Currency.

Leroy, S. (2009) 'Why is it so hard to do my work? The challenge of attention residue when switching between work tasks', *Organizational Behavior and Human Decision Processes*, 109(2), pp. 168–181.

Monday Vision · Daily Wins · Friday Reflection

SLIBRARY 15
SHEET 5 / 5

A weekly rhythm of three outcomes, three wins, three lessons

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Meier's weekly pattern has three moves. Monday Vision sets three outcomes for the week ahead, chosen against the longer horizon rather than against the inbox. Daily Wins names three outcomes each morning that serve those weekly outcomes. Friday Reflection records three things going well and three to improve, and feeds them into the next Monday. The cycle is deliberately short, so correction happens weekly rather than at an annual review (Meier, 2010).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

J.D. Meier developed the pattern as the operating rhythm of his Agile Results system, described in *Getting Results the Agile Way* (2010), after refining it with teams at Microsoft. In doing so, it applies the iteration and retrospective structure of agile delivery to individual work, and its reflective step corresponds to the reflective observation stage of Kolb's experiential learning cycle (Kolb, 1984).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Meier's diagnosis was that productivity systems handle execution well and learning badly: people repeat the same week many times without improving it, because nothing in the system asks what happened. Friday Reflection supplies the missing step. The weekly cadence was chosen because it is short enough for detail to be remembered and long enough for a recurring pattern to become visible.

FIGURE 1 · A THREE-MOVE WEEKLY RHYTHM



Without Friday the loop repeats the week instead of improving it
Figure 1. Plan, do and review closing every week. Friday's lessons become the input to next Monday's vision (Meier, 2010).

HOW IT IS USED

Book thirty minutes on Monday and twenty on Friday as recurring appointments, and a few minutes each morning. Write the reflection down, because an unwritten reflection rarely survives to Monday.

WHEN IT IS USED

Weekly throughout a term, project or new role, and particularly when workload is high enough that reflection feels unaffordable, which is when it is most needed.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students across a term, professionals building a sustainable working rhythm, and teams running the same pattern together as a lightweight weekly planning and retrospective routine.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Most personal systems provide capture, planning and execution but no structured learning step, so improvement depends on the person happening to notice something. This pattern makes reflection a scheduled component with a defined output that feeds the next cycle, bringing the agile retrospective into individual practice. It is practitioner-derived rather than empirically tested, and the reflective step is usually the first abandoned under pressure.

Human Edge · AI can summarise your week from calendars and messages, but deciding which lessons matter and what to change next is reflective judgment only you can exercise.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

OKRs at Personal Level · [Slibrary 15](#)

SMART Goals · [Slibrary 4](#)

The Ladder of Inference · [Slibrary 6](#)

Dreyfus Skill Acquisition Model · [Slibrary 4](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Meier, J.D. (2010) *Getting Results the Agile Way: A Personal Results System for Work and Life*. Bellevue, WA: Innovation Playhouse.
Kolb, D.A. (1984) *Experiential Learning: Experience as the Source of Learning and Development*. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice Hall.
Schön, D.A. (1983) *The Reflective Practitioner: How Professionals Think in Action*. New York: Basic Books.

Prompt Anatomy

SLIBRARY 16
SHEET 1 / 5

Role · Task · Context · Format · Constraints

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Prompt Anatomy treats a request to a generative AI model as a specification with five components: the role the model should adopt, the task stated as a single instruction, the context it would otherwise fill from assumption, the format the output must take, and the constraints it must respect, such as length, tone, audience and what to avoid. Components left unspecified are not omitted by the model; they are filled with the most probable generic default (Mollick, 2024).

WHO DEVELOPED IT

Prompt structure is a practitioner convention that converged across many sources, including model providers' prompt-engineering guidance, rather than the work of any single author or institution. This five-part version is a course synthesis drawing on Ethan Mollick's advice to give the model a persona and rich context, and on catalogues of reusable prompt patterns (Mollick, 2024; White et al., 2023).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Language models produce output conditioned on the request, so an underspecified request returns the most likely generic response, which is why vague prompts yield fluent but characterless text. Naming the components makes the request auditable: when output is wrong, the failure can be traced to a missing component rather than blamed on the model, and a good prompt can be reused and shared.

FIGURE 1 · FIVE COMPONENTS OF A SPECIFIED REQUEST

Role	who the model should be
Task	one instruction, stated plainly
Context	what it cannot infer
Format	the shape of the output
Constraints	length, tone, what to avoid

Anything unspecified is filled with the default, not left out

Figure 1. Five components of a prompt. A disappointing output usually signals a missing component rather than a limit of the model (Mollick, 2024).

HOW IT IS USED

Draft the prompt against the five components before sending it. When output disappoints, identify which component was missing or vague and add it, rather than rewriting from scratch or switching tools.

WHEN IT IS USED

Whenever substantive work is delegated to a model, when building a reusable prompt for a team, and when output is fluent but generic, off-audience or the wrong length.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Anyone working with generative AI, students producing work that must be defensible, and teams standardising prompts for recurring tasks such as summaries, briefs and first drafts.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Early practice treated prompting as an undocumented knack, which made results hard to reproduce or teach. Decomposing the request into named components makes prompts diagnosable, transferable and improvable by inspection; worked examples can be added where a task is easier to show than describe (Brown et al., 2020). Specific techniques age quickly as models change, and a well-specified prompt still produces output that must be verified.

Human Edge · AI will follow a specification literally, but knowing what the task really requires, for whom, and within which limits is the professional judgment the prompt encodes.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

[The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · Slibrary 16](#)[Mollick's Four Rules of Co-Intelligence · Slibrary 1](#)[The 7 Cs of Communication · Slibrary 9](#)[The Storyline Canvas · Slibrary 9](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Mollick, E. (2024) Co-Intelligence: Living and Working with AI. New York: Portfolio/Penguin.

White, J. et al. (2023) 'A prompt pattern catalog to enhance prompt engineering with ChatGPT', arXiv preprint, arXiv:2302.11382.

Brown, T.B. et al. (2020) 'Language models are few-shot learners', Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems, 33, pp. 1877–1901.

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop

SLIBRARY 16
SHEET 2 / 5

Hand over the task, check the output, keep the accountability

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop describes the working relationship with an AI system in three stages. Delegate: hand over a bounded task and state explicitly what was handed over. Verify: check the output against sources, calculations or your own expertise, at a depth proportionate to the consequence of an error rather than to the effort saved. Own: accept full accountability for what is submitted or signed, because responsibility never transfers to the tool (Amershi et al., 2019).

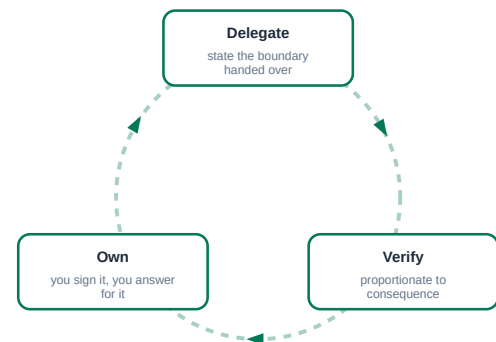
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The loop was developed for MASCO101 by Hildegard Haas. It adapts the human-AI interaction guidelines of Saleema Amershi and colleagues at Microsoft Research, which ask systems to make clear what they can do and how well, combined with human-factors research on automation misuse by Parasuraman and Riley (1997) and the human oversight requirements of the EU AI Act (European Parliament and Council, 2024).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Two failures recur in machine-assisted work. The first is delegating a task without stating its boundary, so nobody knows what was checked. The second is verification decaying as the tool proves reliable, the automation bias finding applied to generative systems. The unit case shows the cost: Arclight Consulting saved 40% of analyst time with an AI workflow, then lost a client when the verification step was dropped.

FIGURE 1 · THREE STAGES, ONE ACCOUNTABLE PERSON



The loop breaks at Verify, almost every time

Figure 1. Three stages repeated for each task. Verification depth follows the stakes, and accountability stays with the person who signs (Amershi et al., 2019; Haas, 2026).

HOW IT IS USED

Before delegating, write one line stating what the tool will do and what it will not. Set the verification depth by asking what an error would cost, and sign off only what you could defend unaided.

WHEN IT IS USED

Every time AI output enters work you will submit, sign, publish or act on, and especially after a long run of reliable results, when checking feels least necessary.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Professionals using AI in client-facing or regulated settings, students working under academic-integrity rules, and managers and team leads setting shared standards for when and how machine-assisted work is checked and signed off.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Organisational responses to generative AI have tended towards blanket policy, either prohibition or open permission, neither of which distinguishes tasks by consequence. The loop makes the decision task by task and places it with the accountable person. It is a course synthesis rather than a validated model, and it relies on honest self-assessment of one's ability to verify, which is least reliable where expertise is thinnest.

Human Edge · AI can do the delegated work and even flag its own uncertainty, but it cannot be accountable; owning the result is the one stage that never transfers.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Task Delegation Matrix · **Slibrary 16**

The Automation Bias Curve · **Slibrary 6**

The Hallucination Risk Ladder · **Slibrary 2**

The RACI Matrix · **Slibrary 12**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Amershi, S. et al. (2019) 'Guidelines for human-AI interaction', Proceedings of the 2019 CHI Conference on Human Factors in Computing Systems, pp. 1–13. Adapted for MASCO101 by Haas, H. (2026).

Parasuraman, R. and Riley, V. (1997) 'Humans and automation: use, misuse, disuse, abuse', Human Factors, 39(2), pp. 230–253.

European Parliament and Council (2024) Regulation (EU) 2024/1689 laying down harmonised rules on artificial intelligence (Artificial Intelligence Act). Official Journal of the European Union.

Mollick, E. (2024) Co-Intelligence: Living and Working with AI. New York: Portfolio/Penguin.

The Task Delegation Matrix

SLIBRARY 16
SHEET 3 / 5

Stakes × verifiability — what to hand over and what to keep

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Task Delegation Matrix decides whether and how to hand a task to an AI system by crossing two questions: how costly an error would be, and how cheaply the output can be checked. Low-stakes, easily checked work is delegated freely; low-stakes work that is hard to check is delegated with sample checks; high-stakes work that is easy to check is delegated and checked every time; high-stakes work that is hard to check is kept (Iansiti and Lakhani, 2020).

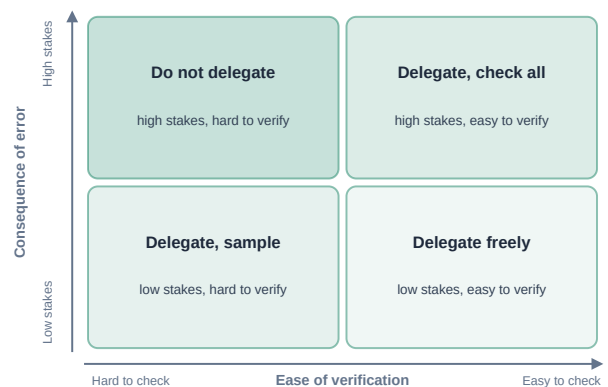
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The matrix was adapted for MASCO101 by Hildegard Haas from Marco Iansiti and Karim Lakhani's analysis of AI-driven operating models at Harvard Business School, which separates what algorithms can scale from the judgment firms must retain. It also reflects Agrawal, Gans and Goldfarb's distinction between cheap prediction and the human judgment needed to act on it (Agrawal, Gans and Goldfarb, 2018).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Individuals decide dozens of times a day whether to hand a task to AI, usually on convenience alone. Field evidence shows that AI raises quality on tasks inside its capability frontier and lowers it on tasks just outside, where fluent output hides errors (Dell'Acqua et al., 2023). The matrix replaces convenience with two explicit questions that predict where delegation fails.

FIGURE 1 · STAKES × VERIFIABILITY



Delegate by consequence and checkability, not by convenience

Figure 1. Two questions produce four handling rules. The top-left quadrant is where fluent output is most dangerous (Iansiti and Lakhani, 2020; Haas, 2026).

HOW IT IS USED

For each candidate task, rate the cost of an undetected error and the cost of checking the output. Place it in a quadrant and apply that rule; record the placement so the team handles similar tasks consistently.

WHEN IT IS USED

When planning an AI-assisted workflow, before handing a new type of task to a model, and when a team's AI use has grown by habit rather than by decision.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Knowledge workers and students deciding what to hand to AI, team leads designing shared workflows, and risk, quality or compliance functions setting clear boundaries for machine-assisted work.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Earlier delegation guidance, from the Eisenhower Matrix to managerial delegation models, asked whether a person was available and capable. This matrix asks instead whether the output can be checked, because an AI system is always available and its capability is uneven. It is a course heuristic, not an empirically validated instrument, and ratings of stakes and verifiability are subjective and shift as tools and expertise change.

Human Edge · AI can perform tasks in every quadrant, but only a person can judge what an error would cost and whether they could recognise one.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · [Slibrary 16](#)Probability–Impact Matrix · [Slibrary 12](#)Automation–Augmentation Spectrum · [Slibrary 1](#)The Eisenhower Matrix · [Slibrary 15](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Iansiti, M. and Lakhani, K.R. (2020) Competing in the Age of AI. Boston: Harvard Business Review Press. Adapted for MASCO101 by Haas, H. (2026).
 Agrawal, A., Gans, J. and Goldfarb, A. (2018) Prediction Machines: The Simple Economics of Artificial Intelligence. Boston: Harvard Business Review Press.
 Dell'Acqua, F. et al. (2023) 'Navigating the jagged technological frontier: field experimental evidence of the effects of AI on knowledge worker productivity and quality', Harvard Business School Working Paper, No. 24-013.

The Attribution & Integrity Ladder

SLIBRARY 16
SHEET 4 / 5

From tool use to co-authorship — declaring the boundary honestly

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

The Attribution & Integrity Ladder sets out ascending levels of AI involvement in a piece of work: ordinary tool use such as search or spelling checks, assistance with language and structure, AI-drafted material substantially reworked by the author, and content co-produced with a model. Each rung requires a matching declaration. An AI system can never be an author, because it cannot take responsibility for the work, so accountability stays with the human at every rung (COPE, 2023).

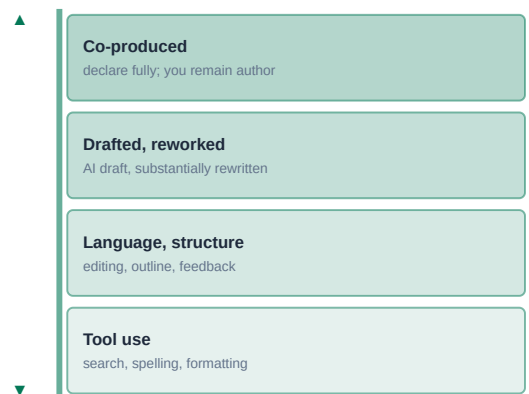
WHO DEVELOPED IT

The ladder is a course synthesis of academic-integrity guidance rather than the work of one author. It draws on the Committee on Publication Ethics position that AI tools cannot meet authorship criteria, on the Russell Group's 2023 principles on generative AI in education, and on the AI Assessment Scale developed by Mike Perkins and colleagues (Russell Group, 2023; Perkins et al., 2024).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Institutions first tried to police AI use through detection, which failed on the evidence: detectors are unreliable and disproportionately misclassify writing by non-native English speakers (Liang et al., 2023). Attention shifted to declaration and evidence of process, which asks a different question: not whether AI was used, but whether its use was declared honestly and whether human judgment and responsibility were retained throughout.

FIGURE 1 · FOUR RUNGS OF DECLARED INVOLVEMENT



The rung is declared, not detected; keep the evidence of process

Figure 1. Four ascending rungs of AI involvement. At every rung the human is the author and answers for the work (COPE, 2023; Russell Group, 2023).

HOW IT IS USED

Check the permitted rung for each assessment or client, declare the highest rung you reached, and keep drafts and prompt records as evidence of process. Never list a model as author or co-author.

WHEN IT IS USED

On every submitted assessment, in client reports and publications where provenance matters, and whenever you are unsure whether a particular use of AI requires declaration under the applicable rules.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Students working under academic-integrity regulations, educators designing assessments, researchers submitting to journals and funders, and professionals whose signed work carries legal, contractual or reputational weight.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Binary permitted-or-prohibited policies could not describe the range of real use, so they produced bans that were widely ignored or permissions without accountability. A graded ladder lets an institution specify the acceptable rung per task and makes declaration routine. Its limitation is that it rests on honest self-report: it creates a norm and an audit trail, not an enforcement mechanism, and rung boundaries remain open to interpretation.

Human Edge · AI can generate content at any rung, but it cannot be an author or take responsibility; declaring your use honestly is itself a professional skill.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

[The AI Disclosure Ladder · Slibrary 2](#)[The Delegate–Verify–Own Loop · Slibrary 16](#)[The Ethical Line · Slibrary 14](#)[The CRAAP Test · Slibrary 2](#)

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Committee on Publication Ethics (COPE) (2023) Authorship and AI Tools: COPE Position Statement. COPE.
Russell Group (2023) Russell Group Principles on the Use of Generative AI Tools in Education. London: Russell Group.
Perkins, M., Furze, L., Roe, J. and MacVaugh, J. (2024) 'The Artificial Intelligence Assessment Scale (AIAS): a framework for ethical integration of generative AI in educational assessment', *Journal of University Teaching and Learning Practice*, 21(6).
Liang, W., Yuksekgonul, M., Mao, Y., Wu, E. and Zou, J. (2023) 'GPT detectors are biased against non-native English writers', *Patterns*, 4(7), 100779.

Thumbnail Thinking & Slibraries

SLIBRARY 16
SHEET 5 / 5

A curated mental catalogue of visuals you can flip through under pressure

PROFESSIONAL DEFINITION

Thumbnail Thinking is the practice of building a mental catalogue of well-designed visuals, such as frameworks, models, maps and matrices, so that any problem can be approached faster. The visuals are organised into Slibraries, or slide libraries, grouped by domain. Faced with a hard question, the thinker first asks which picture fits, sketches it, and reasons from it. Meier credits the approach with four benefits: speed, compression, shareability and combinability (Meier, 2025).

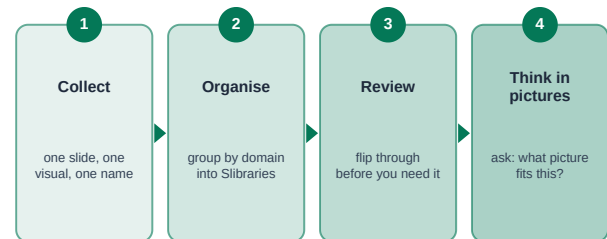
WHO DEVELOPED IT

J.D. Meier developed the approach over some 25 years at Microsoft, where he curated and created thousands of single-slide visuals and organised them into domain Slibraries for decision-making. He presents it as a visual layer on Charlie Munger's latticework of mental models. MASCO101 is itself structured as sixteen Slibraries of five frameworks each, one sheet per framework (Meier, 2025; Munger, 1994).

WHY IT WAS DEVELOPED

Meier's starting point is the meeting in which a senior leader asks for a strategy and the mind offers only a wall of half-remembered text. Reasoning from scratch under pressure is slow; pattern-matching against a known visual is fast. Diagrams also group related information spatially, which reduces search and makes inferences easier to see, a long-established finding in cognitive science (Larkin and Simon, 1987).

FIGURE 1 · FOUR STEPS TO THUMBNAIL THINKING



Most people collect notes; the best thinkers collect ways of seeing

Figure 1. Four steps from collecting visuals to thinking with them. A curated Slibrary turns reading into recall under pressure (Meier, 2025).

HOW IT IS USED

Save each framework that explains how something works as one slide with one name, file it in a domain Slibrary, review the relevant set before a big meeting, and sketch the fitting picture when a hard problem appears.

WHEN IT IS USED

Before high-stakes meetings, presentations and negotiations, when a discussion is circling without structure, and throughout the course when choosing which framework to apply to a case.

BY WHOM IT IS USED

Leaders and consultants who must structure problems quickly, students building a toolkit across the course's sixteen Slibraries, and teams that want a shared visual vocabulary.

INNOVATION RELATIVE TO THE PREDECESSOR TOOL

Munger's latticework of mental models lives in one person's head and is expressed in words. Meier adds a visual, shareable layer: a Slibrary is a deck anyone can open, and visuals can be overlaid to reveal new combinations. The approach is practitioner-derived and not empirically tested as a system, and a catalogue can encourage forcing a familiar picture onto a problem it does not fit.

Human Edge · AI can generate a diagram on request, but recognising which picture fits a new problem, and when none does, is the pattern judgment a Slibrary trains.

RELATED FRAMEWORKS IN THIS COURSE

The Pyramid Principle · **Slibrary 8**

Data-Ink Ratio · **Slibrary 8**

System 1 / System 2 · **Slibrary 6**

The Human Edge Triangle · **Slibrary 1**

SOURCES (HARVARD REFERENCING STYLE)

Meier, J.D. (2025) Thumbnail Thinking: The Visual Operating System for Better Decisions. Available at: jdmeier.com.

Larkin, J.H. and Simon, H.A. (1987) 'Why a diagram is (sometimes) worth ten thousand words', *Cognitive Science*, 11(1), pp. 65–99.

Munger, C.T. (1994) 'A lesson on elementary, worldly wisdom as it relates to investment management and business', lecture, USC Marshall School of Business, Los Angeles.